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The Poetics of Envy in Lucan's *Bellum Civile*

A dissertation submitted in partial satisfaction of the

requirements for the degree Doctor of Philosophy

in Classics

by

Sean Martin Easton

2003

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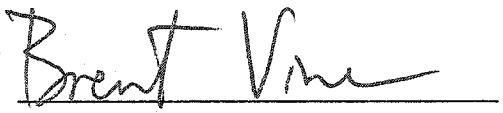
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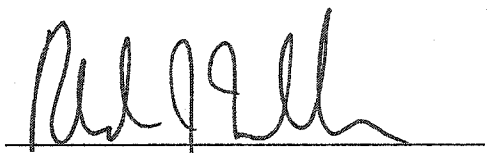
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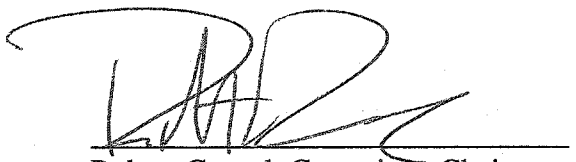
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ABSTRACT OF THE DISSERTATION

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The thesis of this dissertation is that Lucan depicts envy as a malign generative force, which creates both the matter and the manner of the *Bellum Civile*.[1] Envy shapes the psychological motivations of the poem's characters and impacts the events of the history it recounts. Envy is characterized as both an impulse and an obstacle to the narrator's ability to perform his vatic office. Lucan's use of envy, while innovative in scope, is nevertheless consistent with its previous portrayals in the Greco-Roman tradition, in which it is a socially destructive force, harmful to good poetry and proper social discourse. Allusion to prior literary tradition is therefore an important means of understanding the role of envy in the poem.

[1] Envy proper: *invidia*, *livor*. Related emotions, also discussed below: *dolor*, *obtrectatio*.

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In chapter one, I consider the metaliterary associations of envy that Lucan inherited from Callimachus and his Roman adapters. The subject of my second chapter is the poem's public speakers and their use of envy to goad reluctant listeners to participate in civil war. In chapter three, I examine the last two books of the poem and suggest that part of the significance of Cato's character lies in his struggle to lead without either succumbing to envy or provoking it others. Although Cato's attempt has only mixed success, Lucan presents it as the only path of resistance to the subversive power of envy that prevails everywhere else in the poem.

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Introduction

Indignatio and *Invidia*

Indignatio has long been recognized as a distinguishing quality of Lucan's narrative style.[1] The rhetoric of *indignatio* produces several of the most recognizable features of the *BC*, the accusatory mode of its narration, its gargantuan imagery, the frequency of paradox, and an intense *sympatheia* between the human and natural realms.[2] Konrad Seitz contrasts Lucan's accusatory *indignatio* with the *miseratio* of Virgil, which extends sympathy even to the poem's antagonists.[3] Emanuele Narducci develops Seitz's position further, arguing that Lucanian *indignatio* also characterizes the poem's attitude toward its antecedent texts, especially the *Aeneid*.[4] The narrator does not simply speak indignantly about his subject; he reads prior literary tradition indignantly as well.

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[1] K. Seitz (1965) "Der pathetische Erzählstil Lucans," *Hermes* 94, 204-232; see especially pp. 206-8 and *passim*. Also, see E. Narducci (1979) *La provvidenza crudele*, Pisa, 115-17; (2002) *Lucano: un'epica contro l'impero*, Rome, 88-94.

[2] Seitz, 214.

[3] The question as to whether Cato is an exception to Lucan's subversion of the epic hero does not particularly affect this aspect of the argument. Either Cato is also condemned by Lucan, as argued in W. R. Johnson (1987), M. Leigh (1997), and D. Hershkowitz (1998), and becomes thereby a target of Lucan's *indignatio*; or, if Cato is a positive character, it is nonetheless apparent that much of what he says is indignant condemnation of something or someone. On this reading, Cato would be a means rather than a target of the poet's *indignatio*.

[4] Narducci (1979) 35-37.

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In the *Rhetoric*, Aristotle notes a degree of ambiguity between indignation and envy. Although indignation (*nemesis*) is positive for Aristotle, it is also the emotion most similar to envy (*phthonos*) in that it consists of mental pain experienced when a person witnesses some good fortune befalling a neighbor.[5] The difference is that envy is felt at the success of a peer, but indignation is directed at a person of lesser rank, who is also unworthy of such fortune. Although the issues of social rank do not apply, Lucan's narrator struggles to be a poet of *nemesis* rather than *phthonos*. He is challenged by a continually resurgent *phthonos*, which arises both from the subject matter and his own response to it.

Envy's Scripts

In his forthcoming study of *invidia* in Latin literature, Robert Kaster discusses the applicability of *phthonos* and *nemesis* to a discussion of *invidia*.[6] Kaster argues that emotions are more complex than a solely lexical focus would allow and are therefore best studied in terms of the 'scripts' according to which they typically function. A script in this case is the larger story in which a particular emotion occurs. Each script envisions a basic scenario according to which envy is aroused. Since envy may occur in concert with other emotions and may have different particular causes or take different incidental forms, the notion of a script is more valuable than a lexical definition for the interpretation of a given instance of *invidia*, because it takes context into account.

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[5] Aristotle, *Rhet.*, 1386b-87b, 2.9.1-16, especially 2.9.3.

[6] R. Kaster (2003) "*Invidia, νέμεσις, φθόνος*, and the Roman Emotional Economy," in *Envy, Spite, and Jealousy: The Rivalrous Emotions in Ancient Greece*, ed. D. Konstan and K. Rutter, Edinburgh, pp. 253-76.

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Kaster identifies four scripts for envy in Latin literature, three of which correspond to the Greek concept of *phthonos* and a fourth, which matches the Greek notion of *nemesis*. The first two scripts concern *invidia* as a feeling of mental pain (*dolor* or *aegritudo*) at some good (*commoda, fortuna, felicitas*) that has befallen another. Script 1 (corresponding to *phthonos*) describes an experience of mental pain at another's good, simply because it is a good. In script 2 (also *phthonos*) distress is experienced specifically because the good in question belongs to someone else in particular. Both scripts are without reference to any principle of justice.

Scripts 3 (*phthonos*) and 4 (*nemesis*) are to be distinguished from 1 and 2 in that they do refer to principles of justice. In script 3, one experiences distress at another's good, because one feels that it should rightfully belong to oneself. In script 4 (*nemesis*), the principle of justice is not merely self-referential, but extends to society in general. Envy is felt, because the good in question is enjoyed at the expense of society at large. These scripts may occur in combination or separately and, importantly, multiple emotional reactions can be involved in an *invidia* script. Depending on the circumstances, the process of envying or resenting another may involve anger, grief, hatred, spite, or other emotions. As Kaster puts it, "The 'emotion' rightly so-called, however, is the whole process and all its constituent elements, experienced as a whole..."[7]

The central tension between Pompey and Caesar can be understood as a conflict between scripts 3 and 4. Each resents the accomplishments and status of the other, because they feel properly entitled to sole possession of such honors. Each is also

[7] Kaster (2001) "The Dynamics of *Fastidium* and the Ideology of Disgust," *TAPA* 113, 143-89, 148.

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concerned to represent this script 3 form of envy as if it were script 4, *nemesis*. As we shall see in chapter 3, this tension between scripts 3 and 4 figures significantly in the major envy speeches in the poem. As for the narrator, his *indignatio* may be seen as a performance of *invidia* of the *nemesis* variety.

Although scripts 3 and 4 are the main source of the tension in the cases of Caesar, Pompey, and the narrator, the conflict between the principled forms of *invidia* does also at times degenerate into a broader tension between the principled and the unprincipled scripts. Caesar, for instance, as I shall discuss in chapter 2, denounces Pompey for the possession of honors, which, Caesar heavily implies, should be his (script 3). At other occasions, such as his envy of the Trojan past, which we will we look at below, Caesar resents something simply because it is greater than he is; or, perhaps even more generally, because he does not yet possess it (script 1).

Envy and Stoicism

The Stoics divided emotions into the categories of desire and distress (*aegritudo*). Both categories are causative, but the emotions of desire are more strongly so than the emotions of distress. Envy (*invidia*) and rivalry (*aemulitas*) are forms of distress, but anger a form of desire (i.e. the desire for revenge), and indignation is discounted as an emotion.[8] Distress is oriented toward the present and desire toward the future.[9]

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[8] *Tusc. Disp.*, 4.16. Actually, rather than *invidia* Cicero uses his neologism *invidentia* in order to render the sense of envy as an action. On the Stoic elimination of indignation and redefinition of rivalrous emotions

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According to the Stoic definition, envy is the experience of distress at the good fortune of another, even though that good fortune has not harmed the one who envies.[10] Rivalry (Greek: *zelos* / Latin: *aemulitas*) is the distress one feels when another has gained what one had wished for oneself. It is a positive emotion in Aristotle, as is indignation (*nemesis* / *indignatio*), yet the Stoics redefine the first as negative and eliminate the second entirely. Perhaps, if there is a clue to be found in the Aristotelian analogy to *phthonos*, *nemesis* appears to the Stoics as a proposal for a positive experience of distress (*aegritudo*), under which rubric they categorize most of the other rivalrous emotions. The Stoics consider a morally positive version of a fundamentally bad thing to be impossible. Hence, indignation has no obvious place in the Stoic scheme. Therefore, the concept of rivalry as means to productive social competition, which Aristotle considers beneficial, and which are assumed in Roman culture, is not in accord with the Stoic conception of positive civic values.[11]

Although the Stoic definition of envy is too narrow to apply to the *BC*, there may be reason to consider the blanket Stoic condemnation of rivalrous emotion, including *indignatio*, as relevant to the poem. The most obtrusive manifestation of Lucan's *indignatio* is the narrator's accusatory manner. Although his prose works are rich in

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generally, see also M. Graver, tr. (2002) *Cicero on the Emotions: Tusculan Disputations 3 and 4*, Chicago, 142-45.

[9] *Tusc. Disp.* 4.16.

[10] *Tusc. Disp.* 4.16-17.

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moral condemnation, Seneca would no doubt insist that he places blame dispassionately. Lucan's narrator does not rise to such a level. The dramatic effect of this narrative voice might be lessened or lost if it did not consistently evoke a standard from which it deviates or which it transgresses.

In his study of Lucan's Stoicism, Hans Albert Schotes concludes that Lucan's Stoicism is learned, but not internalized. It is 'academic'.[12] Schotes adds that Lucan's Stoic 'heresy' allows his poetic individuality to step forward.[13] O. S. Due comments that, as a poet, Lucan has not made it his priority to be consistent in his philosophy. "Lucan's poem," he writes, "is pervaded by Stoicism, but it should be noted that Stoicism in Lucan is less a coherent ethical and physical system than a certain attitude to problems, moral as well as physical."[14] Denis Feeney develops this line of interpretation into the view that, for Lucan, Stoicism is 'a point of departure,' rather than a standard to which he rigidly adheres.[15] Lucan departs, he notes, in one of the most critical areas:[16]

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[11] Hence, Cicero speaks of rivalry in two senses, that of the Stoics (bad) and the non-Stoic (good). Similarly, Stobaeus includes non-Stoic defitions of rivalry. See *Tusc. Disp.* 3.17 with Graver's note.

[12] H. A. Schotes (1969) *Stoische Physik, Psychologie, und Theologie bei Lucan*, Bonn, 174-75.

[13] The argument of B. M. Marti that Pompey represents the figure of the Stoic *proficiens* has been generally rejected, B. Marti (1945) "The Meaning of the *Pharsalia*," *AJP* 66, 352-76. Cf. O. S. Due (1962) "An Essay on Lucan," *C&M* 22, 68-132, 108-10. Due remarks, however, that he would not "consider it impossible that Lucan to a certain degree had Stoicism's ethical doctrine of progress as a basis for – if I may so say – his impressionistic painting."

[14] Due, 86.

[15] D. C. Feeney (1991) *The Gods in Ancient Epic*, Cambridge, 283-84.

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None of the poem's options for the action of the gods is accommodating to the security offered by the Stoa. Ultimately, the poem has no philosophical scheme for understanding or explaining the gods' role in the destruction of the Republic, for the poet is trapped, as we have seen, by a paralysing collapse of authorial power, which bars him from enlightenment.

The position held in this dissertation is consistent with this analysis. I would add, however, that the philosophical discourses introduced by Cato and Acoreus also shape the poem, even though the narrator does not appear to fully understand them. The narrator does not explicitly incorporate the insight of Acoreus into his narrative, but connections in the form of verbal echoes can be seen, which tie the end of the poem as we have it with the end of Acoreus' speech on the Nile. The Nile speech is Lucan's most extensive engagement with the poem's astronomical, solar, and fluvial imagery. I argue, therefore, that Cato and Acoreus possess knowledge that the narrator does not fully comprehend. Nevertheless, their speech performances affect the reader's understanding of how the events of the poem are to be interpreted.[17] In this way, the explication of moral and natural philosophical knowledge also constitutes an act of power. Therefore, I shall argue, the poem may end at a point that inscribes epistemological, rather than

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[16] Ibid., 284.

[17] To this end, I discuss below why Acoreus' Nile speech is best understood as an extended allusion to *Naturales Quaestiones* 4A, Seneca's heavily moralizing treatise on the Nile.

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martial, power.[18] The narrator's termination of the narrative in book 10 will be shown to agree with the poem's epistemological acts of power, which ultimately trump their martial counterparts.

Feeney observes that Cato's wisdom is so harsh (death is the only certainty) that "the cautious reader will perhaps feel justified in only reluctantly giving full assent to the words of Cato."[19] Feeney further notes that Caesarism introduces the religious system of the future and, in its outwardly expansive movement, contrasts with the 'diverse privacies' of such varied characters as Erichtho and Cato.[20] For this reason, perhaps, Cato's greatest moral speech is confined to the shrine of Ammon, amidst the wastes of the Libyan desert. It is certainly correct to note this limitation on Cato. For all of his nobility, the narrator has failed to win the assent of a number of modern scholars to the words of the Stoic hero. The reasons for the mixed scholarly reaction to Cato are treated in chapter 3; however, a related concern should be addressed here. What has not been properly addressed in Lucan scholarship to date is the role of the Egyptian priest Acoreus, whose speech references the natural philosophy of Seneca.

The point of this passionate and confused narrator is to explore the history and morality of the civil war through the eyes of one who lacks the understanding of a Cato or an Acoreus. The intellectual and tempermental deficiencies of the narrator would have been familiar in at least a general way to an audience of Seneca's philosophical literature.

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[18] This approach is similar to the *Aeneid*'s, which ends with a physical, rather than mental, act of power.

[19] Feeney (1991) 291.

[20] Ibid., 292.

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The result, for the audience, would be a sort of inverted *consolatio*, in which for the vast majority of the poem, the person whose perspective is in need of repair, has taken control of the narrative. In the speeches of Cato, and more extensively and comprehensively in Acoreus' speech, voices representing venerable wisdom appear and compete for the audience's attention. The pattern of allusion to the *NQ* connects Acoreus with Seneca's treatise and, I shall argue, creates additional authority for the character.[21]

Envy and Lucan's Cosmos

Lucan establishes the status of *invidia* early in the poem, using it to introduce the poem's first and therefore programmatic simile, in which the collapse of the Republic is compared to the destruction of the universe (1.70-72): ***invida*** *fatorum series summisque negatum / stare diu nimioque graves sub pondere lapsus / nec se Roma ferens* ('it was the envious chain of the fates and the impossibility of standing for very long upon the heights and the heavy plunge beneath too much weight, and Rome unable to sustain herself'). There is a contemporary philosophical use of series in Seneca's *Naturales Quaestiones* (*NQ* 2.32.4): *alia ratione fatorum series explicatur indicia venturi ubique praemittens, ex quibus quaedam nobis familiaria, quaedam ignota sunt* ('the chain of fates unfolds

[21] In addition to Seneca, a contemporary point of reference for Acoreus is Chaeremon of Alexandria, who also served as Nero's tutor. Chaeremon was a Stoic grammarian and former head of the Museum, who also held the rank of Sacred Scribe in the Egyptian priesthood. On Chaeremon, see M. Frede (1985) "Chaeremon der Stoiker," in *ANRW* II, 36.3, Berlin, 2067-81. For the fragments of Chaeremon's work, see P. W. Van Der Horst (1984) *Chaeremon: Egyptian Priest and Stoic Philosopher*, Leiden.

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according to a different plan, everywhere sending signs in advance of what is to come – some signs we find easily recognizable, others we do not'). Lucan distorts an otherwise normative, Stoicizing, natural philosophical term.

Except for the encomium of Nero, the poem as we have it dwells on the destruction of the Republic, rather than the construction of a new order. This national and universal destruction, which results from the *invidia* of the *series fatorum* and provides the poem with its theme, distinguishes the *BC* from prior epic tradition generally, but from the *Aeneid* in particular.[22] Amidst all this destruction, however, a new sort of power is written into the epic tradition. This is the power of moral knowledge of the natural world and is displayed by two characters in particular, Cato and the Egyptian priest Acoreus. Moral knowledge of the natural world is to be distinguished from the immoral variety, such as the witch Erichtho displays or the ignorance of Caesar.

In Seneca's tragedies, fate is not necessarily beneficent. A. J. Boyle observes that, although in Seneca's philosophical works fate tends to operate after the fashion of divine providence, in the tragedies "its association with death is especially emphasised and its control over the human and natural worlds often more malignant than

[22] Feeney (1991) 276: "[Lucan] is doing the opposite of what an epic poet must do; *his* Roman poetry ... involves narrating the destruction of a universe, not its creation." Cf. Hardie (1986) 381. Although it is certainly fair to object that this destruction is followed by the creation of a new order, it remains that for nine and a half books, Lucan chooses to ignore this fact.

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providential."[23] Lucan is not the first to ascribe *invidia* to fate, but he is the only one to ascribe it to the *series fatorum*.[24]

As W. R. Johnson has shown, the poem's strong Stoic stamp gives this phrase its real sting. The inclusion of the word *invida* is an especially marked departure from Stoic cosmology, which mandates that the universe must operate according to ethically positive principles.[25] The word *series*, which the adjective *invida* modifies, references the stream of history, one segment of which forms the content of this poem.[26] At 1.67, the narrator expressly describes his task as laying forth the *causae* of the war. The first cause mentioned is the *invida series fatorum* (1.70). The short list of causes, which this phrase introduces, opens into the poem's programmatic simile of cosmic destruction as a description of the fall of the Republic. Mark Lapidge has demonstrated this simile's connections with Stoic cosmology, analogizing the fall of the Republic to the *ekpyrosis*, the return of the universe to a state of fire.[27]

In addition to its connection with the poem's first simile, the poet includes three signals to notify the reader of the importance of *invida fatorum series*. The first indicator is the fact that the narrator has just accepted the inspirational authority of Nero as Muse

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[23] Boyle (1997) *Tragic Seneca: An Essay in the Theatrical Tradition*, New York, 99.

[24] On envy and fate, see Ovid, *Epistulae ex Ponto*, 2.8.57-60; Seneca, *Apocolocyntosis*, 3.2.

[25] W. R. Johnson (1987) *Momentary Monsters*, Ithaca, 14.

[26] 1.671, 5.179, 6.612. Cf. P. Hardie (1993) *The Epic Successors of Virgil*, Cambridge, 108n35. There is more to be said about the significance and permutations of this word in the *BC*, a task I undertake in chapter 1.

[27] M. Lapidge (1979) "Lucan's Imagery of Cosmic Dissolution," *Hermes* 107 344-70.

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of the poem (1.63-66).[28] Secondly, verse 1.67, the first line following the invocation of Nero as Muse, contains a clear echo of the first line of Ovid's *Metamorphoses*, marking a new beginning (*Met.* 1.1): ***fert animus*** *causas tantarum expromere rerum* ('my mind moves me to set forth the causes of such great affairs').[29] Together these indicators put the space of text at1.70-72 immediately after the poet's infusion of inspiration from Nero and marks a second beginning for the epic.

The cooperation of the narrator and the emperor, I argue in chapter 1, enables the narrator to confront the envious structure of history, the *invida fatorum series*, which generated and always threatens to repeat his subject, the civil war. This envious structure of history is necessarily prior to himself and is potentially open-ended. Hence, both the narrator and the emperor must confront the need to block, evade, or defeat envy, if their mutual desires for peace and prosperity, as expressed in the encomium, are to be realized.

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[28] The argument I pursue in chapters 1 and 2 is that the narrator, freshly endowed with Nero's inspiration, is equipped to tackle the subject matter of his poem in a way he was unable to do in the lines preceding his appeal to Nero.

[29] R. J. Getty (1940) *M. Annaei Lucani De Bello Civili Liber I*, Cambridge, *ad loc.* Cf. Ovid, *Met.* 1.1: *in nova* ***fert animus*** *mutatas dicere formas / corpora* ('my mind is moved to speak of forms changed in to new bodies'). William Anderson notes that *fert animus*, in Ovid, was "unusual and untraditional." Horace had used the phrase in a context unrelated to poetic composition (*Epist.* 1.14.8) and Ovid had used it once before at *Ars Am.* 3.467, W. S. Anderson (1997) *Ovid's Metamorphoses, Books 1-5*, Oklahoma, *ad loc.* Lucan's allusion to Ovid would therefore have been unmistakable.

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Emotion and Narrative Authority

The frenzied impotence of the narrator vis-à-vis the tale he tales is a key feature of the *BC*. The poet cannot help following Julius Caesar, however unwillingly, because Caesar launches the subject of the poem, the civil war. The narrator is indebted to Caesar for his opportunity to recite an epic. There is, therefore, the possibility of a connection between Caesar's envy of Pompey, which spurs him to launch a civil war, and the narrator's envy of Virgil, which goads him to compose a poem of civil war. Lucan addresses this irony in the following passage, which is addressed to Caesar on the occasion of his visit to Troy (9.980-86):

> o sacer et magnus vatum labor! omnia fato
> eripis et populis donas mortalibus aevum.
> **invidia** sacrae, Caesar, ne tangere famae;
> nam, siquid Latiis fas est promittere Musis,
> quantum Zmyrnaei durabunt vatis honores,
> venturi me teque legent; Pharsalia nostra
> vivet, et a nullo tenebris damnabimur aevo.
>
> o great and sacred work of poets! you steal everything
> from death and give immortality to mortal peoples.
> do not be touched by **envy** of sacred fame, Caesar;
> for, if it is right for Latian Muses to promise anything,
> as long as the honors of the Smyrnaean bard [Homer] endure,

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posterity will read you and me; our Pharsalia

will live, and no epoch will condemn us to the shades.

Caesar's visit is, of course, modeled on Alexander's. At the tomb of Achilles, Alexander had famously lamented that, unlike Achilles, he had no Homer to celebrate his achievements. Caesar is told that he need not envy Troy its fame, he will receive his own testament.

David Quint has suggested that, in Caesar's stroll around the burnt-out ruins of Troy, Lucan is in fact dwelling on the *Aeneid*'s role in the incorporation of Homeric epic into Julio-Claudian political propaganda.[30] Caesar's acts of appropriation prefigure Virgil's appropriation of Homer on behalf of Augustus. Kirk Ormand well describes Lucan's treatment of the Virgilian fusion of Julio-Claudian politics with the Trojan past:[31]

What kind of a reader, then, is Caesar? He reads selectively, and always to his advantage. I suggest that Caesar's perspective is particular to him as a reader: what he notices and does not notice is in perfect accord with his purpose. He sees remains associated with Assaracus and Hesione, who belong to the ancestry of Aeneas; he notices the *Anchisae thalamos*, where Aeneas was presumably conceived... Everything that Caesar observes reinforces this place as the birthplace of Aeneas, and therefore of his own epic ancestry.

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[30] D. Quint (1993) *Epic and Empire*, Princeton, 7-8.

[31] K. Ormand (1994) "Lucan's *Auctor Vix Fidelis*," *CA*, 38-55, 51.

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Caesar's last speech at Troy is a prayer to his ancestors, enlisting their favor in return for a promise to rebuild their walls, to construct a Roman Pergamum (9.987-999). Such a transference of the *sacra fama* of Troy to his service is, in effect, a refusal to keep his *invidia* away from the city's legacy. His unwillingness to let *sacra fama* stand as it remains can be explained as script 1 *invidia*. Caesar, in his desire to absorb the Trojan legacy and to discover the secrets of the Nile, appears to envy greatness in general. He is unwilling to let it alone and feels the need to press it into service. Lucan's Troy episode offers an allegory of Virgil's use of the Trojan past in the *Aeneid*, representing it through Julius Caesar's *invidia* of the city's reputation and desire to attach it to himself. Lucan treats the assimilation of Homer's Troy to Roman epic as an act of political appropriation. It also implies that the eventual assimilation of Troy and its place in the mythology of the Julian clan to Roman epic, which takes place in the *Aeneid*, is the delayed fulfillment of Julius' desire.

Narducci, we have seen above, extends Lucan's rhetoric of *indignatio* to his patterns of allusion. This highly prejudiced reconstruction of Virgil, Lucan's major predecessor and rival, as an exponent of Julius Caesar's envy is consistent with the practice of *indignatio*, but as we have also seen, the relationship between *indignatio* (*nemesis*) and *invidia* is not entirely clear cut and, in fact, *indignatio* can be understood, when not referencing *ira*, to correspond to a script of *invidia*. It depends, according Kaster's *nemesis* script, on a claim to general moral principle, but this difference may be a highly subjective one.

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The envious link in the Troy episode is not just between the ghosts of Caesar and Virgil. The suggestion that Virgil wrote a text tainted with Caesarian *invidia* is itself an envious claim. It is always possible to attribute the *nemesis* script to Lucan's narrator. Yet, there may be other scripts at work here as well. Is the implied Lucan-Virgil script necessarily different from the stated Caesar-*sacra fama* script? Does Lucan's narrator resent his formidable epic predecessor?

Jamie Masters and Philip Hardie have both adduced Harold Bloom's model of the Oedipal relationship between a new poet and the predecessor poet.[32] Masters locates this dynamic in the narrative voice. This voice is divided between the poet who must follow Caesar's victories, which he is powerless to alter, and the poet who favors Pompey and desperately wishes to put off, if not actually deny, his defeat. Masters further adduces the ancient convention, according to which the poet is seen to perform the action he describes. So, as Homer performs the role of Achilles, Lucan performs the role of Caesar. The basis for the application of the Bloomian model is to be found in the narrator's divided reaction, to borrow Lucan's own phrase, to the *sacra fama* of literary tradition.[33] Pompey represents the performance of his reverence for such tradition, while Caesar represents the performance of his literary ambition and, I would add, his envy.[34]

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[32] J. Masters (1992) *Poetry and Civil War in Lucan's Bellum Civile*; Cambridge, 1-10; Hardie (1993) 116-19.

[33] Masters, 6. On the convention of narration as re-enactment, see F. Cairns (1972) *Generic Composition in Greek and Roman Poetry*, Edinburgh, 163; G. Lieberg (1982) *Poeta Creator*, Amsterdam.

[34] Masters, 9-10.

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Masters' notion of the divided voice is, as he himself hints, not comprehensive of the poem's major divisions:[35]

> But there are two sides *(only two?)* to any struggle." Lucan may be Caesarian in his ambition to recount, and thus recreate, the horrors of civil war, but none the less there is reluctance...

In Lucan's epic, there are at least three sides, if we count Cato. Narducci has recently insisted on the moral *exemplum* of Cato as the resolution to conflict in the narrative voice.[36] The inclusion of Cato as an equal component of the narrative voice does not eliminate the Caesar-Pompey bifurcation, but it does require that we see a development, beginning in book 9. This development is the subject of my third and final chapter.

I follow Masters' analysis of the narrator's conflicted voice, but only until Cato enters the picture. Further, the Bloomian dimension to Masters' characterization of Lucan's relationship to literary tradition and Virgil in particular is, on my reading, particularly amenable to analysis in terms of envy. The development of the narrator, which I trace in chapter 3, turns on an increasing degree of control over the emotional tone of the poem. This is not to say that the narrator becomes in any way dispassionate. Rather, the debilitating passions of the narrator are replaced by the debilitating emotions

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[35] Ibid., 8.

[36] Narducci (2002) 98. Narducci defines the narrator's conflict differently, as being between his horror at civil war in general and his partisanship for Pompey. This division can be translated, I believe, to fit Masters scheme; the horror at civil war belongs to the Pompeian voice and the partisanship, regardless of whom it is for, to the Caesarian.

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of Caesar. I will argue that the shockingly un-Caesarian Caesar of book 10 represents the narrator's *coup de grâce*, the creation of *invidia* against Caesar, by revealing him to be helpless and, when pushed to the wall, unmanly, after recording his bluster and bombast for nine and a half books. The rhetorical creation of *invidia* is as much an act of *invidia* as purporting to discern it in another. It is not, however, an uncommon technique.

Kaster notes that, in the *nemesis* script, *pudor* and *invidia* form 'a reflexive pair'. If a person cannot live up to the large claims he has made, or that have been made on his behalf, he incurs *pudor* and, with it, the righteous indignation (*nemesis* script) of society.[37] I contend that Lucan 'sets up' Caesar. In the second half of book 10, Caesar is shown to fall short of the narrator's characterization. This may well have been preparation for an extended treatment of Caesar in a different light. In this dissertation, I wish to explore the possibility that it is an intentional ending to the poem.

Hardie remarks that, in a wrath epic, the end of anger is the end of the poem. Hence, Achilles puts to rest his anger and the poem ends.[38] In the *Odyssey*, the hero is advised on how to assuage Poseidon's wrath, he has settled his own anger against the suitors, as well as their families' anger against him. The *Aeneid*, Hardie notes, is different. Its sudden termination is striking.[39] It has no rituals of reconciliation to put to

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[37] Kaster (2002) "*Invidia* and the End of *Georgics* 1," *Phoenix* 56, 275-95, 283, n. 11.

[38] Hardie (1997) "Closure in Latin Epic," in *Classical Closure*, Princeton, 139-62, 147.

[39] Ibid., 151.

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rest the emotions that have driven it. Indeed, continuity of anger, or at least the open-endedness of it, is what receives emphasis.[40]

If 10.546 is the end of the *BC*, it is even more sudden than the *Aeneid*, though just as lacking in reconciliation. Obviously, a shared absence of conventional closural signals cannot contribute anything definitive to a discussion of the end. Yet, there is another area in which the end of the *Aeneid* and the end of the *BC*, as we have it, may admit comparison: epic emotion. *Invidia* does not cease, nor is it formally banished from the poem, but as with anger and its concomitant emotions in the *Aeneid*, it is redirected. Turnus bears the brunt of Aeneas' *dolor*, *furor*, and *ira*, as he goes with an indignant groan to the shades. Now that Aeneas is the conqueror, he directs the emotions with which he had been persecuted by Juno against Turnus.

Lucan's narrator is caught for at least eight books in a trap between the *invidia* of Caesar and Pompey respectively. In book 10, the narrator is able to turn *invidia* against Caesar, by showing the ways in which Caesar falls short of his reputation for prowess and power, which he has commanded throughout the poem. If we do have the end, then Lucan has fixed the moment of closure on Caesar's absolute depth of confusion and despair. It is a moment unique in the poem. Caesar is trapped on the island of Pharos in the harbor at Alexandria, about to be destroyed by the onrushing Egyptian troops. Ending the poem at this point preserves the spectacle of Caesar's vulnerability, while tacitly acknowledging the poem's inability to prevent Caesar's escape anywhere but inside the boundaries of the poem (10.541-43): *vincendus tunc Caesar erat sed sanguine*

[40] Ibid., 147.

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nullo. / captus sorte loci pendet; dubiusque timeret / optaretne mori...('then Caesar was about to be conquered but without blood. he was perplexed, captured by the nature of the place; and uncertain whether he should fear death or pray for it'). Never, prior to book 10, have we seen an irresolute Caesar. Earlier in book 10, however, we see Caesar, beleaguered by the Egyptians, diminished in a simile (10.458): *ceu puer inbellis, ceu captis femina muris* ('like an unwarlike boy, like a woman when the walls have been captured').

Caesar suddenly becomes the target of the *invidia* that has preoccupied the narrator. Lucan may well have made this redirection the occasion for closure.[41] The *BC* differs from the *Aeneid*, at the structural level, in that the former focuses on a struggle between narrator and the character, whereas the latter focuses on conflict between character and character.[42] In any case, the narrator is able, on this reading, to complete the poem by redirecting at Caesar the emotion which, primarily through its manifestation in Caesar, has driven this narrative, which the narrator despises.

The issue of the conflict between the instability of the narrator's emotional self-representation and a consequent inability to complete the text on the narrator's own terms can be seen in the later example of Juvenal. W. S. Anderson establishes a significant

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[41] My argument for envy as the key emotion, a status most would accord to *furor*, is put forward in chapters 1 and 2.

[42] This difference may be minimized if we allow that the narrator of the *Aeneid* has privileged Aeneas' narrative to such a degree that the character becomes a vehicle for the narrator's world-view. On this

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connection between the *adversarius* of the *De Ira*, whose emotionally ungoverned character leaves him helpless to resist evil.[43] Juvenal adapts Seneca's thesis in *De Ira* to his final book of *Satires*; i.e. *indignatio* must be rejected as a solution to the problems of dealing with a disordered world.[44] So far, I have discussed *indignatio* as a translation of *nemesis* and in its overlap with *invidia*. It is also used on occasions in both Seneca and Juvenal, as well as among first and second century authors generally, when *ira* is meant.[45] As Kaster emphasizes, many emotions may be involved in the script of *invidia*. As a result of the mutually ambiguous nature of these emotions and of the terms for them, we may consider that what Lucan has created in his narrator is a figure possessed by anger. *Indignatio* is no more helpful to Lucan's narrator than to Juvenal's and, given the considerably greater proximity of the *De Ira* to Lucan, the principal source may be the

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reading, the conflict between Aeneas and Turnus, or Aeneas and Dido, would also be a conflict between the narrator and the antagonistic character.

[43] W. S. Anderson (1982) "Anger in Juvenal and Seneca," in *Essays on Roman Satire*, Princeton, 293-361.

[44] Ibid., 339: "This is Seneca's answer to his adversarius and the ultimate reply to Juvenal's angry satirist: no sane man should seek the insanity of indignation, but should take as his goal something commensurate with the highest nature of man, *tranquillitas animi*." Followed by S. M. Braund (1997) "A Passion Unconsoled? Grief and Anger in Juvenal 'Satire' 13," in *The Passions in Roman Literature*, Cambridge, 68-88.

[45] Anderson, 315-16. From Anderson's list: Seneca, *De Ira*, 2.28.1, 3.5.7, 3.16.1; Juvenal first describes his mood as *ira* (1.45) and then *indignatio* (1.79). Also, Valerius Maximus in *De Ira aut Odio* uses *doloris impotentia* (9.3.3) and *indignatio* (9.3.8) as synonyms for *ira*. In the latter, he describes Sulla in a fit of anger, which actually induced the stroke from which he died, as *ardens indignatione*. Tacitus uses *dolor* and *ira* to describe *indignatio*: *Ann.* 1.41.5, 2.34.2, 2.82.2, 4.72.5.

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same. Ultimately, anger and/or indignation is no more help to Lucan's narrator facing a disordered world than to Juvenal's and only emphasizes the loss of control over a despised narrative. In order to end the poem, the narrator's emotional disposition must be addressed.

Michael Putnam makes a related point concerning the emotion of *dolor* ('grief, resentment') and the *Aeneid*. Virgil begins his poem with the *dolor* of Juno and ends it with the *dolor* of Aeneas. It is also the framing emotion for the last three books in particular.[46] Putnam argues that Virgil encodes the emotional logic according to which the end of the *Aeneid* plays out in his ekphrasis of Daedalus' sculptures on the doors of the temple to Apollo in book 6. Daedalus carved scenes of Crete and his escape from service to Minos there on the doors of the temple, but was unable to complete the narrative (*Aen.* 6.14-37).

When it came to carving the death of his son, his hands failed him. The intervention of his personal *dolor* made him incapable of finishing the project. Daedalus's *dolor*, argues Putnam, is correlative to the narrator's *dolor*, which causes the poem to be marked with a lack of completeness in at least one respect. Putnam suggests that the intervention of resentment, grief, and rage, which builds in the closing books and erupts in Aeneas' killing of Turnus in the last lines, prevents the *Aeneid* from sharing

[46] M. Putnam (1998) *Virgil's Epic Designs*, New Haven, 53-54, 90.

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with the epics of Homer and Apollonius the characteristic of closural reconciliation, creating an air of incompleteness around the otherwise emphatic act of closure.[47]

Such an interpretation is obviously speculative and the proper interpretation of the end of the *Aeneid* will always be a thorny issue; however, it remains a fact that Virgil chooses to end the *Aeneid* amidst an explosion of emotion, which is only heightened by the suddenness of the end. Whether or not we accept Putnam's view that the end of the *Aeneid* requires being read against the *Iliad*, *Odyssey*, and *Argonautica* for the correct interpretation, it is certainly true that these emotions have indeed framed the poem, been in play throughout, and are now unleashed against the one, who has represented on earth the forces of resistance to an end of Trojan trials.

If Virgil does create an air of incompleteness, he also balances it with a definite sense of an ending. Although the emotions in play are different, I have proposed that Lucan is using a similar closural strategy. If this is the case, where is his sense of an ending? Various closural allusions have been suggested and I shall discuss them further in chapter 3; for the moment, however, I wish to point to two in particular. In a puzzling scene, often taken as evidence of the incompleteness of the thought, Caesar sees Scaeva, the centurion to whom Lucan accords all the credit for the salvation of Caesar's cause at the battle of Dyrrachium (10.542-44):

dubiusque timeret

[47] Ibid., 83-96. For the purposeful 'incompleteness' of the *Aeneid*, Putnam points out that the major surviving epics, the *Iliad*, the *Odyssey*, and the *Argonautica*, all concluded with scenes of reconciliation, whereas the *Aeneid* ends with the decision to reject a reconciliation.

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optaretne mori, respexit in agmine denso
Scaevam perpetuae meritum iam nominae famae
ad campos, Epidamne, tuos...

and hesitant whether he should fear
or pray for death, he saw behind him in the thick battleline
Scaeva who had already won an everlasting name
on your fields, Epidamnus...

I shall return to this passage and the surrounding lines in chapter 3. For the moment, I wish to draw this passage together with an earlier declaration by Scaeva himself. When he has been all but destroyed by Pompeian weapons, he deceitfully begs the Pompeians to spare him. When one draws near, Scaeva kills him. When Scaeva craftily pleads for quarter from the oncoming foe, he asks to be placed in Pompey's camp as an example not of glorious death but as a deserter of Caesar. Such at least is the immediate sense, but, as often, the language is more complicated (6.234-35): *sit Scaeva **relicti / Caesaris** exemplum potius quam **mortis honestae*** ('let Scaeva be a model of **Caesar abandoned** rather than of a **glorious death**').

This declaration of identity by Scaeva to the Pompeians is key to the interpretation of the poem's last lines. At 10.539, the narrator tells us more about just how desperate Caesar's situation is: *vix spes quoque **mortis honestae*** ('there was scarcely any hope of a **glorious death**').[48] There are two levels of prolepsis here. The

[48] This verbal echo has been noted by Henderson (1988) 127.

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reappearance of Scaeva, for which verses 6.234-35 prepare us, serves as a marker for the poem's abandonment of Caesar; i.e. the end of the poem. There is in book 10 a further signal in Caesar's request for a speech on the Nile from Acoreus (10.191-92): *spes sit mihi certa uidendi / Niliacos fontes, bellum ciuile* ***relinquam*** ('let me have certain hope of seeing the source of the Nile, **I will abandon** civil war'). The same word is used for Caesar's abandonment of civil war and Scaeva's abandonment of Caesar. Like Scaeva at 6.235, Caesar is not really about to die for once and for all. He will return to wreak more havoc.

Scaeva becomes the poem's symbol for the abandonment of Caesar in the narrative, for Caesar's return in history, and for Caesar's eventual, final isolation, when he is helpless before his assassins. Scaeva's name is appropriate to his role as a symbol of Caesar's good and bad fortune in history, as well as history's good and bad fortune concerning Caesar. Scaeva's name means 'unlucky' or 'ill-omened', which complements his perverse *amor mortis* and makes him Caesar's ideal soldier and representative.[49] At the level of symbol, Scaeva's infelicitous name is as capable of boding ill for Caesar as for Caesar's enemies.[50]

Without someone like Scaeva, Caesar is nothing. Without his centurion Laelius in book 1, as we shall see, Caesar's soldiers might never have accepted civil war. Without Scaeva in book 6, as Lucan tells it, Caesar's fortunes might have been

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[49] Ibid., 125-28.

[50] Scaeva is an historical figure, commended briefly by Caesar in his *Commentarii* (3.53) on the civil war for his courage against the Pompeians at Dyrrachium.

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completely lost at Dyrrachium. The unluckiness, for Caesar, of Scaeva's absence is emphasized by a further sense of the verb used at 10.544, *respexit* (10.544-45): *respexit in agmine denso / Scaevam* ('he saw behind him in the thick battleline Scaeva...'). The *re-* prefix could be spatial, but it could also be temporal, indicating that Caesar is seeing Scaeva in memory only, as he was at Dyrrhacium. If so, then Scaeva's presence in the last lines of book 10 is really an absence. As such, Scaeva, as he last appears, is finally and truly unlucky for Caesar.

In recounting the various Egyptian plots to kill Caesar, the narrator declares that it would be wrong for anyone but Roman senators to dispatch Caesar (10.338-44, 526-28). This sentiment makes Caesar's escape from Pharos allowable. However, it also juxtaposes the two situations in which Caesar is isolated and at the mercy of his enemies. When Caesar sees the *exemplum Caesaris relicti* at the end of book 10, he is also seeing what will not be there to protect him when the senators finally claim his life. It is in a spirit of grim humor that the narrator conjures up before Caesar's eyes the human embodiment of 'bad luck' to signal the text's abandoment of him in a scenario, proleptic of his future assassination.

Book 10 shows Lucan's narrator more in charge of the narrative than at any point previous. This is directly related to Caesar's simultaneous loss of control over his own narrative. In brief, I shall argue that Lucan's narrator gains control over his *invidia*, when it is made clear that Caesar can never gain control over his, nor can he survive the *invidia* he has incurred. The event which facilitates this transformation in the narrative is the speech delivered by Acoreus, who implies that the Nile's divine nature is beyond the

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ambitions of Caesar and all others like him. The imposition of this limit on Caesar coincides with all of Caesar's other limitations becoming simultaneously visible, culminating with the closing aporia on Pharos, where the audience sees for the first time in the poem that Caesar's luck can turn bad.

Seneca and Lucan on the Nile

It has long been recognized that the primary source for the scientific knowledge contained in Acoreus' speech on the Nile is Seneca's discussion in the *Naturales Quaestiones*.[51] The role of the Senecan material, however, has been confined to the status of a resource text. In fact, it can be seen that the relationship between *BC* 10 and *NQ* 4A is considerably more important than hitherto thought.

The relationship between the two texts is to be found partly in Seneca's preface to book 4A and partly in his summation of the role of intellectual inquiry in book 7. In the preface Seneca lectures Lucilius on the threats posed by flatterers and warns him against falling prey to a false sense of importance due to his governorship of Sicily. Although he is only a governor of a province, that province was once the objective of dynasts. His lack of absolute power, were he to think in this destructive manner, is balanced by his relatively greater power vis-à-vis the more limited potentates of yesteryear (*NQ* 4A. *Praef.*, 21):

> longe te ab ista provincia abducam, ne forte magnam
> historiis esse fidem credas et placere tibi incipias, quotiens

[51] *NQ* 4A. 1-2. A. E. Housman (1927) *Lucanus*, Oxford, 335.

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cogitaveris: "hanc ego habeo sub meo iure prouinciam, quae maximarum urbium exercitus et sustinuit et fregit, cum inter Carthaginem et Romam ingentis belli pretium iacuit; quae quattuor Romanorum principum, id est totius imperii, vires contractas in unum locum vidit aluitque, Pompeii fortunam flexit, Caesaris fatigavit, Lepidi transtulit, omnium cepit...

I will lead you far away from that province of yours, that you may not by chance believe that historical accounts possess great trustworthiness and begin to be pleased with yourself, whenever you will have this thought, "I hold under my own command this province, which has both supported and broken the armies of the greatest cities, when it lay as the prize of a great war between Carthage and Rome; which witnessed and nourished the strength of four Roman generals, that is of the whole empire, compressed into a single location, it turned Pompey's fortune, it wearied Caesar's, transferred Lepidus', it held the fortunes of them all...

At 4A. 1.1, Seneca reveals to Lucilius that he will lead him on an intellectual exploration of the Nile:

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itaque, ut totum inde te abducam, quamuis multa habeat Sicilia in se circaque se mirabilia, omnes interim prouinciae tuae quaestiones praeteribo et in diuersum cogitationes tuas abstraham. quaeram enim tecum id quod libro superiore distuli, quid ita Nilus aestiuis mensibus abundet.

and so, that I may lead you entirely away from there, although Sicily has many wonderful things in and around it, I will for the meantime pass over all questions concerning your province and draw your thoughts in a different direction. I will seek out with you that which I put off in the last book, why the Nile floods in the summer months.

Seneca wishes to distract Lucilius from thoughts of Sicily, lest his governorship of that island become a spirtually unhealthy object of contemplation. The reasons why the Nile should be chosen as a corrective to such reflections on personal power are implicit. The Nile, as Seneca puts it, is *nobilissimum amnium* ('the noblest of rivers').[52] It is so because of its size, its powers of fertility, and its unique flood pattern, which, as Seneca states above, is his principal object of inquiry. Seneca stresses that this is to be a joint effort, writing that he will lead away Lucilius (*abducam*) and inquire *tecum* ('with you') into the Nile's habits of flood.

[52] *NQ* 4A.2.1.

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The juxtaposition of a discourse on flattery as a social threat in the preface of *NQ* 4A with the recommendation of a Nile discussion as an opportunity for communion between self and cosmos, into which Seneca is leading Lucilius as he explores the Nile with his mind's eye, is an instructive moral contrast. Lucilius, Seneca indicates, can escape the perils of flattery and self-aggrandizing thoughts through the contemplation of nature. This contrast also serves Lucan's poetic purposes and may be seen as an important component in the poem's dialogue with Nero, who had himself sent an expedition south along the Nile. This was an exploratory mission, which Seneca hails as one of Nero's most glorious achievements.[53] In the speech on the Nile, which touches so close to Nero, Lucan can draw on the prefatory denunciation of flatterers and their untrustworthiness, with which Seneca frames his Nile discourse, to protect its moral intent. The resonance of Seneca's preface for Lucan's Nile speech would have been this: 'This speech addresses issues unpleasant to royal ears, but its message is open and moral, rather than treacherous and muffled beneath flattery'.

What distinguishes, for Seneca, Nero's exploratory instinct from that of Lucan's Caesar? James Romm locates the difference in Nero's motive of intellectual curiosity,

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[53] A negative form of curiosity, is manifested in the indiscriminate pursuit of foreign conquest as displayed by Alexander, whom Seneca denounces at *NQ* 5.18.10. On Nero's Nile expedition, see Seneca, *NQ* 6.8.3-4; Pliny, *Naturales Historiae* 6.181. Verses 10.272-74 might easily describe Nero's expediition as well. Further, Acoreus notes that this desire to know the Nile's source exists in every generation (10.270-71): *nullaque non aetas uoluit conferre futuris / notitiam; sed uincit adhuc natura latendi* ('no age has not wished to confer upon posterity this news; but [the Nile's] nature of concealing prevails').

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which, in Seneca's view, is foremost among human virtues.[54] Lucan does not revoke his uncle's estimation, but he does deliberately complicate it. Intellectual curiosity is, after all, exactly what Lucan's Caesar claims as his motive (10.181-92):

si Cecropium sua sacra Platona
maiores docuere tui, quis dignior umquam
hoc fuit auditu mundique capacior hospes?
fama quidem generi Pharias me duxit ad urbes,
sed tamen et uestri; media inter proelia semper
stellarum caelique plagis superisque uacaui,
nec meus Eudoxi uincetur fastibus annus.
sed, cum tanta meo uiuat sub pectore uirtus,
tantus amor ueri, nihil est quod noscere malim
quam fluuii causas per saecula tanta latentis
ignotumque caput: spes sit mihi certa uidendi
Niliacos fontes, bellum ciuile relinquam.'

if your ancestors taught your mysteries

[54] J. Romm (1992) *The Edges of the Earth in Ancient Thought*, Princeton, 154-55. On Seneca's view of intellectual curiosity in general, see *NQ* 7.30.3-32.4. A view supported by B. A. Warmington (1969) *Nero: Reality and Legend*, London, 99-100; M. Grant (1970) *Nero: Emperor in Revolt*, New York, 135. Grant considers it likely that business and the national interest were also among Nero's motives, but both see intellectual curiosity and Seneca's influence as primary factors.

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to Cecropian Plato, what guest has there ever been
more worthy of this audience and more able to receive the cosmos?
true, rumor of my son-in-law led me to the Pharian cities,
but so did your reputation; between the midsts of battles always
have I made space for the zones of the stars and of heaven and for the
gods, nor will my year be conquered by the arrogance of Eudoxus.
but, since such virtue lives in my heart,
such love of truth, there is nothing I would prefer to know
than the causes of the river which lies hidden through so many ages
and its unknown head: should I have an assured hope of seeing the
the font of the Nile, I will abandon civil war.

Among the various questions that spring to mind, when reading this startling statement, must be, 'do we believe Caesar?'. This question applies both to his proposed abandonment of civil war and to the strength, or even the existence, of his *amor veri*. At one level, it is certainly true that Caesar has an at least utilitarian interest in intellectual matters. Among other things, the historical Caesar includes an ethnography of the Gauls in his *Commentarii* and he reforms the Roman calendar. Lucan's Caesar cites this second item and it is a mention worthy of consideration (10.187): *nec meus Eudoxi uincetur fastibus annus* ('nor will my year be conquered by the arrogance of Eudoxus').

The word on which I wish to focus is *fastibus*. The translation usually given is "nor will my year be conquered by the calendar (*fastibus*) of Eudoxus." This translation agrees with the note in the scholia, which claims that *fastibus*, a fourth declension noun

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meaning 'arrogance', was an error on Lucan's part. In fact, the scholiast notes, Lucan meant to write *fastis*, the second declension noun referring to the Roman calendar. I quote the scholiast's note:[55]

> est autem hoc nomen secundae declinationis; cum vero quartae declinationis est, superbiam significat. ergo hoc loco fefellit Lucanus, sed tamen tantus poeta venia donandus est.
>
> this is moreover a noun of the second declension; in fact, when in the fourth declension, it means 'arrogance'. therefore in this passage Lucan made a mistake, but nevertheless such a poet must be forgiven.

As of Shackleton Bailey's 1998 Teubner edition, *fastibus* remains the unchallenged reading. Yet, this leaves us with the scholiast's unsatisfying conclusion about Lucan's ability to distinguish the second declension from the fourth. John Henderson offers this explanation for 10.187: "...the Julian Year will defeat its Greekling enemy, outdo the *contempt* of *Eudoxus*, "Mr. Famous"" *fastibus'*..."[56] Henderson reads a pun in Eudoxus' name and, while Henderson's challenging prose leaves me uncertain whether he accepts

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[55] G. A. Cavajoni, ed. (1990) *Supplementum Adnotationum super Lucanum III, Libri VIII-X*, Amsterdam, *ad loc.*

[56] Henderson (1988) 133. Italics his.

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'calendar' or 'contempt' as the punning sense of *fastibus*,[57] it is clear that he sees the intended meaning of *fastibus* as the real issue. Whether it is the arrogance of Eudoxus for promulgating a calendar or the presumed contempt of Eudoxus for the efforts of a successor, Caesar clearly resents the man and his achievement.

There are, then, two reasons for preferring *fastibus* to *fastis*. First, it is unlikely in the extreme that a Roman poet would make a mistake of that nature. Second, it fits the personality of Caesar, as Lucan has thus far presented it. Eudoxus, because he conceived a calendar first, is an obstacle to Caesar's ambition and therefore merits his resentment. The pun lies in the fact that the word for Eudoxus' *fastus* resembles the achievement Caesar resents, the '*fasti*', and which he wants to surpass. Insensitive, in this instance, to Lucanian wordplay, translators have mistaken the pun for the surface meaning.

In this way Lucan contrives to make Caesar undercut his own assertion of an intellectual identity. Caesar's projection of contempt onto the author of the previous calendar through envy of his achievement gives us an idea of how Caesar's *amor veri* operates. It also contrasts with the otherwise respectful tone of his address to Acoreus. The placement of this mention of Caesar's feelings about Eudoxus and his calendar suggests how we may understand his view of Acoreus and his knowledge of the Nile, despite Caesar's politeness.

Alexander, as we shall see, envied the Nile (10.272-74). The purpose behind the inclusion of this allegedly historical detail is to suggest that Caesar does as well. In his address to Acoreus, he displays sublimated *invidia*, although the word is not used, of

[57] Depending on whether one accepts *fastibus* or *fastis* as the intended word.

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Acoreus, the Egyptian tradition, and Plato. In Kaster's terms, the motive in Caesar's appeal to Acoreus belongs to script 3. He recites his resume with a view toward showing that, rightfully, he should be initiated to these *sacra*. Frederick Ahl's comment is instructive:[58]

> Caesar now claims for himself philosophical, not just military virtue. He has won his battle with Eudoxus, as well as with Pompey; his calendar will rule the year as he will rule the cities of the world. Surely the honor accorded Plato cannot be denied him, for he has made himself master and regulator of the cosmos. Megalomania could hardly extend further.

Caesar's megalomania, his arrogance, which he imputes to Eudoxus, is wholly at odds with Seneca's conception of true intellectual curiosity, but entirely consistent with the motives of the previous tyrants, who, according to Acoreus, also sought the Nile's origin.

Acoreus makes the unsavory connections explicit (10.268-69) *quae tibi noscendi Nilum, Romane, cupido est, / et Phariis Persisque fuit Macetumque tyrannis* ('the desire, Roman, which you possess, to know the Nile, also belonged to the Egyptian and Persian and Macedonian tyrants'). Caesar is perhaps sufficiently perverse (and un-Stoic) in his thinking not to find these connections offensive. Acoreus does not spare his criticism of these earlier tyrants (10.272-74) *summus Alexander regum, quem Memphis adorat, / inuidit Nilo, misitque per ultima terrae / Aethiopum lectos* ('Alexander, the highest of

[58] F. Ahl (1976) *Lucan: An Introduction*, Ithaca, 228.

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kings, whom Memphis worships, **envied** the Nile, and sent chosen men through the furthest reaches of the land of the Ethiopians'). Alexander's explicitly-cited envy of the Nile operates in a similar fashion to Caesar's implicit envy of the structuring of time, achieved by Eudoxus. That which has yet to be conquered threatens the totalitarian self-image. Can Alexander, or Caesar, be the greatest of kings, if he cannot conquer, i.e. discover, the source of the Nile?[59]

Let us compare the attitudes of Alexander and Caesar toward the Nile with the disposition toward nature that Seneca recommends in book 7, the final book of the *NQ*. Seneca believes that the activities of exploring nature and worshipping in the temples of the gods are essentially equivalent pursuits, a view echoed in Acoreus' learned and reverential discourse on the Nile (*NQ* 7.30.1):

> egregie Aristoteles ait numquam nos verecundiores esse debere quam cum de diis agitur. si intramus templa compositi, si ad sacrificium accessuri vultum submittimus, togam adducimus, si in omne argumentum modestiae fingimur, quanto hoc magis facere debemus, cum de sideribus de stellis de deorum natura disputamus, ne quid temere, ne quid impudenter aut ignorantes affirmemus aut scientes mentiamur!

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[59] 10.272: ***summus Alexander regum...***: *summus* seems an obvious play on Alexander's title of Megas, which he subsequently shares with Pompeius Magnus. Both are objects of Caesar's envious desire.

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> Aristotle said it quite well that we ought never to be more reverent than in a situation where the gods are concerned. if we enter temples in a composed manner, if we lower our faces when about to draw near the sacrifice, draw in our toga, display every form of proper behavior, how much more ought we to do this, when we discuss the planets and stars and the nature of the gods, lest we either claim anything hastily in ignorance or even lie knowingly.

Seneca also draws particular attention at the conclusion of the *NQ* to the hiddenness of much of divine nature. He also makes the point that nature is not made entirely for humanity. This is a principle Lucan develops into an opposition between the curiosity of tyrants and the nature of the Nile. If it is not made for humanity in general, it is also not made for an Alexander or a (Julius) Caesar in particular. It has the virtue of placing the same limit on the *summi regum* as on the rest of humanity (*NQ* 7.30.3-4):

> quam multa praeter hos per secretum eunt numquam humanis oculis orientia! neque enim omnia deus homini fecit. quota pars operis tanti nobis committitur? ipse, qui ista tractat, qui condidit, qui totum hoc fundavit deditque circa se, maiorque est pars sui operis ac melior, effugit oculos: cogitatione visendus est. multa praeterea cognata numini summo et vicinam sortita potentiam obscura sunt aut fortasse, quod magis mireris, oculos nostros et implent

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et effugiunt, sive illis tanta subtilitas est quantam consequi acies humana non possit, sive in sanctiore secessu maiestas tanta delituit et regnum suum, id est se, regit nec ulli dat aditum nisi animo. quid sit hoc sine quo nihil est, scire non possumus: et miramur si quos igniculos parum novimus, cum maxima pars mundi, deus, lateat!

how many things besides these [i.e. comets] move in secret, never rising before human eyes! for the god did not make everything for humanity. how great a part of such a task is entrusted to us? the very one, who established and governs the cosmos, laid the foundation, and surrounded himself with it, and is the better part of its own work escapes our vision: this one must be perceived in thought. many phenomena besides, which are related to the highest divinity and have obtained by lot a neighboring power are hidden or as chance would have it, (at which you may be the more amazed) they both fill and flee our eyes – either they possess a degree of subtlety which human vision cannot perceive, or the majesty of such greatness resides in a more sacred recess and rules its own kingdom (which is

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> to say rules itself) and allows entry to the mind alone. we cannot know what this on which everything depends: and we are amazed if we know little about some tiny fire particles, when the greatest part of the world, god, lies hidden!

Lucan echoes Seneca's characterization of the god hidden within nature in his own 'hidden head' of the Nile. This mention of *caput* also calls to mind the decapitated head of Pompey, which was presented to Caesar upon his arrival in Alexandria. Pompey's head and the hidden head of the Nile are both objectives of Caesar's megalomaniacal pursuit of power. This parallels Caesar's own words. He tells Acoreus, as we saw, that not only did rumor of his son-in-law bring him to Egypt, but so did the reputation of his priests. Caesar's mention of the 'unknown head' betrays a more sinister union of his simultaneous pursuit of Pompey and Egyptian knowledge. There is malevolence behind each.

The last point I wish to stress is the one with which Seneca ends the *NQ*. It is the conclusion to a condemnation of the present situation in which the pursuit of exotic pleasures is placed above the pursuit of philosophy, especially as it relates to the exploration of nature (*NQ* 7.32.4):

> philosophiae nulla cura est. itaque adeo nihil invenitur ex his quae parum investigata antiqui reliquerunt, ut multa quae inventa erant oblitterentur. at mehercule, si hoc totis membris premeremus, si in hoc iuventus sobria incumberet,

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> hoc maiores docerent, hoc minores addiscerent, vix ad fundum veniretur, in quo veritas posita est, quam nunc in summa terra et levi manu quaerimus.
>
> there is no concern for philosophy. therefore nothing is discovered in these matters which the ancients have left little researched, which allowed many things that had been discovered to be forgotten. but, by Hercules, if we were to press this matter with all our strength, if our youth were to apply themselves soberly to this matter, if the older generation were to teach it, and our younger generation to learn it, we could hardly reach that uttermost depth, where truth was placed, but which now we seek on the earth's surface breezily.

In stressing as he does in the second passage above the role of the mind as the vehicle for exploration, Seneca draws a distinction between *in summa terra* and *ad fundum*, which repeats in a more general way his earlier contrast between flattery and office-holding versus working through the problems of Nilotic theory. Our shortsighted pursuits *in summa terra* and *levi manu* ought to give way to a mental journey into the depths.

This contrast is dramatized in Lucan's characterization of Alexander and Caesar, who would both journey overland to find the geographical source of the Nile, versus Acoreus, whose scientific and spiritual relationship to the Nile belongs to the realm of the

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mind. In Acoreus' speech, we find a journey through those same depths, into which Seneca leads Lucilius. The Nile, like any other manifestation of nature in which its native divinity is particularly to be discerned, is a point of departure on the journey toward the foundation of everything, *quo ueritas posita est* ('in which truth was placed'). The approaches of Lucan's Alexander and Caesar show the superficial (*levi manu*) approach. The difference between the two methods, as they are represented in Lucan, is the difference between *insania*, *superbia*, and *invidia* on the one hand, and reverence on the other.

The conclusion I draw from these similarities is that Lucan uses the Nile speech, fully conscious of its larger moral context in his uncle's treatise. When Acoreus informs Caesar that his desire to know the source of the Nile was shared with Alexander, Cambyses, and Sesostris, he addresses him, at 10.268, as *Romane* ('Roman'). Although his is not an odd form of address for a non-Roman to use, it is possible that its breadth of reference is deliberate; that, in fact, Acoreus' contemporary addressee is not only Nero, but may also include the Roman aristocracy.

Why would Lucan wish to include his fellow aristocrats? It is, of course, not certain that he would. Furthermore, I do not see a means of excluding the various possibilities – that Lucan is emphatically blaming Nero, that he is cautioning him, that he is cautioning his whole Roman audience, including Nero. I am least convinced by a fourth possibility, the view that Lucan does not engage Nero critically at all in this or

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other passages outside the encomium.[60] I shall generally advocate for the third of the above possibilities for two reasons. First, it has in general received less attention in the scholarship than the first and fourth positions.[61] Secondly, I understand this to be the force of *BC* 1.8: *quis furor, o cives, quae tanta licentia ferri?* ('what madness, **O citizens**, what great licence of the sword?'). Taken together with the address to Nero, at 1.33-66, the narrator may be understood to address both fellow citizen and emperor, a combined audience which remains an object of the narrator's many apostrophes and indirectly, as at 10.268, through secondary narrators.

The subject matter of Acoreus' speech certainly brings the role of Nero, by virtue of his Nile expedition, into the fore. Lucan's description of the palace at Alexandria brings in the issue of the imperial court more. Figures such as Ptolemy's minister Pothinus and henchmen Achillas and Ganymede may also serve in their own right as character types with resonance for the contemporary audience. Frederick Ahl makes this observation:[62]

> Caesar's ultimate victory in the civil wars, then, brings to Rome the trappings of Eastern luxury, religion, and monarchy – and very nearly an

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[60] I address the various positions taken on the issue of the narrator's relationship to the emperor in chapter 1.

[61] The project I set for myself in this dissertation is, for the most part, to fill what I perceive to be gaps in the existing scholarship, rather than to overturn existing interpretations.

[62] Ahl (1976) 229. For the view that the court of Ptolemy is a caricature of the court of Nero, see P. McCloskey and E. Phinney, Jr. (1968) "Ptolemaeus Tyrannus: The Typification of Nero in the *Pharsalia*," *Hermes* 96.1, 80-87.

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> Egyptian woman to rule it. Pothinus, Achillas, and Ganymede are but forerunners of the mercenaries and eunuchs who were to control the Roman empire, people who, until the time of Caesar, had no place in the politics of Rome. To Lucan's contemporary reader, the scenario of Alexandria in *Pharsalia* 10 must have been something all too familiar in the Rome of their own day.

This may criticize the Neronian present or it may be a warning about the future. In either case, it would be a declaration of truth to power – not simply to Nero, but to the imperial establishment generally.

John Henderson offers a colorful and very perceptive reading of Lucan's Caesar as a critical paradigm for a modern reader, reminiscent of himself, in pursuit of new meanings, hitherto unsuspected by the more traditional (Pompeian) scholars. The playful character of this observation yields to a more subtle point. Caesar is a paradigm of desire open to more than just emperors. Readers, contemporary or modern, may find in Caesar the mirror of their ambitious desires :[63]

> In the psychohistory of the West, you find no models for the construction of subjectivity which can disengage from the old Ego-pattern whose apogee and logical extreme must be the Caesar of the World State. Above all through feminist refusal, you may face Lucan as writer of your selves. In your 'schizophrenic' Western world of

[63] Henderson (1988) 134.

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> hyperinterpretation, where you seek a selfhood in individuality and find meanings proliferating endlessly everywhere just asking for your mastery, you may recognise the Caesarian project of fixing meanings, his meanings, to a universe wherein 'He may seem to be starring in a great world-wide film about himself'.

I quote this long and striking passage to make a point, which is perhaps pallid by comparison. Simply put, Caesar is the harsh reflection of the appetitive self; the self willing to sacrifice everything and everyone to gratify its own desire. If Caesar can be a paradigm for the ambitious literary critic, he certainly can reflect the ambitious Roman *civis*, emperor or not.

The envious and resentful individual exists at the point of nexus between destructive desire and emotion, the scripts of which include anger, hate, greed, ambition, and the like. Therefore, whether he be an emperor who is (perceived to be?) abusing the traditions and sensibilities of the state in a quest for ever greater, more bizarre honors, a self-satisfied office-seeker (Lucilius?), at risk of descending into purple-clad musings on his own power, however limited it be in actuality; or simply anyone chasing after fortune in imperial Rome; for all of these, the envious persona of Caesar may function as a paradigm, or a caricature, of the type at its most extreme. By the same token, for all of these Lucan's Nile stands as an icon of the unreachable object of envious desire.

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Envy and Intertext

In thepreceding section, I argue that Lucan composes Acoreus' speech on the Nile with reference to the moral considerations Seneca attaches to his treatise on the Nile in the *NQ*. Lucan's intertextual focus on envy is not only synchronic. In fact, he addresses ideas of envy, which date back to Homer. The following is not intended as a comprehensive review of envy in Greek and Roman literature before Lucan, but rather as a discussion of particularly useful points of connection or contrast between Lucan and specific authors of relevance. For this reason, I omit some authors one would otherwise expect to find in a literary history of envy, such as Hesiod, Herodotus, and Pindar.[64] I focus instead on Virgil, Lucretius, Callimachus, and Homer.[65] Philip Hardie offers an

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[64] I included a discussion of Hesiod on envy in a previous version of this chapter. My reason for omitting it from this version is that, ultimately, I found no point at which the Homer-Callimachus connection did not seem by far the stronger relationship. Herodotus, whose notion of divine *phthonos* W. R. Johnson cites in connection with Lucan's *invidia fatorum series*, does offer perhaps the single most significant precedent for envy as determining component of history-as-narrative. Lucan may have been conscious of Herodotus in this connection, but his notion of envy is more extensive in terms of whom it ensnares (common soldiers as well as the exalted leaders on whom Herodotus focuses) and a means toward a metapoetic commentary on the poet's relation to literary tradition. Pindar, as a poet of epinician verse, is particularly to be thought of in connection with a discussion of *phthonos*. I exclude him only because it is the representation of *phthonos* in Callimachus Lucan particularly privileges.

[65] In the body of the dissertation I shall also make reference Ovid's use of envy. Ovid's allegorical figure of *Invidia* (*Met.* 2.760-832), however, does not bulk large in Lucan's development of envy as a theme. This is less surprising than it may seem at first. Ovid's development of an allegorical figure of *invidia*

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illuminating point of departure for this discussion in a reflection on the end of the *Aeneid* and its conceptual antecedents in Virgil's own corpus:[66]

The implicit contrast betweeen the endings of the stories of winner and loser may be compared with the proem to *Georgics* 3, where images of the victorious family of the *princeps*, which are displayed on Virgil's temple of song, are followed by the picture of Envy confined in the underworld (3.37-39). Virgil depicts Envy as locked in Tartarus, in company with Ixion (*Geo.* 3.37-39):

> **Inuidia infelix** furias amnemque seuerum
> Cocyti metuet tortosque Ixionis anguis
> immanemque rotam et non exsuperabile saxum.
>
> **unfortunate Envy** will fear the furies and the terrible
> Cocytus river and twisted snakes of Ixion
> and the immense wheel and the unconquerable rock

The imprisonment of Envy serves as a parallel for the fate of those who shall envy Octavian and, by extension, Virgil. Servius considers that the vision of *invidia* locked in Tartarus refers to envy of poetic rivals at the success of Virgil's poetry.[67]

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employs the world of gods and myth; a world eschewed in the *BC*. Lucan focuses instead on the rhetorical, psychological, and metaliterary aspects of envy.

[66] Hardie (1997) 144.

[67] On these lines, see R. Thomas, ed. (1988) *Virgil: Georgics III-IV*, Cambridge, *ad loc.* See also L. P. Wilkinson (1969) *The Georgics of Virgil*, Cambridge, 170-71. Roger Mynors disagrees with Servius and

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Virgil's passage alludes to a Lucretian representation of Envy casting mortals down into Tartarus. Lucretius, denouncing those whose minds are ruled by ambition, depicts envy as a powerful force working ruin upon the human race (*DRN* 5.1120-28).

> at claros homines voluerunt se atque potentes,
> ut fundamento stabili fortuna maneret
> et placidam possent opulenti degere vitam,
> nequiquam, quoniam ad summum succedere honorem
> certantes iter infestum fecere viai,
> et tamen e summo, quasi fulmen, deicit ictos
> **invidia** inter dum contemptim in Tartara taetra;
> **invidia** quoniam ceu fulmine summa vaporant
> plerumque et quae sunt aliis magis edita cumque...
>
> but men wanted to become famous and powerful,
> that their fortune might rest on a stable foundations,
> and that they might be able to lead a peaceful life in luxury,

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believes that the *invidia* of Octavian's rivals for his accomplishments is more likely than envy for Virgil's accomplishments, in part because Tartarus is too grand a punishment for mere rival poets. On my reading, however, this view discounts a psychological valence to Tartarus as an icon of the tortures incumbent upon those that envy what is unsurpassable. The psychological interpretation, as we shall see, is strengthened by this passage's association with Lucretius. Further, Mynors considers it out of place for Virgil to link his accomplishments as a poet with the far greater political achievements of Octavian. In my view, such a connection is exactly Virgil's objective. See R. Mynors, ed. (1990) *Virgil's Georgics*, Oxford, *ad loc.*

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> pointless, since in struggling to attain to the highest honor
> they made the path's journey dangerous, but even so,
> from the summit, like a lightening bolt, after it has struck them
> contemptuously in the meantime, **envy** hurls them down, in dark Tartarus.
> since heights burn because of **envy**, as if because of lightening, and, for
> the most part, anything burns that is more exalted than other things...

Lucretius depicts the free play of envy, destroying those, whom it has inspired. Its destructive power rests, presumably, in the conspiratorial situation to which it has given rise. The envy of many competitors for the *summus honor* has made the path dangerous. And, even if one makes it to the top, tenure there is never long, for others will wish one gone.

Virgil's rewriting of Lucretius' depiction of envy can be interpreted as either decisive or ambiguous, or mostly the first and partly the second. The strong reading goes like this. Octavian has changed Lucretius' socio-political landscape by imprisoning Envy in the very Tartarus to which it had formerly consigned mortals. Since Octavian's political victory is the basis for this change, everyone that envies him is automatically consigned to Tartarus. Envy can no longer be the determining factor in competition for *summus honor*, in politics or in literature. It is impotent and can only suffer the anguish of its own resentment, which can no longer be translated into action. The ambiguity of Virgil's representation, discerned by Wilkinson, is that the ekphrasis of Caesar's ancestors, which precedes the description of Envy's fate, is itself a monument capable of

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arousing envy.[68] Therefore, while envy is politically and artistically defeated, it may nevertheless persist.

A useful way to think of the relationship between Lucan's narrator and the characters of the poem, in terms of envy, is to consider these differences between Virgil and Lucretius. On this analogy, we may see in Lucan the *invidia infelix* of rival poets, as Servius understood it. The oppositional voice of Lucan's narrator is confined, like Virgil's *Invidia infelix*, to a psychological Tartarus by Julius Caesar's victory at Pharsalus. His envious resentment of the divine Julius, of Augustus, and of Virgil, is the *invidia* of the defeated. Not accidentally, Lucan's Caesar explicitly declares his willingness to accept this type of *invidia*. Before the battle of Pharsalus, he declares to his soldiers that he is willing to accept the resentment, which would inevitably follow from such a victory, if only his soldiers 'rule': (7. 268): *invidia regnate mea* ('rule, and let the resentment fall on me').[69]

Lucan's characters, however, relate to one another in a manner consistent with Lucretius' presentation. The dates of authorship for Lucretius and Virgil are relevant to considerations of Lucan's bifurcated depiction of envy. As a Neronian poet, he is writing after Augustus and the reorganization of the state, but, within the time frame of his epic, in which he recounts events as if a witness to them as they happen, he sees a world that is

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[68] Wilkinson (1969) 170-71; followed by G. B. Miles (1979) *Virgil's Georgics : a new interpretation*, Berkeley.

[69] Caesar exhorts them all to kingly rule (*regnare*), but what he more likely means is simply that they win and thereby guarantee that they will be amply compensated for service in his legions.

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the terrible, logical consequence of the conditions described by Lucretius not many years before the civil war between Pompey and Caesar actually erupted.

The two frames of envy, Lucan's and his characters', both have specific provenances in literary tradition and political history. In chapter 1, I discuss at length Lucan's address to Nero (1.33-66) and argue that Lucan's narrator is making an open-ended appeal to the emperor to act beneficently toward Rome and himself. The narrator does not assume a good relationship; rather he makes quite a point about the fact that he has to ask. Entirely excluded from the encomium of Nero is any mention of the emperor, whom its obvious model, the *Georgics* encomium of Octavian, was addressing. This exclusion of Augustus, whom Nero, in a speech to the Senate on the occasion of his accession, declared to be his model, is striking. Lucan uses the exclusion to create envy of the fourth script. The displacement of Augustus by Nero, as Lucan orchestrates it, makes all the more incumbent upon Nero the fulfillment of those responsibilities, by which Augustus had continued to merit praise decades after his death. Should Nero (continue to?) fall short, the result of the encomium will be justified resentment; or *invidia* of the *nemesis* variety.[70]

At the same time, Lucan can be seen to unite his narrator and his emperor in a similarly envious posture toward the earlier poet-emperor pair, Virgil and Augustus. To the extent that they are confronting the immovable legacy of tradition, narrator and

[70] This method is the same one Lucan applies throughout the text, in his treatment of Caesar, culminating in his revelation of the general as unstable and weak in book 10. The previous nine books create expectations, which are then dramatically undercut.

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emperor are both aligned with Virgil's *Invidia infelix*, in the extended sense of Virgil's passage; i.e. that any who envy the unsurpassable deeds of the first *princeps* and his poet will suffer the ills of Tartarus, because their ambitions can never be realized.[71] The discourse of envy admits of multiple perspectives. Virgil could use envy to show how Octavian had decisively changed the socio-political landscape from the one Lucretius describes, yet also show that this very accomplishment could generate further envy. Lucan can use it to show that this emperor will suffer great *invidia* for his pretensions to Augustus' legacy, should he fall short of it, while at the same time he can use the discourse of envy to show that both he, as a poet, and the emperor are swimming against the same current, in trying to match the Augustan legacies of greatness.

Here, again, we see the applicability of envy to Masters' notion of the Caesarian voice of the poet, who must assault the monuments of the past, if his own achievements are to win him the title of epic poet. The Neronian frame stands in tension with the poem's dramatic timeframe. In Lucan, the horror of unrestricted *invidia* is manifested in civil war, the logical conclusion of the social dynamics depicted by Lucretius. The tension between narrator and subject puts the narrator at risk of succumbing to the unrestricted form of envy that he depicts. Just as the narrator must negotiate his own powerful emotional responses, as the poem unfolds, he must also confront his own *invidia infelix*, mandated by his belated status as a successor to Virgil in the tradition of Roman martial epic, and a citizen of post-Pharsalus, post-Philippi, post-Actium Rome.

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[71] The conventional language of envy is used in the encomium of Nero, as I discuss in chapter 1.

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The means by which a Roman epic poet might reflexively comment on his relationship to *invidia* were to be found particularly in the Callimachean tradition. This statement lands squarely in the midst of a controversy concerning Callimachus' relationship to the epic genre and the perception or transformation of that relationship among Roman adapters. I will first sketch the relationship of Callimachus to the introduction of *Georgics* 3, on which I have focused so far.

L. P. Wilkinson notes that Virgil's depiction of *invidia* has antecedents in both Pindar and Callimachus. Although he remarks on the similarity between Virgil's scenario and the one Callimachus describes at the end of *Hymn II*, he favors Pindar for his status as the earlier and preeminent epinician poet.[72] In addition to the similarity between the Callimachean version, in which Apollo intervenes to banish Envy from the poem, a functional equivalent of confining it to the underworld, Thomas notes that Virgil uses the particularly Callimachean *Cynthius* as an epithet for Apollo in the line immediately preceding, which rounds out the ekphrasis of the Julian past (*Geo.* 1.36): *Troiae Cynthius auctor* ('and the Cynthian builder of Troy').[73]

Thomas adheres to and, indeed, champions the view that Callimachus was a poet particularly associated with opposition to martial epic. In this respect, Virgil's

[72] Wilkinson (1969) 170-71.

[73] Thomas (1988) 36-37 and Thomas's note *ad loc.*

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incorporation of such a poet, not to mention Lucan's, may appear surprising.[74] Most of my discussion of Callimachus, whom I believe Lucan read with care, I shall defer to chapter 1; however, there is an important aspect of Callimachus' depiction of envy, which both Virgil and Lucan replicate, that is also to be found in Homeric epic: it is the nexus of envy, blame, unmeasured discourse, and their violent rejection from the narrative.

The passage from *Hymn II*, Callimachus' hymn to Apollo, comes at the end of the poem. Envy whispers that it does not approve of the poet who 'does not sing like the sea'. Apollo observes that the Euphrates is big, but it is also dirty. The god prefers the pure water taken by the 'bee women' to Demeter. Thereupon, Apollo kicks Envy away and the poet tells it to go live with Blame (*h.Ap.* 105-13):

ὁ Φθόνος Ἀπόλλωνος ἐπ' οὔατα λάθριος εἶπεν· (105)
'οὐκ ἄγαμαι τὸν ἀοιδὸν ὃς οὐδ' ὅσα πόντος ἀείδει.'
τὸν Φθόνον ὠπόλλων ποδί τ' ἤλασεν ὧδέ τ' ἔειπεν·
"Ασσυρίου ποταμοῖο μέγας ῥόος, ἀλλὰ τὰ πολλά
λύματα γῆς καὶ πολλὸν ἐφ' ὕδατι συρφετὸν ἕλκει. ‹ῥἔ
Δηοῖ δ' οὐκ ἀπὸ παντὸς ὕδωρ φορέουσι μέλισσαι, (110)
ἀλλ' ἥτις καθαρή τε καὶ ἀχράαντος ἀνέρπει
πίδακος ἐξ ἱερῆς ὀλίγη λιβὰς ἄκρον ἄωτον.'
χαῖρε, ἄναξ· ὁ δὲ Μῶμος, ἵν' ὁ Φθόνος, ἔνθα νέοιτο.

[74] This view of Callimachus has been challenged by Alan Cameron (1995) *Callimachus and his Critics*, Princeton. Cameron argues that Callimachus was not opposed to epic and the passages thought to refer to long epic narrative in fact refer to longer elegiac poetry.

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Envy spoke stealthily in Apollo's ear:

'I don't like the poet who doesn't sing like the sea.'

Apollo kicked Envy with his foot and drove him away, saying:

'the Assyrian river has a mighty stream, but it drags

a lot of silt and garbage in its waters.

the bee-women bring water to Deo not from just any source,

but from the tiny stream of a holy spring, its pristine best.

farewell, Lord, and Blame, go live with Envy.

Envy's preference for the poet that sings like the sea has been interpreted by Cameron to refer to indefinite length, which agrees with Apollo's comparison of it to the 'great flood of the Assyrian river'.[75] The crux of the difference between Cameron's position and those who follow Williams is that Cameron takes ὅσα (*h. Ap.* 106) to be quantitative, where Williams believes it is qualitative. Williams' argument is that that 'the sea' represents Homer and the poets who sing 'like' the sea are the stale imitators of Homer.[76] Cameron understands ὅσα to mean 'as much as'. Although it does not seem to me that Cameron's

[75] Cameron (1995) 403-7. This is a quite polemical reinterpretation of the passage against the views of F. Williams (1978) *Hymn to Apollo*, Oxford, *ad loc.*

[76] For further evidence on the contemporary Alexandrian associations between sea imagery and Homer, see Williams (1978) *ad loc.*

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interpretation, at least of this passage in particular, requires the dismissal of Williams' larger argument, it is the quantitative sense that I wish to develop here.[77]

A functionally equivalent association can be seen in the Homeric characters Thersites (*Iliad* 2.211-70) and Irus (*Odyssey* 18.1-242). Gregory Nagy has argued that these characters each represent epic caricatures of the blame poet.[78] Their negative depictions constitute assertions of epic's generic alignment with praise poetry. In addition to delivering blame, they are both defined by *phthonos* and an inability to speak according to the canons of proper self-representation. They are also both violently ejected from their respective poems.

True to its hymnic status, Callimachus' *Hymn II* is necessarily a poem of praise and, therefore, its narrative dynamics are receptive to incorporation in epic. The perverse stance of Lucan's epic, however, undermines this convenient relationship. The epics of Homer and Virgil may be described very generally as poems in praise of their principal heroes. Lucan's epic, with the exception of the Cato narrative, is a generic contradiction in terms, it is a blame epic. Lucan's emotionally disordered narrator speaks more like Thersites than Achilles, and nothing at all like Nestor.[79] Although Lucan also had a

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[77] For example, Callimachus may conceivably use the imagery of the sea, conscious of its Homeric associations, in combination with its more purely quantitative sense to make the point that Homer's imitators create not Homer renewed, but an endless sea of verses.

[78] G. Nagy (1979) *The Best of the Achaeans*, Baltimore, 231.

[79] R. Martin (1989) *The Language of Heroes*, Ithaca, 110. Martin develops Nagy's argument, noting that Nestor is consistently represented as the most skilled in speech. Nestor's mode of communication is defined by a readiness to praise what is praiseworthy in others and to lead by general consent.

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contemporary philosophical context for his narrative voice, which I discussed above, he would have been fully conscious of and inspired by the Homeric example.

In chapter 1, I argue that Callimachus' depiction of the encounter between Apollo and Envy is directly adapted by Lucan at the end of *BC* 1, when a Roman matron in the grip of Apollo's prophetic frenzy appears on the scene and delivers the final speech of the book. The Callimachean scenario affords Lucan a particularly economical and recognizable means of accessing the nexus of envy, blame, unmeasured speech, and narrative rejection. Lucan references this nexus in his encomium of Nero, in the Pythia's prophecy in book 5, which Apollo directly interrupts, and again in book 10 when Lucan addresses the broader role of the envy nexus in Acoreus' Nile speech. In chapter 3, I shall argue that Acoreus' discussion of the relationship between solar 'Phoebus' and the Nile constitutes a translation of Callimachus' contrast between Apollo and the Assyrian river to the scientific plane. While the purposes of the two poets are quite different, the intertextual relationship that Lucan cultivates is key to understanding how envy is used in the poem and how book 10 addresses the most important issues of books 1-9.

Criticism

The modern phase of Anglo-American Lucan criticism can be said to begin with Frederick Ahl's *Lucan: An Introduction*. This book does not have a single thesis, rather it tackles all the major issues, as well as creating some new ones, attached to every part of the poem. Nothing since has matched it in both scope and originality. I have already quoted Ahl twice at length, exactly because of the comprehensiveness of his work. I

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shall have cause to reference him again in chapter 2, in which I am particularly concerned with Lucan's minor characters. Ahl was the first to appreciate the great significance of these figures to the poem as a whole. Although I disagree with his particular conclusions, I also look to Ahl's example, for his willingness to speculate on the nature of the poem's ending. Although he adheres to the view that the poem would have ended with Cato's suicide, his approach is not reductive. In addition to criticizing alternative interpretations of the ending, he also attempts to reconstruct the interpretive context for the ending he thinks to be true. In this direction, constructive debate lies.

I have already spoken of Narducci's important *La provvidenza crudele*, which traced the ideological content of the poem to its practice of allusion and connected them with Seitz's analysis of the poem's narrative mode of *indignatio*. Seitz was in turn developing the work of earlier scholars on pathos and paradox in Lucan.[80] Continuing the focus on the narrative strategies of Lucanian pathos, G. B. Conte emphasizes that the *BC* is characterized by a narrative voice in which the barrier between subject matter and the emotional disposition of the narrator has been eliminated.[81] In his study of the *Aeneid*, Conte argues that Virgil adapts the objectivity of the Homeric narrator to his more subjective style by relativizing the epic discourse to the perspective of each character, regardless of their attitude toward Aeneas. Yet, Virgil simultaneously prevents true

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[80] On Lucan as a poet of pathos, see E. Fraenkel (1964) "Lucan als Mittler des antiken Pathos," in *Kleine Beiträge zur kassischen Philologie*, Rome, 243ff. A. Thierfelder (1970) "Der Dichter Lucan," in *Lucan: Wege der Forschung* 235, W. Rutz, ed., Darmstadt, 50-69.

[81] G. B. Conte (1985) *Memoria dei poeti e sistema letterario*, Turin, 76-108, 85.

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dialogue between Aeneas and his adversaries, the existence of which would diminish the authority of Aeneas' narrative and radically equalize the poem's opposing factions, establishing in the epic narrative conditions reminiscent of tragedy.[82]

On Conte's reading, Lucanian epic shares important narrative dynamics in common with tragedy. Alessandro Schiesaro adds to this line of research, drawing comparisons with Senecan tragedy. In Seneca, he notes, *furor* and *nefas* mandate a non-linear approach to narrative time, unlike the determined progress of Virgilian time, ordered by fate. Schiesaro notes that Lucan, through his emphasis on narrative delay, shares with Seneca this aspect of the themes of *furor* and *nefas*.[83] Schiesaro's observation may be compared with the distinction David Quint sees between the plot of Virgilian epic versus what he terms 'romance', a category to which he assigns the *BC*. In his adaptation of Peter Brooks' Freudian approach, Quint sees the difference between two narrative patterns. There is romance, characterized by a regressive, episodic, non-teleological, repetition of traumatic events, devoid of any final mastery of that trauma, represented in his analysis by the *BC*. There is the progressive, future–oriented, highly teleological pattern, which inscribes in its conclusion the mastery of past trauma, for which the *Aeneid* is the model.[84] The emphasis in Quint's analysis on the plot's inherent response to

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[82] Conte (1986) *The Rhetoric of Imitation: Genre and poetic Memory in Virgil and Other Latin Poets*, ed. & tr. C. P. Segal, Ithaca, 117.

[83] A. Schiesaro (1997) "L'intertestualità e i suoi disagi," *MD* 39, 75-109.

[84] Quint (1993); on the *Aeneid* as an example of the mastery of repetition, see 50-96; on the *BC* as an example of anti-teleological, unmastered repetition of trauma, see 131-57.

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trauma indirectly touches on the work of Lucan scholars on pathos. Although each critic emphasizes slightly different elements, pathos, pathos as manifested in *indignatio*, pathos as a marker of affiliation to tragic narrative, *furor* and *nefas* as themes that determine narrative dynamics, and the politics of non-teleological plots, they have all maintained rather similar attitudes toward the *BC*.

W. R. Johnson was the first to remark on the signficance of Lucan's combination of *invida* with *series fatorum* at 1.70 (*invida fatorum series*).[85] In addition, he also brought out the narrator's obsession with weight imagery, which is quite important to my discussion of Lucan's treatment of Callimachean aesthetics and the imagery of *invidia* in chapter 1. Johnson also provides the first extensive critique of Cato's role in the poem. Johnson does not question the appeal of Cato's morals as an ethical category, rather he examines the difficult question of the attitude with which Lucan describes them, contending that Lucan's representation is bitterly satirical. Although I do not agree with this assessment, Johnson is right to question the degree to which Cato's appeal is meant to be obvious to the reader. I shall argue that Cato is offered as a solution to several of the problems the poem sets up, but I would concede that this may well be in spite of the harshness of his character, rather than because of it.

Although Jamie Masters does not treat book 9 or the majority of book 10 and largely ignores the character of Cato, he offers the most thorough argument yet for considering the poem complete in the form we have it.[86] In addition, Masters' argument

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[85] Johnson (1987) 14.

[86] Masters (1992) 216-59.

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for a narrative voice that is divided between Caesarian and Pompeian personae is particularly useful for discussing how the characters' envy of one another may overlap with the narrator's conflicted sense of envy toward literary tradition. Finally, Masters offers the most extensive discussion of Lucan's use of Callimachus. The mentions are not many, but they are insightful and provide the foundation for my own examination of the subject.

Shadi Bartsch, on the other hand, examines the issue of undifferentiation in Lucan.[87] Drawing particularly on the earlier work of Glenn Most, Bartsch focuses on the ontological implications of destruction of the physical self. Most notes that both Lucan and Seneca dwell particularly upon dismemberment and that there appears to be a metaphorical link between the dismemberment of the bodies inside the narratives and the 'dismemberment' of the narratives themselves.[88] The destruction of defining boundaries throws into confusion the forms of representations. Bartsch switches the emphasis from the narrative to the status of the disemembered subject, arguing that Lucan resists the spread of undifferentiation through the violence of civil war through the act of description. Insofar as the loss of definition defies the attempt to describe, the very act of description is a mode of resistance.

The issue of undifferentiation is a point of overlap between my thesis and Bartsch's study. While I do not disagree with Bartsch's basic point that description

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[87] S. Bartsch (1997) *Ideology in Cold Blood*, Cambridge, Mass.

[88] G. Most (1992) "*Disiecti membra poetae*: The Rhetoric of Dismemberment in Neronian Poetry," in *Innovations of Antiquity*, ed. R. Hexter and D. Selden, New Haven, 391-419

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resists undifferentiation, I think there is more to be said about where the loss of defining difference first arises. It is precipitated, particularly in its manifestation as dismemberment, by the violence of civil war; however, we can go still further back. Here, I draw on René Girard's concept of mimetic desire, which he describes as the functional equivalent of envy.[89] It should be noted that Girardean envy does not disagree with the categories established by Kaster. Its contribution is to offer a still broader 'script' for how envy may become the dominant force at a given moment in history. Mimetic desire is the condition whereby two or more subjects desire a common object, which for Lucan's Caesar and Pompey is the highest place in public honor. Competition for this object engages the competing subjects in a mimetic process in which each attempts to surpass the other in respect to the particular set of qualities the competition priveleges, such as *virtus*, *gloria*, etc.

Mimetic competition is inevitably envious to the extent that one envies the degree to which another possesses or seems to have access to the honors one desires for oneself. Envy and mimetic desire both require that each subject attempt to maximize personal possession of the qualities that grant access to the commonly desired objective. Since the set of qualities in question is one shared among the competitors, there is a consequent diminishment in difference between them, as they each try to become more like the perfect manifestation of these qualities. I shall argue that Girardean mimetic desire offers a useful perspective on Lucan's treatment of undifferentiation versus distinction in his

[89] R. Girard (1977) *Violence and the Sacred*, tr. Patrick Gregory, Baltimore.

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poetry as well as in the story he narrates. It can also explain how envy creates (*qua* mimetic desire) the patterns observed by Conte, Quint, and Schiesaro.

Mathew Leigh's reading of Lucan offers a particularly useful contribution to the discussion of book 9.[90] He establishes that there is an allegory of the passions at work in Lucan's snake episode. In chapter 3, I propose that the nexus of passions allegorized in this episode includes and, in fact, centers on envy. Finally, Emanuele Narducci has written a defense of several orthodox positions in Lucan criticism against the revisons of Henderson, Johnson, and Masters.[91] I draw on this study mainly for its reassertion of Cato's importance in the poem.

I have already sketched the reasons why I believe that the patterns traced by Conte, Schiesaro, and Quint break down in Book 10. This may indeed be so whether Lucan intended his poem to continue or not. On my reading, as I shall argue in chapter 3, the Nile speech inscribes repetition of trauma into the cosmic order allegorically, by recounting the endless struggle of the sun against the Nile. Yet, the Nile is always triumphant, in Acoreus' representation, because it resists the sun's desire to incinerate Egypt. If understood to represent Lucan's teleological strategy, Acoreus' speech produces the opposite effect from the one identified by Conte, Quint, and Schiesaro; an analysis, which is correct for books 1-9. The reason is that, in book 10, the narrator is empowered for the first time in the poem, since the antagonist's desire no longer determines the logic of the narrative.

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[90] M. Leigh (1997) *Spectacle and Engagement*, Oxford.

[91] Narducci (2002).

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Acoreus' speech introduces to Caesar's narrative the moral knowledge of divine nature that Cato displays in his; indeed, the sheer space of the speech (137 vv.) suppresses Caesar's narrative with that knowledge for a considerable length, considering the brevity of the book (546 vv.). The form of power inscribed in book 10, as I shall argue in chapter 3, is epistemological: natural philosophy, as represented by ancient Egyptian religion. The Nile speech can be seen to redefine the narrator's notion of an *invida fatorum series* and functions as an interpretive apparatus, introduced into the poem to tip narrative control in favor of the narrator. This narrative strategy is in fact begun with the story of Cato in book 9, but is not to be fully understood until Acoreus' speech in book 10. This is not to claim that Lucan's narrator becomes a sage. He is rather the imperfect and often misapprehending witness to sages, as well as fools. Therefore, rather than the narrator alone, a conspiracy of voices creates the circumstances, which suggest the possibility of an ending at 10.546. This ending would resolve the ambiguity of *invidia* in favor of an inherent retributive justice, which transcends the outward form of Roman politics and the epochal divisions of history.

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Chapter 1: The Encomium and its Permutations

This chapter is an examination of how the encomium of Nero introduces the poetics of envy and how subsequent allusion to the encomium expands and challenges the ideas of historical and literary closure as well as the political implications of vatic and musagetic authority. The 'poetics' in question are the features of envy as a literary theme, its images, metaphors, and intertexts. These recur in the poem as marked elements, allowing Lucan to engage with the theme of envy symbolically, even when he does not use the words *invidia* or *livor*. The theme of envy also encompasses the metaliterary freight envy had acquired in Greco-Roman poetic tradition; in particular, its Callimachean associations with the imagery of weight and length.

The Encomium

The actual praises of Nero are primarily concentrated in 1.45-66, but the address to the emperor covers 1.33-66. Although the explicit message of 1.33-45 is ostensibly laudatory, it has provoked more speculation as to its possible subversive content than the considerably more effusive passage at 1.45-66. The relationship between the two sections is therefore of obvious importance and, for this reason, I quote the entire encomium in full (1.33-66):

quod si non aliam venturo fata Neroni
invenere viam magnoque aeterna parantur
regna deis caelumque suo servire Tonanti
non nisi saevorum potuit post bella gigantum,
iam nihil, o superi, querimur; scelera ipsa nefasque

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hac mercede placent. diros Pharsalia campos
inpleat et Poeni saturentur sanguine manes,
ultima funesta concurrant proelia Munda,
his, Caesar, Perusina fames Mutinaeque labores
accedant fatis et quas premit aspera classes
Leucas et ardenti servilia bella sub Aetna,
multum Roma tamen debet civilibus armis
quod tibi res acta est. te, cum statione peracta
astra petes serus, praelati regia caeli
excipiet gaudente polo: seu sceptra tenere
seu te flammigeros Phoebi conscendere currus
telluremque nihil mutato sole timentem
igne vago lustrare iuvet, tibi numine ab omni
cedetur, iurisque tui natura relinquet
quis deus esse velis, ubi regnum ponere mundi.
sed neque in Arctoo sedem tibi legeris orbe
nec polus aversi calidus qua vergitur Austri,
unde tuam videas obliquo sidere Romam.
aetheris inmensi partem si presseris unam,
sentiet axis onus. librati pondera caeli
orbe tene medio; pars aetheris illa sereni
tota vacet nullaeque obstent a Caesare nubes.

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tum genus humanum positis sibi consulat armis
inque vicem gens omnis amet; pax missa per orbem
ferrea belligeri conpescat limina Iani.
sed mihi iam numen; nec, si te pectore vates
accipio, Cirrhaea velim secreta moventem
sollicitare deum Bacchumque avertere Nysa:
tu satis ad vires Romana in carmina dandas.

but if the fates found no other way for Nero
to come and the eternal realms were obtained for the gods
at a great price and it was not possible for heaven to serve its
Thunderer except after wars with the savage giants,
we do not complain, O gods; these crimes and the unspeakable
wrong are pleasing at this price; though Pharsalus fill its terrible
fields and the Carthaginian spirits have their fill of blood,
though the final battle rages at corpse-crowded Munda,
though to these fates come the Perugian famine, Caesar,
and the labors of Mutina, and the fleets that harsh
Leucas sinks, and the slave wars beneath burning Etna,
nevertheless Rome owes much to civil war,
because it was done for you; when you will seek
the stars late in life, your duty done, the palace

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of the chosen realm of the heavens will receive you,
while the sky rejoices; whether it pleases you to hold the scepter
or to mount the flame-dragging chariot of Phoebus
and to orbit with wandering fire an earth that fears nothing,
even though the sun has changed hands, to you every god
will give place, to your authority nature will leave the choice of
what god you want to be, and where to put the kingdom of the
world, but do not choose for yourself a seat in the northern realm,
nor where the hot sky of the opposing south sinks,
leaving you to view your Rome from a slantwise star.
if you should press one part of the vast ether,
the axis will feel the burden. hold in mid-orb the weight
of the balanced world; may that part of the serene ether
be entirely empty, and may no clouds block Caesar's view.
then could the human race, its weapons put away, care for itself
and each nation love the other. then peace, after it is sent through
the world, could shut the iron doors of war-waging Janus.
but to me you are already a god; nor, if as poet
I accept you, would I disturb the god who governs
the Delphic mysteries and turn Bacchus from Nysa:
you are enough to give strength to Roman song.

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There are three main positions on the encomium: it is sincere praise for Nero;[1] it is an ironic critique of Nero;[2] or it is an empty gesture of deference, perhaps meant to protect the poet against the displeasure that the rest of the poem might incur.[3] Jamie Masters, who does not discuss the encomium *per se*, but whose reading of the poem's

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[1] The following scholars argue for this interpretation: A. D. Nock (1926) "The Proem of Lucan," *CR* 40, 17-18; M. Levi (1949) "Il proemio della *Pharsalia*," *RFC* n.s. 27, 71-78; G. Pfligersdorffer (1959) "Lucan als Dichter des geistigen Widerstandes," *Hermes* 87, 344-77; P. Grimal (1960) L'élogue de Néron au début de la *Pharsale* est-il ironique?" *REL* 38: 296-305; J. Brisset (1964) *Les idées politiques de Lucain*, Paris; L. Thompson (1964) "Lucan's Apotheosis of Nero," *CP* 59, 147-53; R. Jenkinson (1974) "Sarcasm in Lucan 1.33-66," *CR* 24, 8-9; W. D. Lebek (1976) *Lucans Pharsalia: Dichtungsstruktur und Zeitbezug*, Göttingen; K. Bohnenkamp (1977) "Zum Nero-Elogium in Lucans *Bellum Civile*," *MH* 34, 235-48; R. Tucker (1983) "Lucan and Phoebus," *Latomus* 42, 143-51; C. Martindale (1984) "The Politician Lucan," *G&R* 31, 64-67; M. Griffin (1984) *Nero: the End of a Dynasty*, London; V. Hunink (1993) "Lucan's Praise of Nero," *Papers of the Leeds International Latin Seminar 7, ARCA* 32, 135-40; M. Dewar (1994) "Laying it on with a Trowel: The Proem to Lucan and Related Texts," *CQ* n. s. 44, 199-211; C. Saylor (1998) "Lucan and his Models of the Introduction," *Mnemosyne* 52, 545-53; N. Holmes (1998) "Nero and Caesar: Lucan 1.33-66," *CP* 94.1, 75-81; E. Narducci (2002).

[2] B. Marti (1945) "The Meaning of the *Pharsalia*," *AJP* 66, 352-76; E. Griset (1955) "Lucanea I: Le due *Farsaglie*," *Riv. Di Stud. Class.* 2: 109-13; O. Schönberger (1958) "Zu Lucan: Ein Nachtrag," *Hermes* 86, 230-39; W. Rutz (1965) "Lucan 1943-1963," *Lustrum* 9, 234-340; G. B. Conte (1966) "Il proemio della *Pharsalia*," *Maia* 18, 42-53; F. Ahl (1976); W. R. Johnson (1987); S. Hinds (1988) "Generalising about Ovid," in *The Imperial Muse: To Juvenal through Ovid*, Bendigo, Australia, 4-31, (1998) *Allusion and Intertext: The Dynamics of Appropriation in Roman Poetry*, Cambridge.

[3] D. Gagliardi (1970) *Lucano: poeta della libertà*, Naples; J. P. Sullivan (1985) *Literature and Politics in the Age of Nero*, Ithaca.

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politics have profound implications for the encomium, offers an additional perspective. Masters argues that Lucan writes the poem as a *reductio ad absurdum* of all political ideology as an example of the literary freedom Nero guarantees.[4] On this reading, the political implication is that the encomium is either sincere or that whatever instabilities or deliberate parodies it harbors are part of the overall *reductio*, which ultimately attests to the tolerance of Nero's reign.

Among partisans of the ironic reading, there are differences in approach. Frederick Ahl sees Lucan taking care to avoid any personal attack on Nero,[5] but sees an inescapable irony in making Nero the muse of a poem about "...the imposition of slavery upon the Roman world, not Rome's rise to glory."[6] Secondly, Ahl questions Lucan's anticipation of Nero's deification when the gods not only appear powerless, but the narrator even states that the deification of mortals is mankind's vengeance on the gods (7.455-59):

> cladis tamen huius habemus
> vindictam, quantam terris dare numina fas est:
> bella pares superis facient civilia divos,
> fulminibus manes radiisque ornabit et astris
> inque deum templis iurabit Roma per umbras.

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[4] Masters (1994) 171-72.

[5] Ahl (1976) 47-49.

[6] Ibid., 48. Johnson, (1987) 118 & 121-23, and Feeney, (1991) 276, both follow this line of interpretation.

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for all that, we do have vengeance
for this, as much as is right for gods to give to mortals:
civil war will make deified men equal to the gods,
and will decorate shades with lightning and the sun's rays and
stars and in the temples of the gods Rome will swear by shades.

Denis Feeney follows Ahl in the ironic reading, but Feeney's encomium is much more viscerally hostile to the emperor. Although he does not explicitly contradict Ahl on this point, his reading of 1.33-45 hardly seems to mesh with Ahl's view that there is no direct attack on the emperor:[7]

> These staggering lines are remarkable enough for their equation of Nero's reign and the tyranny of Jupiter, with all the powerful Ovidian implications of that equation; they are followed up, as we have seen, in the developed identification of Caesar and Jupiter, which serves as historical prototype for Nero. Lucan uses degrading mercantile metaphor to claim that he is pleased at the result; irony is too weak a term for this warped praise, since the sub-text is virtually on the surface. Further, in this poem the Gigantomachic motif is itself subverted, as we have seen, for the Caesars are intruders.

Those who consider the encomium subversive, such as Ahl and Feeney, and those who find it to be a piece of straight panegyric, regardless of the poet's sentiments, tend to

[7] Feeney (1991) 299. Unless 'direct' is taken to mean no more than the fact that the emperor is not named, though his identity is otherwise wholly obvious.

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approach it in a similar way. They divide it into more and less authorized portions. Feeney confronts the difficulties presented by the explicit praise of 1.45-65 by looking particularly to 1.33-45 and 1.66. Ahl looks to 1.66 and then to subsequent statements from the narrator, which, he argues, indirectly negate the encomium's anticipation of Nero's apotheosis.

Those disposed to the non-subversive interpretation, look instead to 1.45-66, with its testament to the immanent divinity of the emperor, as the authorizing center of the encomium and as evidence for Lucan's adherence to the conventions of panegyric. This hermeneutic of division and conquest has yielded two very different, but equally compelling readings of the encomium. Yet, as I shall argue, these positions are based on incomplete information. There exist in the encomium of Nero plays on literary convention and figurative language which have yet to be taken into account. I do not propose that the addition of this new information yields a single, obvious, and correct assessment of the poem's politics, but it does illustrate the degree to which the sophisticated artifice of Lucan's epic technique stands between the reader and any easy conclusions about the motives of the poet.

Literary Conventions in the Encomium

In this chapter, I look at four conventions from Roman Callimacheanism, which Lucan adapts in his encomium and elsewhere in the poem. These consist of the narrator's statement of muse-poet relations, two literary metaphors, and the poem's programmatic theophany. The statement of muse-poet relations is an adaptation of the convention

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according to which the poet proclaims that the muse does not look upon him with disfavor (or 'obliquely'). The metaphors are weight and length. The programmatic theophany consists of the intervention of the poem's inspirational deity against the negative moral and aesthetic forces that threaten the poem. Before entering into the details of this reading, I wish first to illustrate why we should consider the possibility that Callimachean metaphors exist in the *BC*.

The Legacy of Callimachus among the Neronians

As J. P. Sullivan has shown, the evidence for Nero's interest in the arts, especially poetry, is widely attested. Tacitus tells us (*Ann.* 13.3): *Nero puerilibus statim annis vividum animum in alia detorsit: caelare, pingere, cantus aut regimen equorum exercere; et aliquando carminibus pangendis sibi elementa doctrinae ostendebat* ('in his childhood Nero straightaway turned his enthusiastic disposition to various pursuits: sculpture, painting, singing, and equestrian practice; and he demonstrated a particular facility for producing poetry'). Elsewhere, Tacitus advertises a lively contempt for Nero's versifying (*Ann.* 14.16):

> ... carminum quoque studium adfectavit, contractis quibus aliqua pangendi facultas necdum insignis erat. hi cenati consiere simul et adlatos vel ibidem repertos versus conectere atque ipsius verba quoquo modo prolata supplere, quod species ipsa carminum docet, non impetu et instinctu nec ore uno fluens.

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> ... the emperor also affected an enthusiasm for poetry, he gathered a group whose talent for poetic composition was as yet unrecognized. They sat around after dinner connecting verses they brought with them or which they turned out right there, as well as assisting Nero's offerings, such as they were, a fact the very appearance of the poems bears out – they lack force, inspiration, and unity of composition.

As Sullivan argues,[8] Tacitus' words seem to indicate complex,[9] rather than poor poetry. Against Tacitus, we have the fact that Martial calls Nero *doctus* (*Epigrams*, 8.70.8). Martial may be satirical here, but it suggests at least that the emperor was sufficiently engaged in the practice of literature to be satirized in such fashion. Nero's artistic education was certainly thorough. The highly esteemed musician Terpnus taught him the lyre and Seneca himself instructed the emperor in *ex tempore* composition.[10] Chaeremon,

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[8] Sullivan (1985) 29: "Tacitus' remarks are worth quoting in full for their sneering innuendo and their uncharacteristic disdain of *literary artifice*..." [italics mine].

[9] *nec ore uno* – 'with more than one voice' or a lack of homogeneous tone. This fits nicely with Ellen O'Gorman's reading of the Tacitean representation of Nero as an emperor who never spoke with his own voice, but continually played out the scripts of others, O'Gorman (2000) *Irony and Misreading in the Annals of Tacitus*, Cambridge. On the other hand, it might also describe a narrative mode favoring multiple perspectives or shifting tone. *Prima facie*, the *Satires* of Persius or even Lucan's epic might be described as *nec ore uno*.

[10] Suetonius, *Nero* 42.

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the former head of the Museum at Alexandria, was Nero's tutor and, as Sullivan notes, was likely to have introduced his pupil to Callimachus, the most famous poet of his city.[11]

Suetonius argues against the view, to which Tacitus adheres, that Nero's poetry was inferior or his commitment to the art insincere. Suetonius claims to know this firsthand from reading various working drafts of the emperor's poetic compositions.[12] Tacitus may have been honest in his assessment, but it is clear that there was more than one estimate of the quality of Nero's poetry. Whether the emperor was committed to one tradition of poetry more than another is difficult to say. More certain is the evidence that Nero possessed a broad interest in the arts and had the occasion for direct exposure to Callimachus, as well as other Alexandrian poets. As such, it is worth considering the importance of Callimachus among the major contemporary poets.

Sullivan reads Persius[13] as rejecting Callimachus definitively, because of the staleness his poetry had acquired through its popularity.[14] He also considers Persius to have targeted Nero in his literary polemic as a representative of this stale Roman Callimacheanism. As J. C. Bramble has shown,[15] whether or not Persius rejects Callimachus as a model, he makes thorough use of Callimachean topoi. Richard Thomas

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[11] Sullivan (1985) 28.

[12] Suetonius, *Nero* 52.

[13] Persius was Lucan's contemporary, whom Suetonius' biography (*Vita Persii* 14) tells us Lucan admired greatly, and with whom, according to the same source, he shared a tutor.

[14] Sullivan (1985) 74-114.

[15] J. C. Bramble (1974) *Persius and the Programmatic Satire: A Study in Form and Imagery*, Cambridge, *passim.*

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goes further, questioning whether Persius does in fact make any such rejection and argues that Persius appropriates Callimachean metaphor to the purposes of satire. Thomas' Persius uses Callimachean metaphor and critical principles, even as he rejects as trite adaptations of Callimachus in other poets.[16] Thomas notes that "Persius' program, when viewed in this way, is no more anti-Callimachean than Propertius' rejection of the topos of Apollo or the muse as the inspirational figure, in favor of his girlfriend (Prop., 2.1.3-4)."[17]

Roland Mayer has shown that the Augustan poets did not come into their own as 'classics' to be imitated until their Neronian reception.[18] Mayer suggests that Neronian Augustanism was a reaction against the Alexandrianism that preceded it, notably under Tiberius.[19] In Mayer's view, Alexandrianism died out and was replaced by a preference for the Augustan poets, under Nero's influence. This periodization is open to question.

There is no need to conceive of the resurgence in popularity of the Augustans as necessarily involving a rejection of the Alexandrians. As I will show, the evidence from

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[16] Richard Thomas (1993) "Callimachus in Rome," in *Hellenistica Groningana*, Vol. 1, edd. M. A. Harder, R. F. Regtuit, G. C. Wakker, Groningen, 197-215, 202-3

[17] Thomas (1993) 203. Propertius 2.1.3-4: *non haec Calliope, non haec mihi cantat Apollo, / ingenium nobis ipsa puella facit* ('Calliope does not sing these verses, neither does Apollo sing them for me, / the girl herself makes my genius').

[18] Roland Mayer (1982) "Neronian Classicism," *AJP* 103.3, 305-18.

[19] On literary tastes preceding Nero, Mayer, 306, looks particularly to Suetonius, *Tiberius* 70, for that emperor's preference for and imitation of the younger Alexandrians Euphorion, Rhianus, and Parthenius. Tiberius placed their work in the public libraries and encouraged their study.

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the Neronians does not in fact support such a conclusion. Secondly, I would add that, however the trends in taste unfolded, a thorough reading of the Augustans is likely to have yielded a lively appreciation for their adaptation of Alexandrian poetics, among their many other virtues. The use of Alexandrian poetics among the Augustans, as well as the tradition they inherited from the Neoterics, represent another source of the Callimachean conventions I will discuss. The discussion, therefore, should not be one of Callimachus or the Augustans, but of Callimachus and the Augustans.

In this vein, we may look to John Miller's identification in Propertius, Ovid, and Persius of the convention according to which the poet invokes the topos of divine inspiration by denying it an authoritative role in the poem.[20] In his own discussion of this, Thomas goes a step further, showing that this rejection is consistent with the basic principles of Callimachean poetics. On this reading, Persius uses Callimachean metaphor to critique a stale orthodoxy, which identified itself with Callimachus, but he attacked it because it was stale, not because it was Callimachean. Persius' adaptation of Callimachean topoi in a manner familiar from the verse of Ovid and Propertius gives us room to ask whether Lucan does something similar within the scope of his chosen genre. Like Propertius and Persius, he adopts another source of inspiration instead of a

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[20] J. F. Miller (1986) "Disclaiming Divine Inspiration: A Programmatic Pattern," *Wiener Studien* 20, 151-64. On the prologue to Ovid's *Ars Amatoria* (25-34), Miller, 158, notes: "Where other authors open their works by appealing to a deity for aid, Ovid casually turns to Apollo in order to deny that the god gave him his art (25), and so also to Ascra (28). The playful literary polemic also parodies both the *Theogony* and the *Aitia*."

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traditional divine authority such as Apollo or a muse.[21] This context is especially important for reading Lucan, because he too disclaims divine authority in order to have as muse one whose divinity is not quite established yet – Nero. More generally, like Propertius and Ovid to an extent, and still more like Persius, Lucan offers a jarring mixture of Callimachean and counter-Callimachean elements in the expression of his ideas and as a display of *ingenium*.

Two of the most significant examples of Augustan Callimacheanism occur in the epics of Virgil and Ovid. The *Metamorphoses*, Ovid announces, will be both 'continuous' and 'fine-spun'. A poem of Callimachean sophistication is supposed to be brief rather than continuous. Ovid distinguishes himself by adhering to one set of expectations, while artfully violating another set. In E. J. Kenney's characterization of the *Metamorphoses*' inversive programmatics, "If Propertius is the Roman Callimachus, Ovid is the Super-Callimachus,"[22] Ovid, as Persius (in Thomas' view) does later, stays true to the spirit of Callimacheanism by subverting a well-worn convention.

Richard Thomas and Ruth Scodel have observed that Virgil mentions the Euphrates only three times in his entire corpus: *Georgics* 1.509, 4.561, and *Aeneid* 8.726.[23] In each case, the reference is in the sixth line from the end of its respective book. This position is in accordance with Callimachus' *Hymn to Apollo*, in which the Euphrates

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[21] This distinguishes him from Virgil in the *Georgics*, who addresses Augustus at the end of a list of other deities (*Geo.* 1.1-14) or Lucretius, who addresses Memmius in addition to seeking the inspiration of Venus.

[22] Kenney (1977) 51-52.

[23] R. Thomas and R. Scodel (1984) "Vergil and the Euphrates," *AJP* 105, 339.

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is mentioned six lines from the end of the hymn (*H.* 2.108). In the hymn, Apollo uses the Euphrates, called the "Assyrian river,"[24] as the symbol for the sort of long, unsophisticated poetry he (and Callimachus) reject. James Clauss has argued that Virgil's reference to the Euphrates in *Aeneid* 8 represents an appropriation and redefinition of Callimachean aesthetics in the context of Roman epic.[25] In creating a programmatic paradox with Callimachean points of reference, Lucan displays both his Alexandrian credentials and his awareness of Augustan strategies of allusive self-fashioning.

Whatever attitudes Nero and contemporary authors harbored toward Callimachus and his Roman adapters, their interest in them is evident. The Neronians were not passive receptacles of his literary critical formulae any more than were the Augustans or the New Poets. They adapted the metaliterary language of Callimachus to their own ends, following the precedent of prior generations of Roman poets, who had appropriated Callimachean metapoetics as a compelling mode of literary self-fashioning.

The Oblique Look

The entry of *invidia* into Lucan's encomium of Nero through the poet's variation on a well-attested convention in both Greek and Roman poetry– the oblique look (1.53-55):

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[24] Its identification as the Euphrates is made by the scholiast.

[25] J. J. Clauss (1988) "Vergil and the Euphrates Revisited," *AJP* 109, 309-20, 318: "The Euphrates thus stands as the proper poetic symbol for Vergil's literary achievement in terms of Callimachean esthetics. For Vergil, however, the pejorative associations which the Euphrates had for Callimachus and which Vergil

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sed neque in arctoo sedem tibi legeris orbe,
nec polus aversi calidus qua vergitur austri,
unde tuam videas **obliquo sidere** Romam.

but do not choose for yourself a seat in the northern realm,
nor where the hot sky of the opposing south sinks,
leaving you to view your Rome from a slantwise star..

R. J. Getty's note on the phrase takes us part of the way to understanding its larger function in the poem: "*Obliquo* may be both literal and metaphorical ('askance')."[26] It remains, however, to put this observation into a larger context. Obliquity of the head or eyes is often the physical gesture by which *invidia* is expressed. *Invidia* itself has a physical implication – to harbor *invidia* is to 'look against' (*in-video*) something or someone. Ovid's allegorical figure of *Invidia* looks obliquely (*Met.* 2.787): *illa deam obliquo fugientem lumine cernens* ('as she watched the fleeing goddess with a slantwise look').

The absence of the oblique look is a conventional statement of proper muse-poet relations. So Horace at *Odes* 4.3.1-2, where *placido* is equivalent to *non obliquo*: *quem tu, Melpomene, semel / nascentem* ***placido lumine*** *videris* ('the one on whom at birth you, Melpomene, once looked with benign gaze …'). Both Horace and Lucan find

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exploited in the *Georgics* have been, as it were, exorcised by Augustus' impressive political and military achievements which brought about and guaranteed peace for the poet's world."

[26] Getty (1940) *ad loc.*

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precedent for this representation of muse-poet relations in Callimachus' *Aetia* 1.3.7-8,[27] where the poet declares that the muses will not look *loxo* on the poet in old age whom they have smiled upon in his youth.[28] Later in the same ode, Horace states that he has become free from the conditions of envy (4.3.16): *et iam dente minus mordeor invido* ('I am less bitten by envy's tooth'). The attitude of the muse's gaze authorizes the poet to inform readers how to regard him and to dismiss detractors. For Horace, Melpomene's non-oblique look signals freedom from the envy of his contemporaries.[29]

Callimachus' denunciation of critics, whom he calls Telchines, in the prologue to the *Aetia*, shows the explicit incompatibility between envy and poetry of quality. In the prologue to the *Aetia*, Callimachus aligns himself with the muses against the envy of his critics. Horace, in his fourth book of *Odes* (4.3), announces his triumph over envy in

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[27] Michael Putnam (1986) *Artifices of Eternity: Horace's Fourth Book of Odes*, Ithaca, 72; Ellen Oliensis (1998) *Horace and the Rhetoric of Authority*, Cambridge, 225n1

[28] *Loxias* is a familiar Greek epithet for Apollo, referring sometimes to the elliptical path of the sun chariot, sometimes to the oblique nature of his oracles.

[29] Oliensis (1998) 225: In *Satires* 1.6, he complains of being "gnawed" by detractors envious of his social successes. In *Odes* 2.20, he imagines flying high above envy's reach. The battle ends in *Odes* 4.3 with Horace's victory – a carefully muted victory, but a victory all the same. In *Epode* 4, Horace channels the indignation of passers-by (*ora...huc et huc euntium*, I. 4.9) against an upstart freedman. Here, he welcomes the finger-pointing of passers-by (*digito praetereuntium*, *C.* 4.322) awed by his celebrity. These passers-by model their gaze, as future readers are to model theirs, on Melpomene's. Instead of withering the poet with the slant looks of envy, they bathe him in the "placid gaze" of renown (*placido lumine*, 2).

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partnership with the muse. In each case, however, envy is associated with criticism and it is necessarily absent from a healthy muse-poet relationship.

We may observe an important difference between Callimachus and Horace on the one hand and Lucan on the other. Callimachus and Horace are both in a position to assert the non-oblique aspect of their muse's gaze. Lucan must ask his muse-emperor to abstain from the oblique look. What is entailed in the muse's oblique look in Lucan's situation? Getty suggests 'askance' as the word's metaphorical sense, which easily yields a political implication. If Nero looks upon the narrator with suspicion, given the content of this epic, there might seem to be little hope for Lucan.

In fact, the narrator does not ask Nero not to look specifically on him without obliquity, but on Rome as a whole. It is the scholiast that takes *Romam* (1.55) to indicate the poet. These readings are, of course, not mutually exclusive. The poet is in Rome and he writes *Romana carmina* (1.66); if Nero looks on Rome with suspicion, then it falls on the poet as well. We may also recall at this juncture that Horace expects Melpomene's gaze to influence how others will read him. Lucan's emphasis on Nero's mode of looking does not simply mean that the emperor should not think of him and his poem in a certain way, but that he should not, by his attitude, make others think in that way too. Lucan's own status as epic poet, as friend of the emperor, as an equestrian-born senator,[30] as a youth of stunning literary talent and accomplishment may all be in play when he asks

[30] Ahl (1992) "Form Empowered: Lucan's *Pharsalia*," in *Roman Epic*, ed. A.J. Boyle, New York, 127. Ahl raises the point that as a senator, even a *novus homo*, Lucan's epic politics might carry more weight than Virgil's or Ovid's.

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that Nero gaze *non obliquo*.[31] As Oliensis argues in the case of Horace, social visibility inevitably entails envy, which in turn requires strategies of deference on the part of the poet, if *invidia* is to be avoided.[32] The envious look of the emperor could fill all of Rome with politically destabilizing suspicion and resentment. The issue raised here may include envious resentment of Lucan's accomplishment, but it addresses the broader concern of Nero's attitude toward those whom he rules.

An important but neglected point of intertextual reference in Lucan's strategy of deference is to be found at the beginning of Virgil's first *Eclogue* (*Ecl.* 1.5-6): *O Meliboee, deus nobis haec otia fecit. / namque erit ille* ***mihi semper deus***... ('O Meliboeus, a god has made this leisure for me, for he will always be a god to me'). Lucan's *sed mihi iam numen* (1.63) recalls the fortunate Tityrus' response to the unfortunate Meliboeus. When he evokes this sentiment, Lucan also means us to recall the reply to it. Meliboeus gives this response to Tityrus' praise of his benefactor (*Ecl.* 1.11-12): *non ecquidem* ***invideo***, *miror magis* ('for my part I am not envious, I am more in wonderment').

Lucan's Virgilian intertext implies through the indirect evocation of Meliboeus' considerate reply that Lucan's situation, like Tityrus', might provoke *invidia* in some,

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[31] M. Griffin, (1984) 142 and 159, notes that the ancient sources are unanimous in ascribing the breach between Nero and Lucan to Nero's artistic jealousy. It is not impossible that concern over such an eventuality motivates Lucan's request here that Nero not harbor envy. This would seem to raise the further question of whether it would be an insult to the emperor to suggest there was anything that he would have cause to envy.

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even if it does not in Meliboeus. For Lucan, as the recipient of a powerful benefactor's good will, the *invidia* of others must also be an object of concern, even if they only observe this relationship between poet and emperor evolve, but are not directly included in it. Nero's protective, non-oblique gaze and Lucan's assimilation of himself to his city offset this response.[33]

Weight

The scholiast, recorded in the *Adnotationes super Lucanum*, has offered an infamous reading of line 1.57: *decenter iocatur poeta* ('the poet jokes fittingly').[34] 'Fittingly', because, so the scholiast believes, Lucan has made an accurate jibe at the emperor's physique.[35] The *Adnotationes super Lucanum*, like the *Commenta Bernensia*, are medieval collections of marginalia attached to Lucan's notoriously difficult

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[32] Oliensis (1998) 225.

[33] It is also a poetic flourish, this allusion references the beginning of Virgil's poetic corpus in *Eclogues* 1 in an encomium, which looks to the beginning of Virgil's *Georgics*, in an epic poem that succeeds and contests Virgil's supreme achievement, the *Aeneid*.

[34] *Adnotationes, ad loc.*

[35] In defense of the scholiast's reading are S. Hinds (1988) "Generalising about Ovid," in *The Imperial Muse: To Juvenal through Ovid*, Bendigo, Australia, 4-31. Against are C. Martindale (1984) "The Politician Lucan," *Greece and Rome* 31, 64-77, M. Dewar (1994) "Laying it on with a Trowel: The Proem to Lucan and Related Texts," *CQ* 44, 199-211, and N. Holmes (1998) "Nero and Caesar: Lucan 1.33-66," *CP* 94.1, 75-81.

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manuscript tradition, some of which is of antique date.[36] Because they are collections of readings gleaned from different sources, they do not possess any sort of internal consistency, which might give scholars confidence in their overall merit. As Shirley Werner puts it, "So prolific were the marginalia that we can no longer distinguish the character of the scholarly commentary which must ultimately have lain behind them..."[37] We are left to assess each reading on its own merits.

Nero's gaze depends *prima facie* on where he is in the cosmos. If, as Lucan requests, the emperor positions himself directly over Rome, all will be well. He will neither look upon Rome obliquely, nor will his weight threaten the stability of the cosmos. In each case, security and stability depend on the emperor's compliant disposition. Charles Saylor, looking to Horace *Odes* 1.2, sees the emphasis on Nero's attitude as a signal feature of Lucan's encomium. In Horace, the emperor's proper role is clear, represented in the figure of Mercury[38] and there is no question as to whether Augustus will take this role. Yet, in Lucan, all is contingent upon Nero's right attitude (1.56-59):

> aetheris inmensi partem si presseris unam,
> sentiet axis **onus**. librati **pondera** caeli

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[36] For Lucan's textual tradition, see especially the introduction to A. E. Housman (1927); H. Gotoff (1971) *The Transmission of the Text of Lucan in the Ninth Century*, Harvard; L. Hakanson (1979) "Problems of Textual Criticism and Interpretation in Lucan's *De Bello Civili*," *PCPS* 25, 26-51

[37] S. Warner (1994) "On the History of the *Commenta Bernensia* and *the Adnotationes super Lucanum*," *HSCP* 96, 342-368, 368

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orbe tene medio; pars aetheris illa sereni
tota vacet, nullaeque obstent a Caesare nubes.

if you should press one part of the vast ether,
the axis will feel the burden. hold in mid-orb the weight
of the balanced world; may that part of the serene ether
be entirely empty, and may no clouds block Caesar's view.
and each nation love the other. then peace, after it is sent through
the world, could shut the iron doors of war-waging Janus.

The main argument against the scholiast points to the convention of great weight as a feature of divinity. This convention is entirely consistent with panegyric and is taken as support for the optimistic reading of the emperor's relationship to the poet.[39] The debate on this issue has missed the real point. I have so far attempted to show that the oblique look is a convention freighted with programmatic literary value. Metaphors of weight and bulk for bad poetry are no less conventional in the tradition of Callimachean metapoetic criticism. The fact that Lucan causally connects Nero's oblique gaze with his weight lends support to an extension of Callimachean import to the emperor's divine weight.

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[38] C. Saylor (1998) "Lucan and Models of the Introduction," *Mnemosyne* 52, 545-53, 549.

[39] W. D. Lebek catalogues the examples of this convention, Lebek (1975) *Lucans Pharsalia: Dichtungsstruktur und Zeitbezug*, Gottingen, 93-95.

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As I have argued, Lucan's community of readers, including his emperor, was well read and sophisticated and would have been familiar with these conventions.[40] Further, this community would not have attended Lucan's poetry in the hopes of receiving a catalogue of conventions, they would have listened for what Lucan was going to do with them. Lucan showcases his *ingenium* through *variatio* on the Callimachean conventions of the muse's benign gaze, weight as index of an inferior aesthetic, and the panegyric convention of weight as an attribute of divinity. This collision of ostensibly incompatible conventions finds precedent in the examples of Ovid's 'fine-spun' continuous poem and Virgil's allusion to Euphrates as an icon of a new, positive, epic aesthetic.

Nero's literary qualifications and the widespread familiarity with both Callimachus and his Roman adapters among Neronian authors generally, makes it likely, in my view, that the emperor was, or was meant to be, in on the 'fitting' joke. The artistically inclined Nero might well see both a compliment and possibly humor as well in becoming a paradoxical muse. Furthermore – and this is important – Nero's weight need not refer to corpulence.[41] Lucan represents Nero's weight as a function of proto-divine power, which matches his imperial aspect. The relationship Charles Saylor discerns

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[40] Although a ban was put on the public recitation of Lucan's poetry after the publication of three books, his contemporary Petronius shows knowledge of book 10, indicating that the poem continued to be read. See especially Connors (1998) 134-46

[41] Though speculative, it is at least worth considering the possibility that the scholia records a rationalization, in physical terms, of a literary convention that was no longer recognizable as such at the time and place this particular reading was set down.

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between Nero's cosmic role and the simile (1.72-80)[42] of cosmic destruction sketches a political dimension, which cooperates with this metaliterary reading. If Nero controls his *onus* and maintains the balance of the heavens, the cosmic disaster detailed in the simile can be avoided.

The *nefas* of civil war is inimical to poetic representation and threatens to stop the poet at the start. The emperor's political weight facilitates vatic discourse, because it suppresses the violence of civil war and thereby makes it available to poetic representation. Were civil violence to flare up and consume society, there would be no outside vantage point from which to describe it. The incompatibility with vatic discourse and cosmic dissolution is manifest in Lucan's request that Nero restrain his weight so as to avert such a disaster.

Although this interpretation does not necessarily support to the scholiast's reading or depend on it, it need not exclude it either. Would the contemporary audience's imagination stop at the possibility that Nero might physically reify a literary metaphor, to which he already corresponds by virtue of his imperial post? In my view, Nero would have to have been awfully thin to escape the open-ended net of implications in Lucan's language. As I have already argued, the artistry and, perhaps, the humor would depend almost entirely on hearing all the conventions crash together. The impetus of Lucan's technique tends toward an assimilation of all the possibilities, leaving it up to the readers to edit out what proves uncomfortable to them.

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[42] Saylor (1998) "Lucan and Models of the Introduction," *Mnemosyne* 52, 545-53

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Let us revisit the envious chain of the fates in light of this interpretation of Nero's weight (1.70-72): ***invida*** *fatorum series summisque negatum / stare diu* ***nimioque graves sub pondere*** *lapsus / nec se Roma ferens* ('the envious chain of the fates and the decree against standing long upon the heights and heavy fall beneath too much weight and Rome unable to sustain itself'). Lucan pairs the *invidia* of the *series fatorum* with the excessive, insupportable weight of the Republic. This combination is exactly what Lucan asks Nero to prevent – to keep envy separate from his divine and political weight. The weight imagery of 1.70-72 is the opposite of what Lucan creates in the encomium, where he describes a future Golden Age (1.60f.). A significant political element of the encomium is the space it affords for petitioning the source of weight in the Roman world to exercise self-control. The encomium and its reference to Nero's weight are made to contrast with the weight imagery in 1.70-72 and 1.81-84, which is shown to be responsible for the Republic's destruction (1.81-84):

> in se **magna** ruunt: laetis hunc numina rebus
> crescendi posuere modum. nec gentibus ullis
> commodat in populum terrae pelagique potentem
> **invidiam** Fortuna suam.
>
> great things fall upon themselves: the gods put this limit
> upon the growth of prosperous affairs. nor did Fortune
> entrust to any foreign nations its envy against a people
> powerful on land and sea.

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Although not causally related, the audience would recognize as a significant pairing the juxtaposition of the fall of *magna* and fortune's deployment of envy. It would do so, because Lucan has already paired weight and envy twice (1.53-58, 1.70-72). The two additional pairings at 1.70-72 and 1.81-84 offer further confirmation that Nero's weight is not simply a panegyric convention. It functions inside a wider frame of metaphorical reference.

Johnson has observed that Lucan frequently clusters terms for weight and mass, establishing them as a privileged motif in the poem.[43] Masters suggests that Lucan's many references to weight and bulk later in the poem draw their symbolic power from Callimachean metaphors for bad poetry[44] Characterizing Lucan's insistence on the immensity of objects, actions, and events, Masters writes:[45]

> At the most basic level, this immensity is programmatic, if only because it is paradigmatic: there is an emphasis on massive constructions in the poem as a whole because that is the sort of poem it is – a massive, epic poem; one of the genre that declares itself alone to have room for heavy weights and huge sizes.

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[43] Johnson (1987) 77n7.

[44] Masters (1992) 24-42, on the imagery of weight and mass; on the connection with Callimachus, p. 55: "Lucan is a poet who above all composes by bulk; by which I mean (and without any pejorative undertones) that Lucan, who has made it his job to attack the Callimachean principle of *mega biblion mega kakon*, perversely and deliberately uses sheer bulk as one of his poetic devices ...." Also, p. 145.

[45] Ibid, 32.

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Virgil's reference to the Euphrates, which flows 'more softly' (*mollior*) under the gaze of Augustus standing in front of the temple to Apollo, suggests that the Callimachean river symbol is there invested with positive connotations. Lucan accepts the negative implications of size. Unlike Virgil, Lucan does not try to redefine negative Callimachean imagery. He appropriates it as is.

I shall now offer an interpretation of the relationship between weight and envy in the context of Nero's encomium. Frequently in the course of the poem, Lucan invests his narrative voice with a tone of helplessness and despair,[46] but for the first thirty-two lines this tone dominates entirely, leaving no room for the poet to explore causes or narrate continuous action. Lucan's unification with the muse-emperor enables him to press onward, beyond the horrified screed of 1.1-32, to a penetrating and multifaceted exploration of a theme that by its very nature challenges the possibility of artistic representation (since it is *nefas* 'unspeakable'[47]). Lucan highlights this unification, as Tucker explains, through an ambiguity in the case of *vates* at 1.63, which can be read as

[46] On Lucan's representations of 'vatic failure', see Feeney (1991) 276-83, 277-78: "The poem can barely be told, then, against the will of the reluctant singer, whose unspeakable subject cuts him off from the resources of the more fortunate celebrators of fated achievements. This poet is all too often helpless, as powerless to ward off the future as are the very institutions of the doomed Republic (1.592-604)."

[47] On the pun *nefas* /'unspeakable' and hence non-narratable, see Feeney (1991) 276.

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either nominative, 'if, as *vates* I accept you', describing Lucan, or vocative, 'if I accept you, *O Vates...*' addressing Nero.[48]

The word *satis* in 1.66 (*tu satis ad uires Romana in carmina dandas*) has been noted for its ironic potential. It is also striking for another reason. Consider the other quantitative words in the first hundred lines: (1.1) *bella* ***plus quam*** *... civilia*; (1.8) ***tanta*** *licentia*; (1.21) ***tantus*** *amor belli*; (1.30) ***tantis*** *cladibus*; (1.44) ***multum*** *Roma tamen debet*; (1.67) ***tantarum*** *...rerum*; (1.68) ***immensumque*** *...opus*; (1.71) ***nimioque*** *...pondere* (1.73) *saecula* ***tot***; (1.81) *in se* ***magna*** *ruunt*; (1.96) ***tanti...furoris***. My point is not that Lucan emphasizes extreme quantities at the outset of his epic,[49] but rather that Nero, in his capacity as muse, is the only quantity, marked explicitly as enough or sufficient. Yet, we are also told that Nero's weight is so extreme, it could destroy the cosmos. As a maximally heavy muse, Lucan's Nero is a two-fold paradox: first, as we have seen, he is marked with the metaphorical attribute of bad poetry, though he is embraced by the narrator as the inspirational deity of the poem; secondly, his overwhelming weight is just right, in contrast to all other expressions of quantity, which are excessive or merely gigantic.

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[48] Tucker (1983) 149; Also, Delores O'Higgins (1988) "Lucan as *Vates*" *CA* Vol. 7, No. 2: 209n2: "The ambiguity is almost certainly deliberate: as with Apollo and the Pythia, Erichtho and the corpse, so here, mouthpiece and source of inspiration form a single vatic mechanism."

[49] Such hyperbolic description is to be found in first hundred lines of the *Aeneid* and, argues Hardie (1993), is a conventional feature of epic. My point, therefore, is not that Lucan is significant because he begins his poem with reference to excessive quantities, but that he contrasts the sufficiency of Nero with the such quantitative extravagance.

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Length and Theophany

The remaining two features, length and divine intervention against negative moral and aesthetic forces function in the same literary capacity. In Callimachus' *Hymn to Apollo*, the god of the hymn appears at the end of the narrative to rebut Envy's comments on poetry. Envy whispers in the poet's ear that he does not like the poet 'who does not sing like the sea'. Alan Cameron argues that the character *Phthonos* objects here to brevity in poetic composition. The sea refers to a vast quantity of verse.[50] For *Phthonos*, longer is always better.

Callimachus introduces Apollo, with whom he has aligned himself, in order to expel criticism of his poetry and defeat the expectation that he will merely mimic Homer (*H.* 2.105-13):

ὁ Φθόνος Ἀπόλλωνος ἐπ' οὔατα λάθριος εἶπεν· (105)
'οὐκ ἄγαμαι τὸν ἀοιδὸν ὃς οὐδ' ὅσα πόντος ἀείδει.'
τὸν Φθόνον ὠπόλλων ποδί τ' ἤλασεν ὧδέ τ' ἔειπεν·
"Ασσυρίου ποταμοῖο μέγας ῥόος, ἀλλὰ τὰ πολλά
λύματα γῆς καὶ πολλὸν ἐφ' ὕδατι συρφετὸν ἕλκει. ‹ῥἔ
Δηοῖ δ' οὐκ ἀπὸ παντὸς ὕδωρ φορέουσι μέλισσαι, (110)
ἀλλ' ἥτις καθαρή τε καὶ ἀχράαντος ἀνέρπει
πίδακος ἐξ ἱερῆς ὀλίγη λιβὰς ἄκρον ἄωτον.'
χαῖρε, ἄναξ· ὁ δὲ Μῶμος, ἵν' ὁ Φθόνος, ἔνθα νέοιτο.

[50] Cameron (1995) 406. For the view that Envy represents Callimachus' literary opponents, see F. Williams (1978) *Hymn to Apollo*, Oxford, 86.

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Envy spoke stealthily in Apollo's ear:

'I don't like the poet who doesn't sing like the sea.'

Apollo kicked Envy with his foot and drove him away, saying:

'the Assyrian river has a mighty stream, but it drags

a lot of silt and garbage in its waters.

the bee-women bring water to Deo not from just any source,

but from the tiny stream of a holy spring, its pristine best.

farewell, Lord, and Blame, go live with Envy.

Elroy Bundy has shown that the ending of Callimachus' *Hymn to Apollo*, with its banishment of Envy, must be understood in its capacity as a successor to Homer's *Hymn to Apollo*.[51] Callimachus' Apollo banishes *Phthonos*, imposing closure on a poem in honor of himself. This creates a dissonance with the narrator's declaration that, when singing of Phoebus, the chorus will not sing merely for a day (*H.* 2.30). Homer's *Hymn to Apollo* is the second longest in the corpus (546 vv.) – a fact which creates the false expectation that Callimachus' will also be long.

Lucan uses allusion to Apollo's opposition to *Phthonos*' size aesthetic in Callimachus' hymn in order to distinguish Nero's inspirational power from the Apollo of Callimachus. The appropriateness of Nero to Roman song (1.66) depends in part on Nero's political 'weight'. It is this weight which can prevent, or fail to prevent, the subject of the poem from becoming a reality once again. Nero's encomium has a

[51] E. Bundy (1972) "The 'Quarrel' between Kallimachos and Apollonius, Part I: The Epilogue of Kallimachos's *Hymn to Apollo*," CSCA 5, 39-94.

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function akin to the appearance of Apollo at the end of the hymn because it empowers the poet against the forces threatening to undermine him. For Callimachus, it is the Telchines, but in Lucan it is the inherently refractory character of the subject he has chosen.

Lucan returns to the Callimachean scenario at the end of book 1, with unmistakable reference to the encomium. As Denis Feeney has observed, Apollo and Bacchus, whom the narrator has proposed to replace with Nero (1.63-65), actually do enter the poem together as the deities associated with the Roman matron's prophetic *furor* at the end of book 1.[52] This striking reversal prompts a return to the concerns put forward in the encomium. Lucan closes book 1 with a sequence of three prophecies from three different vatic figures. The first prophecy is from Arruns, the Etruscan haruspex, recruited by the Senate to divine the cause of so many ill omens. The second is from Nigidius Figulus, an astrologer, and the third is from a Roman matron possessed by Apollo.

Book 1 ends with a sequence of three prophecies. The first introduces the issue of envy, which the second speaker develops along both metaliterary and historical lines. Arruns, an Etruscan haruspex summoned by the senate to find the cause of so many ominous portents, finds the innards of the sacrificial victim in a state of decay. As he peers into the bull's liver, we are told that its color frightens him (1.618): *terruit ipse color vatem.* The specific *color* provides the occasion for an important double entendre (1.620): *plurimus asperso variabat sanguine* ***livor*** ('mostly dark [*livor*], scattered blood

[52] Feeney (1991) 275.

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blotches vary its hue'). Arruns spies out further deformities, symbolizing civil conflict (1.623): *parvusque secat vitalia limes* ('and a narrow boundary divides the vital organs'); (1.627-29): *ecce, videt capiti fibrarum increscere molem / alterius capitis. pars aegra et marcida pendet,/ pars micat et celeri venas movet inproba pulsu* ('look! on the head of the lobe, he sees the nodule of a second head sprouting. one part hangs flabby and diseased, the other quivers and boldly pumps the veins with a quick beat')

For Romans, color was also the outward indication of an inner state, such as anger, fear or madness.[53] The liver that Arruns inspects is inscribed with the characteristics of Caesar and Pompey – one of the two heads is quick and vibrant (Caesar), one weak and sickly (Pompey).[54] In this context, *livor* ('color') also carries the sense of 'envy'.[55] In this way, the primary impulse contributing to the civil war is conflated with the malformed organ, which symbolizes the war.

Arruns' examination of the animal's liver introduces envy into the closing sequence of prophecies. Building on Arruns' obliquely revealed discovery of envy, the other two prophecies, taken together, recreate the Callimachen scenario in which Apollo banishes Envy (*H.* 2.105-13). This is the conclusion of Nigidius' speech (1.668-672):

multosque exihibit in annos
hic furor. et superos quid prodest poscere finem?
cum domino pax ista venit. duc, Roma, malorum

---

[53] *OLD color*, 3c, 3d.

[54] On the associations of speed with Caesar and slowness with Pompey, see Schönberger (1960) 87.

[55] *OLD livor*, 2. *Livor* is Curio's term for the envy of Caesar's enemies (1.288).

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continuam seriem clademque in tempora multa
extrahe, civili tantum iam libera bello.

this madness will continue for many years. what does it profit to pray to the gods for an end? such a peace comes with a master. drag out, O Rome, the continuous chain of evils and prolong the disaster for many ages, only in civil war will you be free.

Nigidius exhorts Rome to protract the *malorum continuam seriem*. Immediately thereafter, Apollo possesses the matron-*vates* and compresses the events of civil war into a prophetic narrative, which she delivers and which is coterminous with the poem's first book.

The role Nigidius assumes is adapted from the figure of *Phthonos* in Callimachus' hymn. The relationship between *Phthonos* and Nigidius reaches beyond linguistic and situational parallels. Civil war is the expression of the *invida fatorum series*, the *invidia* of *Fortuna* (1.84) and the envy with which Caesar and Pompey regard each other (1.120-26). When Nigidius wishes to protract civil war, although his intention is to preserve liberty, he is also asking for the indefinite extension of envious, internecine violence.

The language with which Lucan develops his allusions to Callimachus is adapted from the proem of Ovid's *Metamorphoses*(*Met.* 1.1-4):

in nova **fert animus** mutatas dicere formas
corpora: di, coeptis (nam vos mutastis et illa)

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adspirate meis primaque ab origine mundi
ad **mea perpetuum deducite tempora carmen.**

my mind moves me to sing of forms changed into new
bodies: gods, inspire my beginnings (for you have changed them
as well) and spin finely an unceasing song from the first
origin of the world to my own times.

Lucan adapts *Met.* 1.4 (1.670-71): ***duc, Roma, malorum / continuam*** *seriem clademque* ***in tempora multa / extrahe*** ('lead on, O Rome, the continuous chain of evils and the draw out the disaster through many ages'). Lucan's choice of the imperative *duc* recalls *deducite* ('spin finely') and calls attention to his unraveling of Ovid's distinction between 'fine-spun' and continuous song. The echo of Ovid refers, not to sophisticated poetics, but only to protraction, reinforced by *extrahe*.

On the issue of time, Ovid's *ad mea tempora* becomes Lucan's *in tempora multa.* Ovid offers a telos for his time scheme (1.4, "to my own times"), but Nigidius pointedly does not. Lastly, Lucan changes Ovid's *perpetuum carmen* into a *continuam seriem.* Lucan's poem is a song of civil war and the endlessness of its subject may mean the endless of the poem. Since Nigidius speaks of civil war itself, the word *series* refers to history; i.e. civil war, the subject of the poem. This allusion to Ovid adds to the passage the sense that Lucan's historical *series* is also a *carmen.*

This passage also points to the same sort of tension between history and narrative in the phrase *invida fatorum series* (1.70). Line 1.70 is a particularly important intratext,

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because it comes four lines after Lucan concludes his acceptance of Nero as his inspirational deity in place of Apollo. Nigidius' *continuam seriem*, through its assertion of protraction, demonstrates an aesthetic agreeable to Callimachus' *Phthonos*. Through its connection to Apollo and its reference to *series*, it recalls the narrator's envious *series fatorum*.

At this point, let us recall Lucan's well-known allusion[56] to *Met.* 1.1, at 1.67. It is the first line following the encomium of Nero and begins the passage connecting the encomium to the cosmological simile (1.67-70):

> **fert animus** causas tantarum expromere rerum,
> inmensumque aperitur opus, quid in arma furentem
> inpulerit populum, quid pacem excusserit orbi.
> **invida fatorum series** ...

> my mind moves me to set forth the causes such great matters,
> and the immense task opens, what drove a maddened people
> into arms, what knocked peace out of the world.
> the envious chain of the fates...

Ovid's proem supplies both apertural and closural coordinates for the first book of the *BC*. Further, both Ovidian references are associated with *invidia*. Where the apertural signal emphasizes envy through its combination of a direct quotation from Ovid with the mention of the *invida series*, the closural pattern is rather more complex. The

[56] Getty (1940) *ad loc.*

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actual invocation of envy is conducted through situational allusion, recognizable by the narrative pattern it repeats and enhanced by the linguistic signals just discussed.

Nigidius takes the role of the Callimachean *Phthonos*', but with a different priority. Speaking historically rather than aesthetically, Nigidius considers civil war in all its horror to be refuge from national servitude to the victorious dynast. Yet, in speaking of civil war, Nigidius is also speaking about the poem. The next prophecy, delivered by a matron, who is possessed by Apollo, demonstrates that Caesar's victory is not a terminal point for the narrative of Roman civil war. The matron's speech covers future events as far as Philippi, before breaking off.

Nigidius' prayer and the matron's prophecy participate in the same metaliterary discourse. The former contains a repetition of the poem's keyword *furor* and the latter has two further repetitions. The matron repeats (1.681) the words that begin the the poem's narrative proper (1.8) and, finally, the matron's prophetic madness is also termed *furor* at 1.695, the book's last line:

1.8: **quis furor**, o cives, quae tanta licentia ferri? [narrator]

what madness is this, O citizens, what terrible libertinism of the sword?

1.668-69: multosque exibit in annos / **hic furor**. [Nigidius]

and this madness will persist for many years.

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1.681: **quis furor hic**, o Phoebe, doce... [matron]

what madness is this, O Phoebus, tell...

1.695: haec ait, et lasso iacuit deserta **furore**. [matron]

she said these things, and lay abandoned by the exhausted madness.

Masters comments on these repetitions of *furor*: "...this turmoil, these storms of fury are not only what Lucan's poem is about; they are what the poem *is*."[57] The matron's quotation of Lucan's programmatic *quis furor* reverses one of the poem's most striking aspects. Where Lucan addresses not a muse, but the *cives*,[58] the matron appeals directly to Phoebus.

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[57] Masters (1992) 143. The italics are Masters'.

[58] I quote at length Feeney's reading of 1.8, (1991) 275: "Here the outward energy of epic is redirected back inwards, to the citizens who are the subject (and the audience) of the poem. What answer can the question expect if it is addressed to those who are responsible for its being asked? The closing scene of the book offers a counterpoint, to remind us of what the poet's tradition dictated he should do (1.674-7). There we meet a divinely –inspired poet-figure, a matron who is possessed by Apollo and compared to someone possessed by Bacchus—the very deities, in other words, whom Lucan had forsworn at the beginning of the

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A comparison between the end of book 1 and the encomium of Nero offers a perspective on the role of Nero as a closural figure. Nero, I have suggested, enables the poet to move his narrative beyond horrified reaction to an exploration of causes and depiction of episodes. Apollo, on the other hand, fails to initiate a discourse, which is constructive for the poem or to impose closure on the subject of the poem. In contrast to Callimachus' Apollo, Lucan's Apolline intervention consists of a prophecy indicating that Nigidius' prayer might be granted, since the matron's vision shows that civil war emerges once more after Caesar's death (1.690-94). Here we see the significance of the narrator's acceptance of Nero *instead of* Apollo.[59] Nero's role in the poem offers a different set of closural possibilities – the possibility, not only for closure in history, but for the transition to a new era of peace, and for the facilitation of a new discourse in the teeth of violently conflicting political sentiments and historical forces – if Nero restrains his power and his envy.

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book. The matron speaks in language that recalls Lucan's own, yet she addresses, as is 'proper', the god..."

[59] (1.63-65) nec, si te pectore vates
accipio, Cirrhaea velim secreta moventem
sollicitare deum Bacchumque avertere Nysa

nor, if as poet
I accept you, would I disturb the god who governs
the Delphic mysteries and turn Bacchus from Nysa

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Phoebus Apollo and Closure in Book 5

The issues of closure and aperture are dramatized once again in the account of Delphic Apollo's possession of the Pythia in book 5. The Caesarian lieutenant Appius Claudius, concerned solely for his own welfare, goes to Delphi and forces the Pythia to prophesy. He wants to know what will happen to him in the war. Phemonoe, the Pythia, must struggle to find the details of Appius's life amidst many other, greater fates.[60] The account of her prophecy stresses the language of quantity (5.177-82):

> venit aetas omnis in unam
> congeriem, miserumque premunt tot saecula pectus,
> tanta patet rerum series, atque omne futurum
> nititur in lucem, vocemque petentia fata
> luctantur; non prima dies, non ultima mundi,
> non modus Oceani, numerus non derat harenae.

> every age comes into
> a single heap, and so many ages press upon her wretched breast,
> such a long chain of events is opened up, and the entire future
> struggles into the light, and fates seeking a voice battle one another;
> not the first day of the world, not the last day, not the
> measure of Ocean, nor the number of the grains of sand was lacking.

[60] (5.185): *ex tanta fatorum strage* ('from such a great heap of fates').

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Masters points to the 'motif of the heap' in this passage, which is also representative of the poem's aesthetic overall:[61]

> Piles, heaps, masses, of dead bodies, wood and earth; ramparts, funeral pyres, gigantic ships; these proliferate in the *Bellum Civile* as in no other epic, marking the poem, as we have seen, as an epic of bigness, tumidity, anti-Callimachean fatness.

Masters' mention of Callimachus is not idle. Apollo's intervention to cut off this prophecy, which is defined by the 'heap' aesthetic, is very much in tune with the Apollonian intervention in Callimachus' *Hymn to Apollo*. Apollo ends Phemonoe's prophecy (5.197): *cetera suppressit faucesque obstruxit Apollo* ('Apollo suppressed the rest and stopped up her mouth'); and intervenes again to remove all trace of divine knowledge (5.221-22): *inmisit Stygiam Paean in viscera Lethen, / quae raperet secreta deum* ('Apollo-Paean poured Stygian Lethe into her guts, which stole away the secrets of the gods').

The narrator asks why Apollo reveals so little about the future (5.198-203) and proposes two possibilities. He theorizes that it might mean the gods are not yet decided on the outcome of the war (5.103-5) or that it is meant to ensure that no leak of information foils Brutus' act of tyrannicide (5.206-8). Each is a speculation and the narrator does not try to authorize either one. What we are left with is an act of censure and no immediate context through which to understand it. Delores O'Higgins offers this explanation for Apollo's intervention. Lucan's first hypothesis, that the gods were

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[61] Masters (1992) 145.

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undecided, O'Higgins understands to refer to the unwillingness of the gods to speak of a world tainted by the *summum nefas* of civil war. O'Higgins takes Lucan's second interpretation of Apollo's behavior to mean that the god is sympathetic to the Republican cause.[62] O'Higgins further argues that the "strained relationship between Apollo and the Pythia may reflect a war between opposing impulses within Lucan's own soul: to sing, or to be safely silent or at least discreet."[63] O'Higgins here broadly anticipates Masters' argument for a schizophrenic poetic voice, divided between the poet's resistance to his subject and commitment to finishing the tale.[64] Resistance, O'Higgins suggests, appears in the poem as silence. Masters adds delay as another important sign of the poet's hostility to his theme.[65]

Apollo's closural intervention may indeed be designed to convey the poet's troubled relationship to his subject. Further examination of the issue suggests that it may indicate more than attitude. In addition to the narrator's proposed reasons for Apollo's intervention, there is an important situational parallel between the god's censure of a tumid vatic narrative, which Appius forces from an unwilling Phemonoe, and Callimachean Apollo's censure of *Phthonos* in the *Hymn to Apollo*. Whether divine indecision or divine complicity with the Liberators, either is a fairly reasonable

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[62] O'Higgins (1988) "Lucan as *Vates*," *CA* 7.2, 208-26, 214-15. O'Higgins even speculates that the mention of Brutus' tyrannicide conceals a reference to the plot on Nero's life.

[63] Ibid., 214.

[64] Masters (1992) 1-10.

[65] Ibid.

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suggestion as to Apollo's refusal to disclose more information. Yet the fact remains that the narrative itself evokes parallels to Callimachean aesthetics.

In addition to the narrator's two explicit suggestions, there is a third implicit possibility. Apollo's reason for intervening is aesthetic. The paradox in which the god of poetic inspiration is mired is that the aesthetic of a poem on civil war, which I have argued is also implicated in *livor* and *invidia*, has no alternatives to offer. There is no pure stream of civil war poetry. This characterization confines the god's duties largely to the realm of censorship. Nero, on the other hand, can facilitate speech, even about a *nefas* theme. In Callimachus' *Aetia* and *Hymns*, in Virgil's sixth *Eclogue*, Apollo is able to offer an aesthetic counterproposal to accompany his negative criticism, but not in Lucan. Nero's implicit counterproposal is *Romana carmina* (1.66).

A critical point in common between the matron's vision and Phemonoe's prophetic frenzy is the confrontation with undifferentiation. Each episode, however, has a different type of undifferentiation. For Phemonoe, as we saw, it is the collision of all eras into a single *congeries* – Masters' heap aesthetic. For the matron, it is the paradox of 'a war without an enemy' (1.682). This last is also an apt summation of the first 32 lines of the poem, which depict the undifferentiation of civil war. What I call here by Girard's term 'undifferentiation' has been long understood by scholars simply as Lucan's poetics of paradox.[66] Putting paradox into the context of Girardean criticism offers a basis for

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[66] On paradox as Lucan's narrative *modus operandi*: A. Thierfelder (1934-35) "Der Dichter Lucan," in *Archiv für Kulturgeschichte* 25, 7ff.; E. Lefevre (1970) "Die Bedeutung des Paradoxen in den romischen Literatur der fruhen Kaiserzeit," in *Poetica* 3, 59ff.; G. B. Conte (1974 & 1985) *Memoria dei Poeti e*

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understanding the role of envy in the poem. In Girard's conception, undifferentiation is the result of mimetic rivalry, which is a functional equivalent of envy. By attempting to outdo one's rivals, according to a set of culturally prescribed methods, rivals come to resemble each other to the point that distinction is effaced and the symbolic order disabled. When this happens, narrative becomes difficult or impossible to achieve. Consider the proem (1.1-7):

> bella per Emathios plus quam civilia campos,
> iusque datum sceleri canimus, populumque potentem
> in sua victrici conversum viscera dextra
> cognatasque acies, et rupto foedere regni
> certatum totis concussi viribus orbis
> in commune nefas, infestisque obvia signis
> signa, pares aquilas et pila minantia pilis.
>
> wars more than civil spread over Emathian plains
> and law given to crime we sing, and a powerful people
> its sword-arm turned against its own innards
> and battle lines related by blood and, the treaty of tyranny broken,
> the contest with all the powers of the battered earth

Sistema Letterario, 77-108, esp. 82-86, Turin; S. Bartsch (1997) 48-72; 50n2, with additional bibliography. Cf. n22 below.

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forced into universal moral catastophe, and standards besieging
hostile standards, eagles in matched pairs and javelins threatening javelins.

Lucan accentuates the loss of distinction between the two sides and represents the conflict as the irrational choice of negative, inwardly directed violence over healthier, outward expressions of national violence, specifically vengeance on the Parthians for the death of Crassus (1.9-12).

Girard's discussion of undifferentiation offers a useful perspective on what Lucan does here. He points out that lack of differentiation is by nature nearly indescribable:[67]

> Being made up of differences, language finds it almost impossible to express undifferentiation directly. Whatever it may say on the subject, language invariably says at once too much and too little, even in such concise statements as 'Each thing meets / In mere oppugnancy' or 'sound and fury, / Signifying nothing'."

The paradoxical nature of this *bellum sine hoste* infects the language of the poem and harms its descriptive resources. Lucan explicitly eliminates any meaningful opposition upon which he might hang a narrative opening.

At the end of book 1, Apollo suddenly 'intervenes' following a prayer that civil war continue indefinately . In book 5, Apollo acts to end vatic speech, which would consist of more civil war narrative; i.e. the account of the war's outcome and Appius' fate. Although the narrator opines that Apollo acts as he does from anti-Caesarian motive, there is no actual indication that the god has a partisan affiliation.

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[67] R. Girard (1977) *Violence and the Sacred*, tr. Patrick Gregory, Baltimore, 64.

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Insofar as Pompey favors delay and, hence, the protraction of civil war, at least as a strategy, the preference for early closure cooperates with Caesar's tendency toward speed and immediate resolutions. Since both Pompey and Caesar are motivated by envy, Apollo's aesthetic is both superficial and contradictory. Apollo's impulse to bring a swift end to civil war discourse cooperates with Caesar's desire to bring civil war itself to a swift resolution. On the other hand, Caesar is particularly associated with the construction of massive, unwieldy objects, whose dimensions seem to call attention to their anti-Callimacheanism.

Lucan sets up a conflict between the aesthetic criteria of brevity and uncluttered narrative that his allusions to Callimachus evoke and the messy, envious, historical 'reality' that fills the poem. Apollo, as the traditional god of poetic inspiration, is seriously out of place in the *BC*. He cannot but be hostile to it. Lucan employs a generalized Callimacheanism to represent such an aesthetic, which is inadequate to the task of singing Roman song. We need not assume that Lucan has specific poets in mind, but rather that he is constructing a type of poetry, the distinguishing mark of which is that it is other than Lucan's own. Callimachus is useful, because Roman literary tradition has made him a staple source of conventions to be rejected. As in the case of Persius, we need not assume that this represents a rejection of Callimachus *per se*. In his backhanded way, Lucan makes him quite important to the poem. Apollo's aesthetic sensibilities shy away from the tale that Nero enables the poet to tell.

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Chapter 2: The Agents of Envy

Significant moments of indecision occur frequently in the *BC*. Such moments often carry an element of anti-Caesarian hope with them. Each moment of indecision is an occasion where civil war might stagnate. The moment never lasts. A rhetorically skilled speaker inevitably steps onto the scene and manipulates the situation back toward civil war. Curio's exhortation of Caesar to civil war and the speeches of Caesar and, particularly, Laelius form a paradigm for how envy is deployed rhetorically for the purpose of spreading civil war. As we shall see in the next chapter, Cato provides in book 9 a model of how to resist the rhetoric of *invidia*. In this chapter, I examine how *invidia* is used to engineer the malevolent persuasion of citizens to make war on their homeland.

In book 1, Lucan delays the action until 1.181, where the episode of Caesar at the Rubicon begins. The first one hundred and eighty lines of the poem are filled with accounts of the perversity of fate, the degradation of social values, and the psychologies of the leaders and the led. This overpowering, didactic emphasis on the range of causes behind the events of the poem forces audience attention on the powerful convergence of forces bent, blindly or with calculation, on civil war. Yet, for all this, the narrator continually dwells upon moments at which the war might have stopped, either altogether or even just in part, but does not. *Invidia* is a significant component in the elimination of alternative possibilities.

In book 1, Curio flees Rome to join Caesar and finds him still hesitant to wage civil war (1.272-73): *utque ducem uarias uoluentem pectore curas / conspexit* ('and when

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he saw the general turning various cares in his heart'). He immediately launches into a speech persuading Caesar of the justness of waging such a war, emphasizing the envy of Caesar's enemies (1.283-91):

> bellantem geminis tenuit te Gallia lustris,
> pars quota terrarum! facili si proelia pauca
> gesseris eventu, tibi Roma subegerit orbem.
> nunc neque te longi remeantem pompa triumphi
> excipit aut sacras poscunt Capitolia laurus:
> **livor edax** tibi cuncta negat, gentesque subactas
> uix inpune feres. socerum depellere regno
> decretum genero est: partiri non potes orbem,
> solus habere potes.'
>
> for ten years Gaul keeps you at war,
> what a tiny part of the world! if you wage a few battles
> with favorable outcome, Rome would have subjugated the world for you.
> the procession of a long triumph does not await your
> return now nor does the Capitol demand your sacred laurels:
> **biting envy** refuses you all things, and hardly will you endure
> without punishment the nations you've subjugated. It is your son-in-law's
> decree to dislodge you from mastery: you are not able to divide the world,
> you can only own it.

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As in Curio's speech, *invidia* or *livor* ('envy') need not be the explicit motive of the speaker. In fact, generally it is not. No proponent of public policy would claim to be motivated by *invidia* or would recommend it to his audience. Instead, Lucan's malevolent public speakers point to the *invidia* of others – enemies, gods, fate, fortune, etc. as a basis for action. So, even though his argument depends on arousing *invidia* in Caesar, Curio highlights the *livor* of Caesar's enemies and how it obstructs and threatens Caesar. The unarticulated logic of the argument is that to suffer *invidia* from others justifies harboring *invidia* against them in return.

For this reason, Curio stirs Caesar's resentment, citing the lack of appreciation with which Rome and his son-in-law Pompey have greeted his accomplishments. In this passage, the evil of his agenda aside, Curio is being nothing more than a competent orator. *Invidia*, Cicero tells us in the *De Oratore*, is both a powerful weapon and a dangerous obstacle for the orator (*De Or.* 2.209):

> … sed haud sciam an acerrimus longe sit omnium motus **invidiae** nec minus virium opus sit in ea comprimenda quam in excitanda. **invident** autem homines maxime paribus aut inferioribus, cum se relictos sentiunt, illos autem dolent evolasse; sed etiam superioribus **invidetur** saepe vehementer et eo magis, si intolerantius se iactant et aequabilitatem communis iuris praestantia dignitatis aut fortunae suae transeunt…

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> .... but I am of the opinion that **envy** is by far the fiercest emotion, requiring no less strength to suppress than to incite. moreover, people **envy** especially their equals or their inferiors when they perceive that they have been left behind, grieving particularly when others pass them by; but also they **envy** their superiors, often to an extreme degree, and even more if the latter conduct themselves inexcusably and go beyond what they are legitimately due on grounds of the eminence of their dignity or fortune ...

Cicero's formulation of envy's role in oratory agrees with Curio's use of it in his speech to Caesar. Curio argues, in effect, that Pompey and the senate, motivated by *livor edax*, have behaved intolerably toward Caesar. In itself, this might inspire Caesar's *invidia.*

As I have already argued, envy motivates Lucan's Caesar and Pompey alike. Lucan describes the relationship between Caesar and Pompey thus (1.125-26): *nec quemquam iam ferre potest Caesarve priorem / Pompeiusve parem.* ('now Caesar was not able to bear a superior nor Pompey an equal').[1] The *livor* Curio denounces in actuality parallels the *invidia* that has brought Caesar to this point. Curio's actual statement is accurate, but he omits the other half of the story and does so with a self-

[1] This phrase is to be found in Florus' *Epitome* of Livy (2.13); however, it is uncertain whether it originates in Livy or in Lucan. Other versions exist in which either Pompey or Caesar is the sole subject of the phrase. On the history of this epigrammatic thought, see A. W. Lintott (1971) "Lucan and the History of the Civil War," *CQ* 21, 480-505.

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serving agenda. Although framed as a denunciation of the effects of the *livor* of Caesar's enemies, Curio's speech has the psychological purpose of rousing Caesar's own *livor* to a fever pitch.

Caesar's *Civil War*, as we have it, begins after the Rubicon incident, so we do not possess his account of Curio's role; however, it seems safe to guess that Caesar did not credit his lieutenant with persuading him to invade Italy, when he himself was in doubt. In Caesar's account on the events of the civil war, Curio's role is substantially confined to the material Lucan treats in book 4, Curio's disastrous campaign against Juba. Lucan augments Curio's role by granting him this brief, but critical moment of authority over Caesar. In this moment, Caesar is reduced to the status of all the other Romans, whom Curio has manipulated with his self-serving, demagogic political rhetoric.

Subversive political persuasion is, in fact, Curio's particular skill, as he himself declares (1.273-76):

> 'dum voce tuae potuere iuvari,
> Caesar,' ait 'partes, quamvis nolente senatu,
> traximus imperium, tum cum mihi rostra tenere
> ius erat et **dubios in te transferre Quirites**.'

> 'while your factions were able to be helped
> by my voice, Caesar,' he said, 'although the senate was unwilling,
> then when it was my office to hold the rostra and to bring over
> to your side wavering citizens, I prolonged your command.'

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Curio is in the process of doing the very same to Caesar as he has done to the *dubios Quirites* whom he has recruited to Caesar's faction. At the very end of the Curio episode in book 4, after the account of his death in Libya, Lucan informs us that Curio himself had been turned by Caesar. In saving this detail for last, Lucan closes a circle with Curio's speech to Caesar in book 1. Caesar swayed Curio to serve his own ambitions and, when the time comes, Curio sways Caesar to serve his (4.817-20):

> ambitus et luxus et opum metuenda facultas
> transverso **mentem dubiam** torrente tulerunt;
> momentumque fuit **mutatus Curio** rerum
> Gallorum captus spoliis et Caesaris auro.
>
> ambition and luxury and fearful power of wealth
> dragged off his doubting mind in its cross-wise torrent;
> and the turning of Curio, captured by the spoils of Gaul
> and Caesar's gold, changed the balance of history

Lucan uses this parallelism between the dynast and his lieutenant to emphasize the reciprocity of desire and persuasion between Caesar and Curio and, in so doing, to diminish the uniqueness of Caesar. Curio's appearance in book 1 reveals that Lucan's Caesar, despite his seemingly superhuman power, is not immune to the designs of others.

When Curio faces death in book 4, he is described as the 'author' of civil war (4.738-39): *...bellumque trahebat / **auctorem** civile suum* ('and civil war was dragging off its author'). He is its author in the sense that he inspires Caesar to invade Italy, as we

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have seen. Since *auctor* can mean both 'origin' and 'author', however, we have reason to consider that Curio, in his speech to Caesar, is a significant narrator of the discourse of civil war. Curio's act of envious rhetorical persuasion, is a primary narrative moment, without which Caesar might not have finally pursued the war. Such, at least, is what the narrator implies.

Curio's role is rather like that of a visiting deity, Athena to Telemachus in *Odyssey* I, Athena to Achilles in *Iliad* I, or Venus to Aeneas in *Aeneid* I. Cato, I shall argue in chapter 3, also acts a part that might have gone to a god in another poem. Where Curio intervenes to introduce envy into the action of the narrative and to initiate civil war in earnest by persuading Caesar to complete his invasion of Italy, Cato intervenes to stop the encroachment of envy into the operation of the remaining Republican forces. It is interesting to note that, had Curio wished, he could have intervened toward the same end as Cato and done so to much greater effect. At the moment of Caesar's doubt in book 1, in Lucan's telling at least, an orator as clever as Curio could have dissuaded Caesar from civil war. Instead, Curio rouses Caesar's *invidia* against those who have obstructed him unjustly, out of their own *livor*.

Laelius

Although Curio is able to inspire Caesar to carry on with civil war, he neglects to endow him with the ability to persuade others to do the same. Caesar's speech is not at all successful (1.352-53): *dixerat; at dubium non claro murmure volgus / secum incerta fremit* ('he finished speaking; but amongst themselves the doubtful crowd muttered their uncertainty with indistinct murmuring'). Yet another moment of indecision – ended by

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the intervention of yet another talented orator. This time it is Laelius, Caesar's centurion. Laelius succeeds in rousing the legions after Caesar's own rhetoric falls short (1.299-51). The Caesarian army's shiftless reception of their commander's rhetoric parallels how Pompey's army receives their general's poor attempt to ready them for battle in book 2 (2.596-97): *verba ducis nullo partes clamore secuntur / nec matura petunt promissae classica pugnae* ('his faction met their leader's words with no acclaim / nor do they demand the speedy trumpet-signal of the promised battle.'). For all the differences of characterization between the dynamic Caesar and the chronically weary Pompey, the fact remains that, in Lucan's telling, had Caesar been confined to his own abilities, he *might* have been no more successful than Pompey.

Something about Caesar's character attracts the assistance of others, just as something about the character of Pompey discourages it. One important reason is that Caesar's own envious desire naturally attracts the destructive ambitions of others. Pompey fights for the status quo, over which he holds claim, monopolizing all the highest honors and acting as a ceiling to the ascent of others. Anyone who wants more than the status quo can afford shares in some measure in Caesar's ambitions. The necessity of communicating envious desire to his own soldiers is the first serious hurdle Caesar must overcome.

Let us first consider Caesar's speech (1.299-359). Caesar begins by trying to rouse the *invidia* of his soldiers against the predicament in which his enemies have put them (1.299-302):

'bellorum o socii, qui mille pericula Martis

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mecum' ait 'experti decimo iam uincitis anno,
hoc cruor Arctois meruit diffusus in aruis
uolneraque et mortes hiemesque sub Alpibus actae?

'o allies of my campaigns, who have with me undergone a thousand perils of war,' he said, 'you have been victorious for a decade already, is this what blood spread on the northern fields and wounds and deaths and winters spent beneath the Alps have earned?'

Caesar introduces the possibility that his enemies will deny them compensation for their service, abandoning them to an impoverished old age (1.340-46):

mihi si merces erepta laborum est,
his saltem longi non cum duce praemia belli
reddantur; miles sub quolibet iste triumphet.
conferet exanguis quo se post bella senectus?
quae sedes erit emeritis? quae rura dabuntur
quae noster ueteranus aret, quae moenia fessis?
an melius fient piratae, Magne, coloni?

if the compensation for my labors is snatched away, at least let the reward for long war service be given to these men without their general; may that soldier triumph under whichever commander. where would the feeble old man take him self when his wars are over?

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what resting place will those worthy of it have? what fields will be given
what will our veterans plow, what walls for the weary?
or will your pirates, Magnus, make better colonists?

These are certainly words calculated to appeal to the self-interest of his troops. To such concerns Caesar attaches Pompey's offences to Rome, the indignity Pompey foists upon him, and the hypocrisy with which he does so. Caesar charges Pompey with the usurpation of all state offices and honors, and connects the war to Pompey's drive to maintain this monopoly (1.309-40). He concludes with an attempt to dispel any qualms about civil war (1.349-51): *nec numina derunt; / nam neque praeda meis neque regnum quaeritur armis: / detrahimus dominos urbi seruire paratae* ('nor will the gods be lacking; for neither plunder nor kingship is sought by arms: we pull down the masters of a city which is ready to be a slave'). Caesar's speech develops Curio's theme, expanding it in detail, but staying true to the basic premise.

Ahl notes that Caesar's argument is quite practical.[2] Yet, Caesar's appeals to his soldiers' enlightened self-interest and the expression of his indignation at Pompey's slights to their general do not carry weight with his legions. The general is confronted with a diffident response. In answer to this emergency, a fictional chief centurion named Laelius comes to Caesar's rescue.

Laelius' speech is ostensibly addressed to Caesar, but the real addressee is the army, which Caesar has failed to persuade. The speech to Caesar is really a second attempt to persuade the army to do what Caesar has just asked of them. This is a second

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[2] Ahl (1976) 204.

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attempt to persuade them and it is entirely successful. Laelius frames his response to Caesar in terms of a rhetorical rebuke for Caesar's hesitancy in waiting till now to lead them into civil war.

Laelius artfully accuses Caesar of violating trust and, in so doing, calls down *invidia* of the nemesis script upon him (1.362): *deratne tibi fiducia nostri* ('did you lack faith in us?'). The expression of the army's nemesis *invidia* takes the form of an intense outburst of the sort of fidelity, which Laelius alleges that Caesar has doubted. Thus, *invidia*, even though the word is not used, is critical to the mechanics of the scene. Importantly, the deployment of *invidia* is entirely controlled. Their blame of Caesar is instantly translated into compounded loyalty to him.

Laelius declares the extent of his loyalty before the assembled army (1.374-78):

per signa decem felicia castris
perque tuos iuro quocumque ex hoste triumphos:
pectore si fratris gladium iuguloque parentis
condere me iubeas plenaeque in viscera partu
coniugis, invita peragam tamen omnia dextra

I swear by your standards, lucky in ten
campaigns, and by your triumphs over whatever enemy:
if you should order me to bury a sword in my brother's breast
or my father's throat or the body of my pregnant wife,
I will do it all even so, although my arm be unwilling.

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The legions are instantly favorable to Laelius' speech (1.386-91). Laelius does what Caesar cannot. He establishes a channel between Caesar's *invidia* of Pompey and the self-interest of Caesar's troops, so that the legions see the latter as dependent upon their prosecution of the former.

The Lucanian Orator, *Invidia*, and the Cosmos

The achievement of Curio, as *auctor* of the civil war, is to connect the *invida fatorum series* (1.70) to the action of the narrative. The achievement of Laelius is to export Caesar's *invidia* of Pompey to Caesar's army. In both cases, minor characters create the foundations of Caesar's victory over the Republic. To understand why such importance should devolve upon minor characters, we should consider Debra Hershkowitz' suggestion that the role of Lucan's programmatic simile of cosmic dissolution, which describes the destruction brought about by the *invida fatorum series*, is to reverse the terms of the *Aeneid*'s 'statesman' simile.

The basis for the connection between this simile and the poem's subversive rhetoric is its allusiveness to the programmatic simile of Virgil's *Aeneid*. Both similes are cosmological in import, Virgil's implicitly, Lucan's explicitly. Both are the first similes in their respective poems. Virgil's simile stresses the imposition of order, Lucan's the dissolution into chaos.[3] Here is Virgil's simile (*Aen.*, 1.148-53):

> ac veluti magno in populo cum saepe coorta est
> seditio saevitque animis ignobile vulgus
> iamque faces et saxa volant, furor arma ministrat;

[3] D. Hershkowitz (1998) *The Madness of Epic*, Oxford, 202.

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tum, pietate gravem ac meritis si forte virum quem
conspexere, silent arrectisque auribus astant;
ille regit dictis animos et pectora mulcet.

as when often among a great people a disturbance
has begun and the base throng rages
and the torches and rocks fly, fury provides the weapons;
then, if they chance to see some man serious in his piety
and his reputation, they become quiet and, their ears attentive, they pause;
he rules their minds with words and soothes their spirits.

Virgil connects chaos, represented by the storm winds, with civic unrest. The statesman, the image applied to Neptune, is able to calm the unrest with his words. The difference between Virgil and Lucan is primarily the absence of a 'statesman' of any sort. There is simply the chaos and no one to restore order (1.70-80):

invida fatorum series summisque negatum
stare diu nimioque graves sub pondere lapsus
nec se Roma ferens. sic, cum conpage soluta
saecula tot mundi suprema coegerit hora
antiquum repetens iterum chaos, [omnia mixtis
sidera sideribus concurrent,] ignea pontum
astra petent, tellus extendere litora nolet
excutietque fretum, fratri contraria Phoebe

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ibit et obliquum bigas agitare per orbem
indignata diem poscet sibi, totaque discors
machina divolsi turbabit foedera mundi.

it was the envious chain of destiny, the impossibility of the very high
standing long, the huge collapses under too much weight,
Rome's inability to bear herself. so, when the final hour
brings to an end the long ages of the universe, its structure dissolved,
reverting to primeval chaos, then fiery stars will plunge
into the sea, the earth will be unwilling to stretch flat her shores
and will shake the water off, Phoebe will confront
her brother and demand for herself the day, resentful of driving
her chariot along its slanting orbit, and the whole discordant mechanism
of the universe, as it is torn apart, will disrupt its own laws.

An important reason for the absence of a statesman figure in the *BC* is the fact that this passage follows the encomium, which showcases the only statesman worth talking about: Nero. The emperor, as I argued in the previous chapter, has already intervened through his presence in the encomium to restore order to the narrative. The narrator constructs Nero as the only one able to create universal peace and he has now focused on events a century earlier. On the poem's own terms, therefore, there is no possible agent of order within the narrative at this point. All hope for peace and stability lies in the late Julio-Claudian future.

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The importance of a figure such as Curio should not surprise, given the information Lucan provides in his transformation of Virgil's simile. Lucan's simile is designed to emphasize the impersonal destructiveness of the *invida fatorum series*, not the particular evil of a specific individual.[4] There is no single figure, no reverse of Neptune, who is responsible for all chaos. Julius Caesar is undeniably the arch-villain of the poem; nevertheless, he often finds assistance in the actions of minor characters on both sides, whose ambitions work to his advantage.

Lucan is careful to document the achievements of these minor characters, since his formulation of the cosmos as an envious chain of fates requires an interlinking of major and minor characters together. In Lucan's vision, all parties, not just one supervillain, make history what it is. The minor characters communicate the madness Caesar embodies to his soldiers and to the world in general. The means by which they do this is the rhetoric of *invidia*. Lucan exploits this primary distinction throughout the poem.[5]

The poetic value of Lucan's moments of indecision is to emphasize the fact that civil war was *not* inevitable. Lucan's uncertainty as to the dominance of fate or chance in the universe affords a wide spectrum of postures for the poem to adopt toward its theme (2.7-15):

sive parens rerum, cum primum informia regna

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[4] Ibid, 203n23. Hershkowitz points to three other examples of a single individual rousing a group to violence: the Ariminians (1.233-61), Pompey's eastern allies (7.526-7), the Egyptians (8.513-18).

[5] Ibid.

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materiamque rudem flamma cedente recepit,
fixit in aeternum causas, **qua cuncta coercet**
se quoque lege tenens, et saecula iussa ferentem
fatorum inmoto divisit limite mundum;
sive nihil positum est sed fors incerta vagatur
fertque refertque vices, et habet mortalia casus:
sit subitum, quodcumque paras; si caeca futuri
mens hominum fati; liceat sperare timenti.

whether the parent of all things, when crude matter filled
the formless realms for the first time, as the fires receded,
fixed for eternity the causes of things, whereby he guides all things
holding himself as well by the same law, and divided up a universe by
the immovable boundary of the fates which endures a prescribed number
of epochs; or nothing is fixed but uncertain chance wanders
doing this and that by turns, and happenstance governs mortal affairs:
let it be sudden, whatever you are preparing; if the mind of humankind
is blind to its unfolding doom; may the fearful be allowed to hope.

Through this uncertain, open-ended formulation of fate and chance, the narrator parallels in his cosmology the uncertainty he sees, or tries to create in the (already past) events of the poem. The narrator and reader are both possible points of reference for *timenti* ('the

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fearful person'), at 2.15. Hope is of course crushed each time, yet it continues to resurface and this is key to the fiction, which sustains the poem's forward progress.

This is not the last we hear of this speculation. Acoreus echoes the language of the description of divine providence in book 2 in his explanation of the divine cause of the Nile's unique flood pattern (10.262-67):

> ast ego, si tantam ius est mihi solvere litem,
> quasdam, Caesar, aquas post mundi sera peracti
> saecula concussis terrarum erumpere venis
> non id agente deo, quasdam conpage sub ipsa
> cum toto coepisse reor, quas ille creator
> atque opifex rerum **certo sub iure coercet.**
>
> but I, if it is right for me to resolve so momentous a dispute,
> believe that some rivers, Caesar, burst out of veins in the earth,
> when they suffer earthquakes, after the passage of the centuries
> although no god is guiding it, and that some rivers had their beginning
> at the same time as the entire fabric of creation with everything else,
> and these the creator and maker of the universe **keeps under a sure law.**

Line 10.267 may be compared with *qua cuncta coercet / se quoque lege tenens*, at 2.9-10. The same verb is used to describe the Nile's divinely imposed self-governing law, as is used to describe the deity's predetermination of the universe. The means of control is

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also similar, *lex* (2.10) and *ius* (10.267). This further indicates that the Nile, in the opinion of Acoreus, is iconic of a divine, predetermined cosmos.

I have argued that the Nile speech represents the assertion of a philosophical form of authority in the poem. The speech offers a possible vindication of the existence of divine providence. This, I believe, is the reason for the echo of 2.9-10 in Acoreus' speech. Yet, as I shall discuss further in the next chapter, there is no explicit statement to compel our faith in Acoreus' wisdom. The choice is left to the reader.

I would suggest at this point, however, that the narrator's tendency to seek out and dwell upon the alternative possibilities in past events serves a double purpose. It dismantles any air of historical inevitability to Caesar's achievement. The Divine Julius is a child of fortune, not destiny. Secondly, the inevitablity of specific historical events, which it removes, contrasts with the inevitability of certain instincts, for which Acoreus argues in his speech. In chapter 3, I will propose that the sun, against whose fires the Nile protects Egypt, serves as a metaphor for the desire to conquer. Further, the choice of the sun as a metaphor roots the desire in a controlled cosmic setting. It is a desire that surfaces, works its havoc, and is put to rest again.

Such speculations are beyond the narrator until Acoreus delivers them and, perhaps, even after as well. In the meantime, the narrator focuses on undoing any myths of an inevitable Caesarian victory. Toward this end, he brings to the fore the contingent nature of events and focuses on the civil violence that follows from the actions and ambitions of less grand personages.

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Pompey in Book 2

Pompey's speech to his army in book 2 recalls Caesar's speech in important ways. Pompey addresses his army in Italy to prepare them for the coming war with Caesar (2.531-95). His speech is not only unsuccessful, his troops greet it with an even worse reaction than Caesar receives from his men before the intervention of Laelius (2.596-600):

> verba ducis nullo partes clamore secuntur
> nec matura petunt promissae classica pugnae.
> sensit et ipse metum Magnus, placuitque referri
> signa nec in tantae discrimina mittere pugnae
> iam victum fama non visi Caesaris agmen.
>
> [Pompey's] faction followed their leader's words with no acclaim
> nor did the readied bugles seek the promised battles.
> [Pompey] himself noticed their fear, and he ordered the standards
> to be withdrawn and did not send into the scales of such a battle
> an army already conquered by the rumor of a Caesar as yet unseen.

Fantham notes that the real failings of Pompey's rhetoric here are to be found in its rambling delivery and its focus on military achievements more than a decade old, when it should instead have been an expression of confidence in his troops. Furthermore, the speech is characterized by an "almost obsessive apostrophe to the absent Caesar."[6] This

[6] Fantham (1992) 179.

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apostrophe, as Kirk Ormand observes, actually enhances Caesar by continually focusing the attention of his soldiers on him.[7] Leigh proposes that Pompey's apostrophe to Caesar, while he ostensibly addresses his own army, betrays the tension in his character between his roles as constitutional defender of the Republic and as epic hero, whose model is essentially the monarchical figure of Aeneas.[8] On this reading, Pompey primarily conceives of this war as an occasion for the expression of his heroic identity against a challenger.

Caesar's initial uncertainty and his inability to persuade his troops in book 1 provide an important context for Pompey's speech in book 2. The most important difference between the two situations, as Lucan presents them, is that Pompey has no Laelius. The absence of a Laelius figure on the occasion of Pompey's speech in book 2 means there is no mediator to rouse, shape, and direct the army's *invidia*. Like Caesar, Pompey must stir up his troops for battle and, like Caesar, he is found wanting. In Pompey's situation, unlike Caesar's, no one appears to do the job for him.

In book 1, Caesar wants his army to hate Pompey in the way that he does, as an obstruction to his interests and, by extension, to theirs as well. As Laelius perceives, there has to be a more basic emotional connection in place first, if the *invidia* of commander and army are to merge successfully. The army is willing to hate Pompey for entirely impractical reasons, as Laelius intuits. They will hate Pompey and everything other than Caesar in order to correct Caesar's estimation of their loyalty. Civil war

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[7] Ormand (1994) "Lucan's *Auctor Vix Fidelis*," *CA*, 38-55, 45.

[8] Leigh (1997) 148-49.

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becomes an opportunity to express *invidia* at anything, which obstructs or weakens their standing with Caesar.

In fact, Pompey does touch on *invidia* – his own – but its force is weak. Pompey reports a sense of *invidia* so solipsistic that no one else could possibly have a stake in it (2.551): ***invideo** nostrasque manus quod Roma furenti / opposuit* ('I am annoyed [*invideo*] that Rome has pitted my hands against this madman,). It is proper to accept Pompey's *invideo* as part of the poem's larger network of *invidia* because it is consistent with the representation of Pompey's envy more generally.

Pompey, Lucan tells us, cannot bear an equal.[9] His resentment here is at the fact that Caesar is dignified by contest with him, but the same contest is lowering him. Pompey frames his war against Caesar as *invidia* at an identity crisis that Caesar foists upon him. The crisis consists of a conflict between what he believes he is, an epic hero worthy of a greater enemy than Caesar, and the identity required by the war in which he is in fact engaged; i.e. the lesser status of constitutional defender of the Republic who is required to beat off whatever bandits, adventurers, and interlopers happen on the scene, provided they bring enough soldiers to cause a stir. The fact of being required to meet these unseemly foes inspires Pompey's *invidia*, but not that of his army. The notion of fighting a war that Pompey is too good for does not inspire his soldiers.

Therefore, although Pompey expresses *invidia*, its character and form of expression are so exclusively tied to Pompey's private concerns that it fails to stir his soldiers to civil violence. He omits his own army from consideration in a speech devoted

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[9] Cf. 1.125-26.

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to excluding Caesar from the right to enter contest with him. In this regard, his speech exhibits a psychology in agreement with Lucan's first simile of Pompey (1.137-43):

stat magni nominis umbra,
qualis frugifero quercus sublimis in agro
exuvias veteris populi sacrataque gestans
dona ducum nec iam validis radicibus haerens
pondere fixa suo est, nudosque per aera ramos
effundens trunco, non frondibus, efficit umbram,
et quamvis primo nutet casura sub Euro,
tot circum siluae firmo se robore tollant,
sola tamen colitur.

he stands the shadow of a great name,
like a lofty oak in a fruitful field
carrying the ancient trophies of the people and the sacred
gifts of the generals nor do its roots still cling with strength,
he is fixed by its own weight, and stretching bare branches
outward from its trunk through the air, leafless it makes no shade,
and it nods as if about to fall before the first east wind,
many trees rise up all around with firm strength,
but it alone is cultivated.

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In his speech, Pompey represents himself as the sole recipient of honor. As in the simile, he only prevails over communal desire, he does not inspire it. He is an obstruction to the desires of the younger and stronger (2.562-63): *quo potuit civem populus perducere liber, / ascendi, supraque nihil, nisi regna, reliqui* ('as far as a free people could advance a citizen, I have risen, and I have left nothing above me, but kingship').

Pompey's speech comes close to making sense of Caesar's *invidia* (2.595): *quod socero bellum praeter civile reliqui*? ('what war other than a civil one have I left for my father-in-law?'). As Leigh notes, Pompey reverses the synecdochic function of the epic hero. The hero is supposed to stand in for the people as the part does for the whole. In Pompey's version, the army is the whole and it stands in for him.[10] Laelius convinces the army to stand in for Caesar, but only by first making their self-worth contingent on that relationship. Pompey gives his army no reason to desire such an obviously disadvantageous circumstance.

Lucan's juxtaposition of Caesar's speech with Laelius' underscores the essential harmony and reciprocity of their desires, despite the differences in the strategy and perspective displayed their respective speeches. Although Caesar's speech does not accomplish its goal, its envious desire incites the centurion, who incites the army in turn. The principle implied by this arrangement is that one must possess desire before one is able to excite it in others. Pompey does not desire more than he has. He is content where he is, "fixed by his own weight (1.141)."

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[10] Leigh (1997) 155.

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The comparison between Caesar's situation in book 1 and Pompey's in book 2 is further illuminated by a comparison with Cicero's rhetorical defeat of Pompey's preferred strategy of delay. Cicero's oratorical victory precipitates the engagement at Pharsalus and the Republic's destruction. Ahl sums up the importance of Cicero's speech: [11]

> The strength of senatorial *libertas* in peacetime becomes its critical weakness in time of war. The confrontation with the senate, represented by Cicero, not the fight with Caesar, is the moment of Pompey's defeat.

Lucan offers a damning portrait of the orator and, by extension, the senate for which he speaks (7.65-68):

> pertulit iratus bellis, cum rostra forumque
> optaret, passus tam longa silentia miles.
> addidit invalidae robur facundia causae.
>
> he was enraged at warfare, because he longed for rostra
> and for the Forum, after enduring silence so long as a soldier.
> his eloquence gave strength to their feeble cause.

It is a devastating irony that Cicero's desire for the forum (7.62-63) follows the account of Pompey's dream of his theater. Lucan subtly reveals Cicero's performance before Pharsalus as a ploy to regain for himself *his* theater. The war, in which he serves under

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[11] Ahl (1976) 163.

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Pompey, is a drag on his ambition and, in this respect, he stands in a similar relation to Pompey as does Caesar or any other ambitious, resentful figure. Cicero is not alone in this, however; he speaks for many (7.51-57):

sua quisque ac publica fata
praecipitare cupit; segnis pavidusque vocatur
ac nimium patiens soceri Pompeius, et orbis
indulgens regno, qui tot simul undique gentes
iuris habere sui vellet pacemque timeret.
nec non et reges populique queruntur Eoi
bella trahi patriaque procul tellure teneri.

each one wants to hasten the public fate and his own;
Pompey is called sluggish and fearful and too lenient
to his father-in-law, and indulging in world domination, one who
wishes to rule so many nations from every region and fears peace.
the kings and peoples of the East also complain
that the wars are dragged out and they are kept far from their native lands.

Here again we see Pompey's inability to direct the *invidia* of his followers. Unable or unconcerned to redirect their envy, or possibly ignorant of it altogether, Pompey instead suffers their resentment. He seems to them as he does to Caesar, a barrier to their desires.

It is interesting that Lucan fictionally transports Cicero to Pompey's camp, especially for the purpose of hastening the Republican cause to destruction through his

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successful rebuttal of Pompey's strategy of delay. Cicero in book 7 plays essentially the same role as Laelius in book 1, rousing the army into civil violence. Unlike Laelius, however, Cicero does so against the wishes of his commander.

Since the war has been on for some time, a Curio figure is not necessary to explain to Pompey why a war should be fought, but rather why this battle has to be fought now. Curio addresses these concerns directly to Caesar. Laelius and Cicero, however, while they nominally address their commanders, are really speaking to the armies. In each case, their success is determined by the response of the troops.

The logic of Lucan's unhistorical use of Cicero in book 7 is tied to the Laelius paradigm in book 1. Lucan underscores the peril of the Republic's reliance on aristocratic competition as a basis for government, by showing how *invidia* can come to dominate its workings. Cicero's evocation of Laelius demonstrates how one may be loyal to Caesarian desire, even if one opposes Caesar.

There may also be a further historical reference contributing to the structural similarity of their roles. In 62 BCE, the year of his consulship, Cicero wrote a letter to Pompey. The occasion for the letter was his disappointment at Pompey's tepid response to Cicero's handling of the Catalinarian conspiracy. Cicero finishes the letter with a sentence of great interest to the reader of Lucan (*Epist. ad Fam.* V. 7. 26-32):

> sed scito ea, quae nos pro salute
> patriae gessimus, orbis terrae iudicio ac testimonio com-
> probari; quae, cum veneris, tanto consilio tantaque animi
> magnitudine a me gesta esse cognosces, ut tibi multo

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maiori, quam Africanus fuit, me non multo minorem quam **Laelium** facile et in re p. et in amicitia adiunctum esse patiare.

but I must tell you that what I have done for the safety of the country commands approval in the judgement and testimony of the whole world. when you return, you will find that I have acted with such wisdom and nobility of spirit that you will be well content to have me as your political ally and private friend – a not much lesser **Laelius** to a far greater Africanus.

Lucan grants the wish that the historical Cicero expresses in his letter to Pompey, but on the poet's own perverse terms. He has indeed made Cicero into a 'Laelius' for Pompey, but it is Lucan's Laelius not Cicero's.

The word *invidia* also does not occur in Cicero's speech in book 7, but it is dramatized in the motives and actions of Cicero. The implicit analogy to the centurion Laelius underscores the true perversity of the speech. Cicero's private agenda is focused on returning to the theater of his own power and he sways the Republic's policy and fate to serve that end. Whereas delay is the hallmark of Pompey's generalship, Cicero advocates haste. On these two counts, Cicero is acting in a Caesarian manner, even though he seeks Caesar's defeat. In this way, Lucan essentializes the struggle. Caesarian values serve Caesar, even, or perhaps especially, if a Pompeian holds them.

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Vulteius

In book 4, Lucan tells the story of a contingent of Caesarian soldiers, under the command of Vulteius, who attempt a night passage across the water on a hastily constructed raft. Pompey's navy has lain an underwater web of chains, in which they become tangled. Their situation is desperate. Dawn will bring an attack from the Pompeians, leaving them only the remaining hours of night to decide on a course of action. Seeing no other alternative to meeting their fate at the hands of the Pompeians at dawn, Vulteius exhorts his men to commit mass suicide and thus reclaim and transcend the glorious death in battle capricious fortune has denied them (4.496-504):

> nescio quod nostris magnum et memorabile fatis
> exemplum, Fortuna, paras. quaecumque per aevum
> exhibuit monimenta fides servataque ferro
> militiae pietas, transisset nostra iuventus.
> namque suis pro te gladiis incumbere, Caesar,
> esse parum scimus; sed non maiora supersunt
> obsessis, tanti quae pignora demus amoris.
> abscidit nostrae multum **fors invida** laudi,
> quod non cum senibus capti natisque tenemur.
>
> I do not know what great and memorable example
> you are preparing by our deaths, O Fortune. whatever monuments
> loyalty has displayed through the ages and whatever soldierly devotion

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the sword has preserved, our unit would have surpassed it all.
for we know, Caesar, that it is too little to fall on our swords
on your behalf; but, since we are besieged, there are no greater
tokens to give as examples of such love.
grudging chance has cut away much of our praise,
insofar as we are not held together with our elderly and children.

The formulation *invida fors* is, in effect, Vulteius' assertion of the belief that it is the nature of *invidia* to diminish distinction. Chance (*fors*) is envious, because it diminishes the value of their suicide by denying them the presence of their children and elderly. If they were present, then Vulteius' men could kill them too and leave an even greater monument to their determination.

Vulteius speaks of Fortune (4.597), which he thinks is planning some memorable example by their deaths, and chance, which he calls *invida* (4.503). This is not a rigorous philosophical distinction between the normally blurred concepts of fortune and chance. It is rather Vulteius' projection of his own perceptions onto the invisible forces that he believes are shaping his situation. He reconceives his unit's situation as caught between two poles, envious chance wishing to diminish their distinction and Fortune offering them the opportunity to reclaim it.

The reciprocity of *invidia* makes it useful to both sides of any conflict. The presence of *invidia* in an adversary or, as here, in an adverse principle, is grounds for responding with *invidia* of one's own. This is the psychological insight behind Curio's denunciation of the *livor* of Caesar's enemies in a speech geared to fire up Caesar's own

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invidia. This has been true of *invidia* and *livor* at every point in our discussion. The agents and powers of envious resentment seek to remove the distance between the object of their envious desire and themselves. Caesar wishes to remove the distinction between Pompey's reputation and his own. Pompey wishes to remove the distinction between his present situation as constitutional defender of the Republic against a usurper and his claims to epic heroic status. At the same time, all of these resentments of distinction are based on the desire to acquire the distinctive qualities of the person or thing envied. This is the paradox at the heart of mimetic desire, which Girard teases out. The collective result of multiple subjects seeking out meritorious distinction according to a common set of standards is to blur and eventually undermine entirely the standards according to which distinctive merit can be appraised .

In accordance with this pattern, envious chance, the projection of Vulteius' paranoid perception of the diminishment of his unit's distinction, is countered by Fortune, the opportunity for distinction. Accentuating the positive, Vulteius speculates that their suicide on a raft might be more illustrious than a traditional 'good death' on the battlefield (4.488-95):

> non tamen in caeca bellorum nube cadendum est,
> aut cum permixtas acies sua tela tenebris
> involvent. conferta iacent cum corpora campo,
> in medium mors omnis abit, perit obruta virtus:
> nos in conspicua sociis hostique carina
> constituere dei. praebebunt aequora testes,

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praebebunt terrae, summis dabit insula saxis,

spectabunt geminae diverso litore partes.

however, there is no need to fall in the dark cloud of battle,

or when spears roll their own mixed ranks

in shadow. when bodies lie crowded on the field,

every death vanishes into the pile, thwarted courage dies:

the gods have positioned us on a vessel open to view

by allies and enemies. the sea will give us witnesses,

the land will give us witnesses, the island, from its rocky summits...

both sides will watch us from opposite shores.

The paradox of undifferentiation that comes from the quest for distinction is played out for friend and foe alike in a desperate spectacle. Vulteius describes the stakes clearly (4.512-14):

magna virtute merendum est,

Caesar ut amissis inter tot milia paucis

hoc damnum clademque vocet.

since we are only a few lost among so many thousands,

it must be earned by great courage that Caesar should

call this a loss and a catastrophe.

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The soldiers wait till dawn and then kill each other in view of both sides (4.548-49): *totumque in partibus unis / bellorum fecere nefas* ('and they brought about the whole horror of war in a single faction').

Laelius adopts a posture of reciprocal desire toward Caesar and uses it to manipulate the army. Vulteius clarifies to his men that both he and they, at present, are cut off from Caesar's perception entirely and that, if they do nothing, they may remain so permanently. He therefore describes vividly how they may win for themselves Caesar's attention and defeat the *invidia* of chance. In this way, they can reify their Caesarian identities through suicide.

Vulteius explicitly proposes himself as a mimetic model, challenging them to rival his commitment (4.516-20):

> proieci vitam, comites, totusque futurae
> mortis agor stimulis: furor est. agnoscere solis
> permissum, quos iam tangit vicinia fati,
> victurosque dei celant, ut vivere durent,
> felix esse mori.
>
> I have put life behind me, comrades, and am entirely
> driven by the goads of coming death: it is fury. to them alone
> is it permitted to know, those whom the closeness of death already touches,
> but from the living the gods conceal this fact, that they may persist in living:
> it is a blessed thing to die

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Vulteius aligns himself with *furor*, the subject of the narrator's appeal to his fellow citizens in the eighth line of the poem (*quis furor, o cives, quae tanta licentia ferri*). He thus presents himself as an imitation of the civil war itself and challenges his men to rival his model (4.542-44):

> 'ecquis' ait 'iuvenum est, cuius sit dextra cruore
> digna meo certaque fide per volnera nostra
> testetur se velle mori?'
>
> 'is there any one of my men,' he said, 'whose right hand
> is worthy of blood and would attest to his own wish
> to die through the wounds he inflicts on me?'

Vulteius is instantly run through by multiple right arms, slaying one of them in return, *grato ictu* ('with a grateful blow,' 5.547), before he dies. Book 1's formula recurs: Caesar's desire for their soldierly loyalty, transfigured into butchery of fellow citizens, becomes the common object of their envious desire.

This also explains why suicide, in the form of a battle, should be an essential element of the spectacle. It is more than the poet's flourish and more than just one more inscription of the larger conflict within the confines of a specific episode. Killing one another in staged combat is as close as they can come to pursuing their mission to wage civil war. Paradoxically, collective self-annihilation becomes the purest expression of Laelius' vow to disregard the status of fellow citizens or even blood relations (1.376-78): *pectore si fratris gladium iuguloque parentis / condere me iubeas plenaeque in viscera*

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partu / coniugis, invita peragam tamen omnia dextra ('if you order me to bury my sword in the breast of my brother and the throat of my father and in the womb of my wife, full with child, my unwilling right hand will do it all'). Laelius declares he is ready to kill his own kin at Caesar's command, while Vulteius regrets the absence of children and the elderly to kill. In place of such, they can kill each other.

Curio in Book 4

Let us return now to Curio. I have briefly touched on a significant part of Curio's book 4 narrative, his status as an *auctor* of civil war. In spite of giving him such an important role in book 1, Lucan withholds much of his characterization of Curio until book 4. In book 4, when Curio arrives in Libya to pursue Caesar's objectives against Pompey's ally, Juba, he hears a local's account of an ancient battle that took place there between Hercules and the giant Antaeus This, coupled with a comparison between the fame of Hercules and Scipio Africanus, stirs Curio's envious desire.

Envy in this episode takes on features particularly evocative of Girard's mimetic desire. The episode consists of two major components, a Libyan local's recitation of the battle between Hercules and Antaeus (4.591-665) and the battle between Curio and Juba (4.666-824). Curio listens to the local's account and draws erroneous conclusions about his luck in the upcoming conflict. As Charles Saylor notes, the key relationship Lucan develops between the myth and the battle is the relationship of the combatant to the ground on which he fights.[12]

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[12] Charles Saylor (1982) "Curio and Antaeus: The African Episode of Lucan *Pharsalia* IV," *TAPA* 112, 169-77, 171-72.

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Antaeus is a son of Earth and draws his strength from physical contact with her (4.598-600). When Hercules throws him to the ground, he draws strength and rises more powerful than before (4.626-34). Hercules finally defeats him by holding him aloft, preventing him from touching the earth (4.649-53). Curio believes the Castra Cornelia, the camp of Scipio Africanus, which Lucan identifies with hills (4.656, 664; 739-43), are a lucky portent for him, because of their association with Africanus, the Roman conqueror of Hannibal. He fails to recognize the practical strategic value of the hills as high ground:[13]

> As Lucan tells it, Curio has an empty, superficial feeling for earth. He does not value the Cornelia Castra out of a soldier's sense of position. He shows no deeply-based instinctive feeling for earth, its high and low places, its contours for soldierly uses. Rather, for earth, he sees power in the spot because it has been invested by another general with a potency for victory.

Unlike Curio, Juba is able to assess the strategic merit of his terrain and draw the strength necessary to crush the Roman trespasser. Saylor moves from the position of Ahl, who argues that Curio is a failed Hercules, who is therefore unable to defeat Juba, the civil war's counterpart to Antaeus. Instead, he argues that Curio is a failed Antaeus, who does possess a significant relationship to the earth, but is unaware of it and ignorant of how it works: "...Lucan describes first the earth on which Curio might be strong, next land that

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[13] Ibid., 172.

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is neutral for the Roman, and last the earth which though neutral for Curio is by contrast full of strength for the native Juba."[14] One gap in Saylor's excellent study of this episode is the role of Curio as a reader of history and of legend (4.589-92):

> inde petit tumulos exesasque undique rupes,
> Antaei quas regna vocat non vana vetustas.
> nominis antiqui cupientem noscere causas
> cognita per multos docuit rudis incola patres
>
> from there he marched to the rocky eminence,
> hollowed out on all sides, which tradition with good
> reason calls the realm of Antaeus. when he sought
> to learn the origin of that ancient name, he was told
> by an unlettered countryman a tale handed down
> through many generations.

The key to the relevance of the Hercules myth is the Libyan's contrast between the land's traditional association with Antaeus and its connection to Roman history through Scipio's camp. The *rudis incola* concludes his account (4.654-60):

> hinc, aevi veteris custos, famosa vetustas
> miratrixque sui signavit nomine terras.
> sed maiora dedit cognomina collibus istis
> Poenum qui Latiis revocavit ab arcibus hostem

[14] Ibid., 171-72.

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Scipio; nam sedes Libyca tellure potito
haec fuit. en, veteris cernis vestigia valli.
Romana hos primum tenuit victoria campos.

hence the land got its name from
long tradition which treasures the past and thinks
highly of itself. but a greater name was given to
these heights by Scipio, when he brought the
Carthaginian invader back from the citadels of
Latium. here was he encamped when he reached the
soil of Libya; over there you see the remains of his
ancient rampart; these are the fields which the
Roman conqueror first occupied.

Africanus is the point of connection between the Libyan's tale and Curio. Scipio Africanus, not the historical figure per se, but his character in the 'text' of the Libyan's narrative, assimilated to the myth of Hercules' victory over Antaeus, is the mimetic model that tempts Curio. Finally, Curio's reaction (4.661-65):

Curio laetatus, tamquam fortuna locorum
bella gerat servetque ducum sibi fata priorum,
felici non fausta loco tentoria ponens
indulsit castris et collibus abstulit omen,
sollicitatque feros non aequis viribus hostes.

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> Curio was overjoyed, just as the fortune of the place
> waged wars for and preserved the fates of earlier generals, so it would for him, pitching his unlucky tents on the lucky ground
> he indulged in the camp and snatched away the portent from the hills,
> and agitated a fierce enemy with unequal strength.

The Libyan's narrative, however, is only the ostensible object of Curio's desire. Curio craves something more than just making Scipio the model of his mimetic desire. In a different context, following a traditional Roman perspective, such a thing could be an example of healthy emulation of earlier success, as opposed to resentful envy.

One obvious reason for caution, before assuming that Curio is simply engaged in normal Roman emulation of excellence, is the fact that Curio and his army are destroyed. Yet, it is also true that this circumstantial detail does not necessarily mean that Curio's poor strategy taints the principle of emulation. A further reason to question whether this is a positive representation of emulation is the fact that the conflict is only superficially between Romans and Africans. At a more significant level, it remains part of the war between Caesar and the Republic. Prior to doing battle with Juba, Curio defeats the Republican commander Varus (4.710-15). Lucan makes clear the anti-Republican agenda of Curio's battle against this foreign ally of Pompey (4.690-92): *lege tribunicia solio depellere avorum / Curio temptarat, Libyamque auferre tyranno / dum regnum te, Roma, facit* ('Curio had tried to depose [Juba] by tribunician law from the throne of his ancestors, and to take Libya from its ruler, while he made you, Rome, a kingdom.').

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This episode emphasizes that the emulator is morally responsible for both correctly interpreting the relevance of the object of mimesis and undertaking emulation for ethically sound reasons. Misreading is more than just a tragic mistake; it is morally culpable. Curio's reading is morally transgressive in its unethical assimilation of a Roman exemplum such as Scipio Africanus to the cause of civil war. There is no basis for Curio's assumption that Scipio's war against Hannibal, a foreign enemy, bears comparison with his own pursuit of a civil war against the Republic. Curio's assumption that Scipio's victory and, presumably, Hercules' defeat of Antaeus, represent a 'fortune of the place' favorable to himself is in fact an aggressive act of Caesarian appopriation. Curio's defeat at the hands of Juba is an appropriate penalty for his failure to remove the example of Scipio from the annals of Republican history and assimilate it to his own Caesarian future.

In this respect, Curio mirrors Caesar himself. Caesar's appropriation of Scipio is the real object of Curio's mimetic desire. Curio wants to possess the exemplum of Scipio, because Caesar has already obtained it and, in so doing, invested it with immediate value and relevance. As we have already seen, Curio's persuasion of an uncertain Caesar in book 1 is counterbalanced by Caesar's earlier corruption of an uncertain Curio, reported in book 4. The reciprocity of desire between the two also manifests itself here in Curio's attempt to repeat Caesar's perverse mimesis of Scipio.

Connections between Fabius and Pompey on the one hand, and Hannibal and Caesar on the other, have already been noted: "Just as Caesar often plays the part of

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Hannibal, so Pompey is characterized by *delay*, as was Fabius."[15] Scipio Africanus, however, remains as a third party in this frame of historical reference whose importance for Lucan must also be explored. In his development of Caesar as a Scipio, in contrast to Pompey as a Fabius Maximus, Lucan also exploits the Romulus and Remus tradition through Livy's adaptation of it in his construction of the relationship between Fabius Maximus Cunctator and P. Cornelius Scipio Africanus.

Scipio Africanus and Hannibal are both paradigmatic exemplars for Lucan's Caesar. The debate between Fabius and Scipio before the senate in book 28 of Livy, about whether to invade Carthage, contains *in nuce* and within the bounds of peaceful civic discourse the issues Lucan puts at the heart of the rivalry between Caesar and Pompey. Fabius contrasts his own *cunctatio* with Scipio's *festinatio in Africam* ('rush into Africa') and he foresees that his criticism of Scipio's bold plan to carry the war to Carthagian soil will be construed as *invidia* (*Ab Urbe Cond.* 28.40.): *...obtrectationis atque* ***invidiae*** *adversus crescentem in dies gloriam fortissimi consulis* ('...[as] detraction and envy of the fame, which grows daily, of the highly courageous consul').

In this paradigm, haste, youth, vigor, and the future are on one side; slowness, seniority, and the past are on the other. Wiseman catalogues a consistent pattern of association in both historians and poets between Romulus and the qualities of speed and haste, and Remus and qualities of slowness and delay. He points to Diodorus Siculus (8.6.1-3), who records that a follower of Romulus named Keleros (*Celer* or 'the Swift')

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[15] Masters (1992) 1n1; for the Hannibal-Caesar comparison, see Ahl (1976) 107-112.

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killed Remus when he mockingly overleaped Romulus' defensive trench.[16] Ovid, following this tradition in the *Fasti* (5.452, 467), plays on the significance of Celer's name,[17] describing Remus' leap over the trench as *male velox* ('not fast enough')[18] and speaks of Celer killing Remus with a *temeraria manus* ('hasty hand').[19] Further, Livy, Plutarch, and Pliny the Elder all record that Romulus acquires a guard regiment called the *Celeres*.[20]

In contrast, Remus' name, at an early stage in the tradition, was derived from *remores*, which is connected to *remorari*, to delay.[21] Ennius, in the *Annales*, writes that

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[16] T. P. Wiseman (1995) *Remus*, Cambridge, 9, 152n154. Wiseman ties this pattern of associations to a much broader interpretation of the Remus myth in Roman history. My discussion concerns only the pattern itself.

[17] Ibid., 152n154. In the *Fasti* (4.837), Romulus gives Celer his name.

[18] Pompey's wife Cornelia blames herself for causing a 'fatal delay' (8.640, *letiferae...**morae***), allowing her husband's killers to prepare their trap. In contrast, in a rhetorical address to those killers she says (8.645): ***properas** atque ingeris ictus* ('**you hurry** and deliver your blows').

[19] Lucan adapts this phrase to designate a different sort of violation against Pompey – not his murder, but his burial (8.795) ***temeraria dextra**, / cur obicis Magno tumulum manesque vagantes / includis*? ('**hasty hand**, why do you throw a tomb on Magnus and confine his wandering soul'). For *temerarius* as 'hasty', see *OLD*, 2.

[20] Wiseman (1995) 127 and 208n124. Plutarch, *Life of Romulus* 26.2, *Life of Numa*, 7.4; Pliny *NH* 34.35;

[21] Wiseman, 7, 170n13, 171n36. Valerius (*Antias*) in *OGR* 21.4: *alterum vero Remum dictum, videlicet a tarditate, quippe talis naturae homines ab antiquis remores dici* ('the other was called Remus, from 'slowness', for in ancient times men of such a nature were called delayers'); Festus 344L (277M): *Remelignines et remorae a remorando* [MS *memorando*] *dictae sunt in Plauto in Casina'*. Wiseman notes

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the city Remus would have founded, had the portents confirmed him as king, would have been called *Remora* (*Ann.* Fr. 77 Sk.).[22] Romulus is the stronger,[23] the faster,[24] and the more violent. Like Fabius and Pompey, Remus is, in several sources, the older and more deserving.[25] Like Fabius, Remus' authority rests on chronological priority, in being born first and in witnessing the portent of kingship first.[26]

Fabius, in Livy's account, disputes the wisdom of invading Africa – not because Carthage does not deserve to be destroyed, but because of the motives involved and precedents created. Fabius' world-view, as Jane Chaplin observes, puts a premium on chronological priority.[27] The aged Fabius relies heavily on historical *exempla*, and, in short, values the past, of which he is swiftly becoming a part. Fabius insists on the immutability of his reputation and dismisses the notion of rivalry with the young Scipio.[28]

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the uncertainty here of Mueller's emendation, due to the fact that Plautus, *Casina* 804 reads *remorantur remeligines*.

[22] Wiseman, 6-7.

[23] The names Romulus and Roma were connected to 'ρώμη ('strength), Plutarch, *Life of Romulus*, 2.4.

[24] Wiseman, 111. Wiseman notes that even Cicero, the most suppressive of the Remus tradition, says that Romulus founds Rome *praeceleriter*.

[25] Wiseman, 110, 203n48&50.

[26] Remus, sitting on the Aventine, sees six vultures. Later, his younger brother Romulus, sitting on the Palatine, sees twice as many.

[27] Chaplin (2000) 128.

[28] Ibid., 129. Chaplin notes that Fabius' attitude in this respect recalls the preface's assertion of the past as a *monumentum*, immutable in its worth.

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Scipio does not entirely accept Fabius' claim that no rivalry exists between them or that reputation has any fixed value. Instead, in his view, each man is in competition with the best men of every age.[29] For him, the younger generation should always be encouraged to surpass their antecedents and, therefore, estimation of the past ought not to be fixed. Lacking the later books of Livy's history, we cannot know if Livy himself portrayed Caesar and Pompey as a wicked devolution of a healthy or tensely positive rivalry between Scipio and Fabius.

Lucan, I contend, does exactly this. Reading Livy and Lucan together, through the perspective of the latter, for Caesar and Scipio, the status contained in the epithets of Magnus and Maximus represent not only obstacles to their own advancement, but also incitements to envy and ambition. Accordingly, Lucan allusively suggests that the strife between Magnus and Caesar is the devolved experience of the rivalry we see in Livy's paradigm of Maximus/Remus and Africanus/Romulus.

It is Caesar's appropriation of Africanus that Curio is in a position to repeat in Libya. This is also Curio's undoing. His inability to play the role of either Hercules or Antaeus, as they are portrayed in the Libyan's myth, stems from the fact that he is not following his own reading of the myth. Indeed, he is not reading it at all. He is simply attempting to acquire its outcome, without attention to its constituent parts. I would

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[29] Livy, 28.43.6: *maximo cuique id accidere animo certum habeo, ut se non cum praesentibus modo sed cum omnis aevi claris viris comparent* ('I count it an axiom that all truly great individuals see matters in the following way – they match themselves not only with the men of their own day, but also with the illustrious men of every age.').

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compare this interpretive approach with Caesar's reply to the phantom image of the fatherland, which appears to him in book 1 and pleads with him not to cross the Rubicon. Caesar ignores the substance of the phantom's argument (1.191-92): *si iure venitis, / si cives, huc usque licet* ('if you come lawfully, if as citizens, here is as far as you may go').

Caesar answers simply (1.203): *ille erit, ille nocens, qui me tibi fecerit hostem* ('he will be, he will be guilty, who has made me your enemy'). Caesar's reply assimilates her to his own side, transferring the blame to 'the one that made him do it'. Curio's interpretive approach reflects a similarly cavalier logic. He pays no attention, as Saylor shows, to the reasons why Scipio's camp might be where it is, its strategic value and the implications of such for his campaign against Juba. The particulars of the Libyan's narrative and the details of the Libyan geography do not interest him. He simply assimilates the site *qua* omen to his own ambition.

As Saylor[30] and George[31] have shown, Lucan consistently represents Caesar as disrupting the relationship between people and nature. This is consistent with an adoption of the role of Hercules from the Libyan's myth. Just as Hercules disrupts Antaeus' relationship to the earth, Caesar deprives his enemies of the earth's resources, the water and food without which they cannot survive. Juba's strategy reflects the role of Antaeus. Yet, the high ground, the site of Africanus' camp, represents in Scipio's case a successfully chosen relationship to earth. Lucan's Africanus, therefore, has played the

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[30] Saylor (1978) "*Belli Spes Inproba*: The Theme of Walls in Lucan, *Pharsalia* VI," *TAPA* 108, 245-57.

[31] David B. George (1988) "Lucan's Caesar and Stoic [illegible] Theory: The Stoic Fool," *TAPA* 118, 331-41.

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role of Antaeus successfully vis-à-vis Hannibal. Curio has not made a choice between the two mythic paradigms; instead he has enviously appropriated someone else's choice and, as a result, fails to play the role of either Hercules or Antaeus with adequate skill.

The desire that made Curio persuade a doubting Caesar into civil war may be seen to stem from a rivalry that transcends the distance between them in rank. Each has persuaded the other to serve a private agenda. Curio's deployment of *invidia* to manipulate Caesar in book 1, stirring Caesar's envious resentment through reference to the *livor* of his enemies, may be seen to hint at Curio's own envious desire of Caesar's position. When Curio persuades Caesar to launch civil war, his leadership briefly looms larger than Caesar's. It is the pursuit of that envious desire in Libya, through the attempted appropriation of a (much perverted) model of Caesar's identity, that lures Curio to his doom.

Petreius and the Mutiny at Ilerda

Another important example of the pattern in which a single orator turns a crowd from peace to war can be seen in the sabotage of the fraternization between Caesarian and Pompeian troops at Ilerda, perpetrated by Petreius, a Pompeian commander (4.212-35). The soldiers of Caesar and of Pompey's commanders, Petreius and Afranius, have abandoned warfare and mingled in peaceful celebration (4.169-204). In this episode, Petreius inverts the role of the statesman in Virgil's simile and persuades his soldiers, who have put down their weapons and embraced their Caesarian countrymen, to murder them and return to war. After the Pompeians fail to defeat Caesar, Afranius begs for peace and Caesar permits the Pompeian soldiers to go home.

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Filled with Pompeian savagery and culminating in Caesarian clemency, this is a troublesome episode for those who would read the *BC* as a pro-Republican poem. Frederick Ahl suggests that Lucan has difficulties in this episode, because he is confronted with the irrefutable historical fact of Caesar's clemency.[32] Jamie Masters criticizes Ahl, arguing that he transfers to the poet the puzzlement of the reader at this seeming switch in narrative sympathy.[33] As for compulsion to deal with Caesarian clemency, Masters argues that nothing prevents Lucan from simply omitting it from the poem, as he does from the Massilian episode.[34] Masters goes on to explain the apparent inconsistency in Lucan's tone through reference to the 'fractured voice' of the narrative. The narrator's sympathies sway back and forth, he argues, between Pompey and Caesar, reproducing the conflict of civil war within the narrative voice.[35] Matthew Leigh has argued that Caesar's clemency is in fact a sinister instrument of his monarchical agenda, which is implicit in the Lucanian account insofar as it is given only after the military defeat of his enemies.[36]

Debra Hershkowitz sees Petreius' conduct as the most notable example of the *BC*'s inversion of the *Aeneid*'s statesman simile and it is in this connection that I

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[32] Ahl (1976) 192-97.

[33] Masters (1992) 78-79.

[34] Ibid., 85-86.

[35] Ibid., 87-90. Followed by Bartsch (1997) 56.

[36] Leigh (1997) 54-68.

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approach the episode.[37] Petreius is, at one level, yet another leader who instantiates the *invida fatorum series* by deploying *invidia* to further civil war. As others also do, he successfully persuades his soldiers that they have unconscionably transgressed against Pompey and the Republic. This transgression of communal standards for loyalty makes them legitimate targets of *nemesis* script *invidia*. The pressure of this condemnation compels them to rejoin civil war.

Invidia is cited once in this episode. The use of the word is not entirely clear (4.243-45): *itur in omne nefas, et, quae Fortuna* ***deorum / invidia*** *caeca bellorum in nocte tulisset, / fecit monstra fides* ('there was a rush into every sacrilege, and terrible acts – *deorum invidia* – that Fortune might have brought about in the dark night of battle, loyalty commits instead'). It means, as Housman argues and as has been generally accepted, that *invidia* would have attached to the gods if all this had occurred in battle.[38] As it is, since the responsible parties are known, blame must be attached to specific mortals. The implication of the passage is, then, that *invidia* is rightly attached to Petreius and the Pompeians.

The reason is that Petreius, in his capacity as a representative of Pompey, has validated Caesar's enviously motivated accusations against Pompey. First, let us look at the narrator's account of the effects of Petreius' speech upon the Pompeians (4.235-42):

sic fatur et omnes

concussit mentes scelerumque reduxit amorem.

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[37] Hershkowitz (1998) 202.

[38] Housman (1927) *ad loc.*

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sic, ubi desuetae silvis in carcere cluso
mansuevere **ferae** et voltus posuere minaces
atque hominem didicere pati, **si torrida parvus**
venit in ora cruor, redeunt rabiesque furorque,
admonitaeque tument gustato sanguine fauces;
fervet et a trepido vix abstinet ira magistro.

so he spoke and struck
every mind and brought back the love of crime.
as, when **wild beasts**, grown unaccustomed to the woods
in narrow confines put aside their threatening appearance
and have learned to endure man, **if a little blood comes**
into their parched mouths, the madness and the fury return,
and, after the blood is tasted, their throats swell, reminded;
anger seethes and scarcely holds back from the fearful master.

Now, compare with Caesar on the bloodthirsty habits of Pompey (1.324-331):

nunc quoque, ne lassum teneat privata senectus,
bella nefanda parat suetus civilibus armis
et docilis Sullam scelerum vicisse magistrum.
utque **ferae tigres numquam posuere furorem**,
quas, nemore Hyrcano matrum dum lustra secuntur,
altus caesorum pavit cruor armentorum,

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sic et Sullanum solito tibi lambere ferrum

durat, Magne, sitis.

now also, that old age as a private citizen not confine him in his weariness,

and as he is accustomed to civil strife, he readies sacrilegious wars,

learning readily from Sulla, his teacher in crime.

and just as **fierce tigers never put aside their fury,**

whom the bountiful blood of slain cattle nourish

in the Hyrcanian forests while they follow the circuits of their mothers,

so, Magnus, does your thirst persist, accustomed as you are

to lick the Sullan sword.

Accustomed to lick from Sulla's sword, Pompey's thirst for blood still remains. Petreius' men are likened to wild beasts, which have been tamed, but when reminded of their taste for blood, succumb to madness and fury once again. In each case, the simile stresses the wild beasts' undiminished thirst for blood. The only difference is the period of domestication in the simile for Petreius' Pompeians, corresponding to their brief rapprochement with the Caesarians. The reference to domestication is only to confirm that the cessation from violence does not matter, once blood has been tasted again.

What happens through the intervention of Petreius is significant enough to bring *invidia* on the gods, if responsibility could be plausibly assigned to them. It would be desirable, perhaps, since Petreius' actions have validated indirectly Caesar's claims against Pompey. Consider the narrator's remarkable and bitter claim (4.254-59):

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tu, Caesar, quamvis spoliatus milite multo,
agnoscis superos; neque enim tibi maior in arvis
Emathiis fortuna fuit nec Phocidos undis
Massiliae, Phario nec tantum est aequore gestum,
hoc siquidem solo civilis crimine belli
dux causae milioris eris.

you, Caesar, although despoiled of many a soldier,
recognized the gods in this; for no greater fortune was there
for you on the Emathian plains nor in the waters of Phocian
Massilia, nor was transacted by the Egyptian sea,
because of this single crime of civil war
you will be the leader of the better cause.

This confirms, from the narrator's point of view, the *invidia* due to Petreius and the Pompeians. Petreius' deployment of *invidia*, after the pattern of Curio, Laelius, and Vulteius, involves the use of nemesis *invidia* to obtain a desired result.

Laelius accused Caesar of slighting his army's loyalty, when in fact, in Lucan's telling, he does not seem to have given it much thought. This transgression merits the *invidia* of his soldiers, the expression of which takes the form of enthusiastic blood lust. Vulteius imagines the *invidia* of chance as depriving himself and his soldiers of their due. Curio similarly persuades Caesar that the *livor* of his enemies deprives him of what is rightfully his. Petreius accuses his soldiers of disloyalty, making them the objects of

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invidia and in so doing, makes them, along with himself, the collective object of the narrator's *nemesis* script *invidia.*

Caesar and the Mutiny at Placentia

All of these events may be compared with Caesar's response to his army, when it mutinies at Placentia, in Spain (5.237-373). His soldiers beg to be released, pleading the endlessness of the wars and their advancing age (5.261-95). This event threatens to cripple Caesar's war effort; nevertheless, he addresses the rebelling troops and cows them into submission (5.315-73). The episode represents a Caesarian parallel to Petreius' intervention to stop the Republican troops from abandoning the cause in favor of peace and it also shows that Caesar has learned something since his poor showing in book 1.

I argued above that Caesar miscalculates in book 1, when he presents practical reasons for his soldiers to join him in civil war. Civil war in Lucan is consistently represented in terms of irrational, frenzied passion. Appeals to advantage cannot persuade his soldiers to cross over the line into frenzy. Appeals to passion can accomplish this and it is by this means that Laelius achieves his result.

In book 5, Caesar's troops are now the ones to cite practical disadvantages in their request to be released from service. Caesar does not try to dissuade them from their view, as he might have, were he following the same rhetorical strategy as in book 1. Instead, Caesar disregards their claims of age, ill health, fatigue, and general destitution, relying entirely on inducing his soldiers to feel *nemesis invidia* toward themselves, a strategy similar in outline to the one Petreius follows. Yet, where Petreius decries the

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betrayal of Pompey and the cause, Caesar proclaims the insignificance of his soldiers' disloyalty (5.325-37):

> vadite meque meis ad bella relinquite fatis.
> invenient haec arma manus, vobisque repulsis
> tot reddet Fortuna viros, quot tela vacabunt.
> anne fugam Magni tanta cum classe secuntur
> Hesperiae gentes, nobis victoria turbam
> non dabit, inpulsi tantum quae praemia belli
> auferat et vestri rapta mercede laboris
> lauriferos nullo comitetur volnere currus?
> vos despecta, senes, exhaustaque sanguine turba
> cernetis nostros iam plebs Romana triumphos.
> Caesaris an cursus vestrae sentire putatis
> damnum posse fugae?
>
> go and leave me to my fate as I pursue war.
> these weapons will find hands, and when you are driven off
> Fortune will give as many men as there are weapons for them to carry.
> or do Hesperian nations follow the flight of Magnus
> with such a large fleet, will victory not give a crowd
> to us, which would only carry off the prizes of a war
> already won and, having snatched away the compensation for your work,

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would accompany my laurel decked chariot without any wounds?

you mob, you old men, despised and drained of blood,

you will watch our triumph as part of the Roman plebs.

do you think the course of Caesar could feel

the loss of your flight?

The *invidia* Caesar calls down on his soldiers is similar to that which ultimately falls on him in book 10. His mighty army, which has already won its victories, so Caesar argues, finds itself suddenly impotent. The contrast between past achievement and present incapacity generates *pudor* and *invidia*. Forgetting their practical reasons, the soldiers return to the duties they sought to flee.

W. R. Johnson notes that Lucan dwells little on the practical causes of the army's disaffection and speculates that the poet is very much interested in the criminal psychology of crowds. Perhaps, Johnson suggests, the crowd wants to be persuaded by Caesar and, temporarily overtaken by shame, hopes Caesar will make them do what they want to do anyway, but for which they have momentarily lost the confidence. Although this suggestion is speculative, a degree of reciprocity is certainly not unlikely.[39]

Although he does not make the cosmological connection with Lucan's first simile, Johnson mentions Virgil's statesman simile as a point of contrast with Lucan's crowd scenes. The statesman appears to calm the mob with rational oratory (*Aen.* 1.153): *ille*

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[39] Johnson (1987) 116.

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regit dictis animos et pectora mulcet ('he rules their minds with words and soothes their spirits'). Such clearcut and simple control of the mob is deceptive, suggests Johnson:[40]

> In reality, the great man is only a part of the crowd, just as the crowd itself, with its changing moods, shapes, and patterns, is only an outer sign of a hidden, mysterious fear that governs life and transforms itself into the desire to dominate, into pure, untrammeled power that seeks to destroy, and so to escape, what it fears.

Johnson may be right about about the receptiveness of Lucan's crowds to malevolent persuasion, although he undervalues the degree to which Caesar's rhetoric cows them into action against their own interests. Johnson is certainly right to stress the interdependent nature of the crowd and the 'great man'. This connection is fundamental to Lucan's dramatization of the concept underpinning his narrative; i.e. the *invida fatorum series*. These acts of persuasion, achieved through *invidia*, are the links of the *series*.

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[40] Ibid.

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Chapter 3: The Adversaries of Envy

> *"La Philosophie triomphe aisement des maux passez et des maux a venir. Mais les maux presens triomphent d'elle."*
> La Rochefoucauld, *Maximes*, 22.

> "...the *Pharsalia* offers a critique of impure reason, and it imagines a crisis of spirit which reason is powerless to resolve or even to grasp."
> W. R. Johnson, *Momentary Monsters*, p. 36.

This chapter examines the figures of Cato and Acoreus, whose narratives I have mostly deferred till this point. Cato's trials fill the bulk of book 9 and Acoreus' speech on the Nile covers 137 of the tenth book's 546 lines. Each character, I shall argue, is a significant source of moral and epistemological authority and, together, their narratives advocate for a form of power potentially able to explain Caesar's eventual assassination in terms of natural law, which denies tyrants the ability to determine the history in any ultimate fashion. Possession of such knowledge and the pursuit of an agenda based on it identifies the possessor with the power of nature. The broad conception of natural law, which emerges from their narratives, denies to Caesar the ability to dictate the terms on which this poem will end. As such, the termination of the poem shortly after an excursus on the power and mystery of nature, as it is manifest in the Nile, in parallel with Caesar's discontent, would align the poem with the power of nature at the expense of the tyrant that seeks to dominate it.

Cato

The narrator represents Cato in book 9 as obstructing envy when it threatens the stability of both his army and the moral integrity of his leadership. Cato's adventures are

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narrated in highly charged allusive language that engages, in order to transcend, certain motifs and scenarios with which envy has been associated in the poem. These motifs consist of the leader's exhortation of a crowd to civil war through the rhetoric of *invidia*; the issue of length in narrative as an indication of the aesthetic of a (Neo-)Callimachean *Phthonos*; and the relationship between bard and inspirational deity, which, traditionally, must be free of envy.

In this connection, Johnson's idea of the *BC* as a critique of impure reason, as expressed in the epigraph above, should be broadened to include Lucan's attention to adversaries of impure reason.[1] As I hope to have shown in chapter 2, *invidia* is used as a primary tool in this poem's major acts of malevolent persuasion, which is the poem's major manifestation of Johnson's 'impure reason'. It is certainly true that morally pure reason, which Johnson finds inadequate even to comprehend the origin, let alone to counter the force of its opposite number, is not explicitly vindicated by plot, in the text as we have it. For at least one scholar, this issue has been sufficient to hypothesize an ending, perhaps in a twelfth book, which would emphasize Cato's suicide.[2]

Cato's most significant contribution in the poem, I will argue, is his revision of how to define authority. In this connection, Cato debunks several commonplaces of

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[1] As I will discuss below, Johnson does not believe that there are any such adversaries. His Cato is as much a part of the poem's problem as Caesar or Pompey.

[2] W. Rutz (1965) "Lucan, 1943-1963," *Lustrum* 9, 234-340, 269. Rutz objects to Heinz Haffter's (1957) argument for a book 10 ending partly because, in his view, the poem as we have it does not adaquately vindicate the position of Cato.

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literary tradition, especially, the exclusivity of the relationship between poet and inspirational deity and between the epic hero and divinity. Cato's narrative is also, more generally, an adversarial critique of the paradigm of the mythical hero. This is a paradigm which book 9 itself provides, in its excursus on Hercules and the golden apples. In each of these instances, Cato's narrative is critical of received ideas concerning the place of the poet or the status of the hero. On my reading, the poem as a whole is an exposition of impure reason, the cosmic foundation of which I consider to be *invida fatorum series* (1.70). The poem is also, however, strongly marked by the adversarial critique of impure reason, which is presented in the narratives of Cato and Acoreus.

Johnson's notion of the *BC* as a 'critique of impure reason' holds that the poem is a nihilistic vision in which Cato, with his philosophical inclinations, is part of the problem, rather than the solution. As Jamie Masters observes of Johnson's book in general, his analysis is about "attitude."[3] Johnson is forthright about authorizing his own attitude toward the text and its characters as his main source of critical insight and he insists on allowing Lucan freedom of attitude toward his characters. He writes of Cato: "In short, what is troublesome about Lucan's Cato (who perhaps resembles his imitators in Lucan's day) is his puritanical extravagance, his unfailing inhumanity."[4] As suggestive points of contrast, Johnson adduces Aristotle's notion of a flexible mean, as opposed to Cato's rigid extreme, and Horace's mockery of dogmatic pretensions (*Epist.* 1.6.15-16).

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[3] Masters (1992) xiii.

[4] Johnson (1987) 37.

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The main thrust of Johnson's analysis, however, is an unapologetic application of his personal taste and well-honed literary instincts.

Johnson's analysis has played its part in energizing several other studies, which have examined Lucan's depiction of Cato quite closely from various perspectives and found reason to question the sincerity of the praise, which the narrator heaps on him. Debra Hershkowitz has observed that the portrayal of Cato's passions is inconsistent with orthodox Stoicism.[5] Certain positive emotions are permitted to the wise man, but Cato's reactions are pitched at an extreme. David George has argued that Cato's dolor (2.299) at civil war, because it is conceptualized as the grief of a parent for his children (2.297-303), is therefore consistent with Stoic *oikeiosis*, the conception of the bond between individual, society, and nature, which is based on the bond between parent and child.[6] Hershkowitz acknowledges that this is possible, but points out that the word choice would be unusual and the sense quite strained.

Hershkowtiz' larger argument is that Lucan creates a scenario in which *virtus* and *furor* become confused. The result is that Caesar's *furor* comes to resemble a perverse virtus and Cato's *virtus*, in its highly and strangely emotional form, a form of *furor*. This conclusion is consistent with the general confusion of moral categories in civil war. It need not, however, be seen as fundamentally undermining a positive role for Cato. Quite the opposite, it puts him at the center of the drama in a way he would not otherwise be, were he only the perfect exemplum of wisdom and Roman virtue. Therefore, while we

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[5] D. Hershkowitz (1998) *The Madness of Epic*, Oxford, 234-36.

[6] D. George (1988) 339.

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may read Cato as embodying not only the model of *oikeiosis*, we should also remember that he also represents the struggle to keep that model alive, when the surface of the world about him has rioted and thrown all sensible things into chaos.

How effective is Cato in this struggle? Matthew Leigh's analysis is in agreement with LaRochfoucauld's observation that philosophy is really only victorious over troubles either past or yet to come; present ones always get the better of it. Leigh argues that Lucan depicts Cato as a passive spectator to the horrors of the Libyan march, unable to relieve his soldiers' sufferings. Leigh cites in particular the occasion when a soldier is bitten by the *dipsas* ('thirst'), whose poison appropriately induces a rabid thirst in its victim. Powerless to help the soldier or, apparently, to do anything at all, Cato hurries his men away so that they may not witness the spectacle (9.761-62). Leigh writes of Cato's example to his soldiers:[7]

> ...Cato the *spectator*, the man involved in the surface of things, may believe himself to have taught them philosophy, to have challenged and beaten fortune, but it is a fair bet that, as soon as he has left the ward, the patients redouble their lamentation, first from the agonies which they endure, second from the realization of what a prig they have for a general.

Narducci has challenged this interpretation directly, arguing that the emphasis of the episode as a whole is on Cato's role as an example to his troops of personal endurance.[8]

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[7] Leigh (1997) 275. On Cato as a spectator in general, see pp. 273-82.

[8] Narducci (2002) 368f.

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From the standpoint of a rather narrow focus on and definition of plot, this may be true, but it is also unnecessarily narrow.

Leigh has argued that the *sitis* ('thirst') induced by the bite of the *dipsas* snake symbolizes *cupiditas* ('desire') and that the entire snake episode may be understood as an 'allegory of the passions.' On this reading, the snakes are objective correlatives of the destructive emotions and drives, which impel citizens toward civil war.[9] It is highly appropriate that Cato, the master of self-discipline, should be at the forefront in such a contest, but what about his soldiers?

Leigh draws attention to the scene in which Cato refuses the water a soldier attempts to offer him (9.500-10). Cato appears to have conquered thirst here, but when his soldier is attacked by the *dipsas* and reduced to biting into his own veins to quench his thirst with blood, Lucan assigns to Cato an interestingly passive response (9.761-62): *iussit signa rapi propere Cato: discere nulli / permissum est hoc posse sitim* ('Cato ordered the standards to be taken away in a hurry: it was permitted to no one to learn that thirst was capable of this'). Thirst, what Cato has theoretically conquered, is literally the last word, as Leigh notes and it appears to have driven Cato from the field. Yet, if it has conquered Cato, it has done so only indirectly. Cato himself remains impervious, but he cannot make his men so, despite all his qualifications as a moral exemplum. Hence,

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[9] Leigh (1997) 267-73. For a lengthy list of parallels of the *sitis / cupiditas* association in Latin literature, see 273n102. Followed by C. R. Raschle (2001) *Pestes Harenae: Die Schlangenepisode in Lucans Pharsalia (IX 587-949)*, Frankfurt, *ad loc.*

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Leigh is able to conclude that "Cato's Stoic march is an allegory, but it is an allegory for the impotence of philosophy."[10]

Leigh's argument, in my view, is sound, but the conclusion he draws from it is not inevitable. I would amend his argument to say that Lucan uses the desert march to create a challenge to the brand of leadership Cato represents. Cato's vast personal resources cannot overcome decisively, because Cato cannot endure suffering on behalf of others. This is still a long way from saying that his brand of leadership is impotent or that there is anything even remotely worthy to replace it. Cato simply cannot overcome obstacles to others by means of his own will power alone and whether he can inspire others to overcome depends as much or more on them.

On my reading, Cato realizes this limitation and, accordingly, uses rhetoric as well as other tactics, even evasion, when necessary. There is good reason to pause, however, before claiming that this element of the narrative totally subverts Cato's role as a force against chaos. We have, in fact, seen this type of challenge to Cato's teaching before in the poem. In book 2, when Cato gives Brutus a rousing speech in defense of his decision to join Pompey, he inspires an unintended response (2.323-25):

sic fatur, et acris
irarum mouit stimulos iuvenisque calorem
excitat **in nimios belli civilis amores**

so he spoke, and moved

[10] Leigh, 273.

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the sharp spurs of anger and excited the youth's

heat **into excessive love of civil war**

Cato wants to explain to Brutus the morality of his decision. He does not want to spur him to love of civil war. Even though he succeeds in persuading Brutus of the justice of his decision, the full extent of Brutus' reaction is not within Cato's control.

In book 9, we see Cato grappling with this phenomenon anew. When Pompey's son hears the news of his father's death he delivers a speech demanding the destruction of Egypt. Cato successfully counters the younger Magnus' plea, but he does more than simply refute the speaker's position, he changes his mind. Cato's speech is given to the reader only in a one-line summary, together with its effect (9.166): *sed Cato laudatam iuvenis conpescuit iram* ('but Cato quelled the anger of the youth, even as he praised it'). The unpredictability of human psychology may mean that he accomplishes unintended results. Conversely, as in the case of what was, in effect, a retreat before the power of the *dipsas*, Cato may sometimes have to yield to the reality that he cannot make his men more than they are. The fact that he is willing to use evasion, rather than simply berate his men into enduring the withering spectacle of their comrade's grisly death, also tells against Johnson's view that Cato is unyielding in his devotion to a fanatical extreme of conduct. Cato makes adjustments where necessary.

Cato's narrative represents the fullest expression in Lucan of what Catherine Belsey has called the 'interrogative text'. Belsey distinguishes three kinds of text: the declarative, the imperative, and the interrogative. The classic realist novel is the foremost example of the first category. Generally, the second consists of sermons, political

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speeches, and the like. The third category consists of those examples of literature that call into question their own truth claims and eschew a hierarchy of voices, the hallmark of the classic realist novel and of the declarative category generally.[11]

The different sorts of invincibility that appear to attend both Cato and Caesar are each subverted in various ways, although, as we shall see, not necessarily with the same result. Cato's moments of limitation and triumph, no less than Caesar's, create questions, which broad categorical claims cannot easily resolve. These questions are to be answered by the audience, which must parse the sorts of subversion that attend each character. In brief, the audience must answer the questions implicit in Lucan's interrogative text.

Let us recall at this point Conte's distinction between the *Aeneid* and the *BC*, on the basis of a hierarchy in voice.[12] Conte notes that Virgil relativizes the narrative in respect to the viewpoint of each character, creating sympathy even for the hero's antagonists, but not permitting dialogue between those points of view. As a result, the narrative relativized to Aeneas is preserved in a protective isolation from the claims and accusations of other voices and therefore holds a position of authority over the other perspectives. Relative, at least, to the *BC*, the *Aeneid* may be considered akin to the declarative text.

Lucan, on the other hand, allows his characters to be confronted by contrary vantage points. The hesitation of Caesar's troops, which Laelius overcomes, Cato's conversion of a resistant Brutus, the hestitation in Pompey's troops that overcomes

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[11] C. Belsey (2002) *Critical Practice*, New York, 83. On the interrogative text generally, see pp. 78-94.

[12] Reviewed in the introduction.

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Pompey, or the enthusiasm stoked by Cicero before Pharsalus that also overcomes Pompey – each of these moments consists of a penetration of one perspective into the domain of another perspective, resulting in a change to the agenda of the latter. Caesar is more effective, on the whole, at repelling contrary claims than Pompey, but not impervious, as we see in book 1 and again in book 10. In this connection, the usefulness of the interrogative approach is that it allows the limitations of Pompey, Caesar, and Cato to deepen the richness and complexity of the poem's engagement with its theme. It also equips the reader to deal with the changes encountered in the poem's last two books.

Acoreus

Acoreus' speech can be taken, although the narrator does not insist on it, as an authentication of truth. The narrator's neutrality allows one to dismiss its relevance. Lucan, however, creates ways in which it may be seen to be highly relevant. Cato's narrative is greatly empowered when read in conjunction with it. In the introduction, I sketched a relationship between Seneca's excursus on the Nile in the *Naturales Quaestiones*, including its moralizing preface to Lucilius, and Acoreus' speech. Part of the obliquity of the speech's deployment in the poem is owing to its connection with Seneca's treatise. One's estimation of the moral authority of Acoreus' text is related to one's estimation of the moral authority of Seneca's.

There are other sources of authorization, however, which ought to be taken into account. Acoreus' speech offers an intellectual framework for understanding Caesar's 'failure' in book 10. The relationship between the speech and the other events of book 10 is not made explicit, which means that the very idea of a relationship between the two

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sections of text remains in question. This is not a difficulty, if one accepts the *BC* as an interrogative text. Caesar's display of weakness in book 10, which was sketched in the introduction, is largely a construct of the poem. It is a result of the fact that Caesar has been represented with all the hyperbole at the poet's command as invincible for nine and a half books. Yet, in the last few hundred lines of the poem, he is spectacularly vulnerable. This representation of Caesar, if we accept 10.546 as an intentional conclusion, acts as the poem's trap for its villain, in which the *pudor* of Caesar's fear and confusion, augmented by his hyperbolic invincibility hitherto, inspires the *invidia* (*nemesis* script) of the audience against him.

What is Acoreus' connection to this? First, we must explore his connection to the issue of civil war. A priest at Ptolemy's court, Acoreus is presented as pious elder, whose good character is demonstrated by his argument in favor of sparing Pompey. In this brief episode Acoreus takes a stand on an issue pertaining to the civil war, which prefaces our understanding of his later interaction with Caesar (8.474-81):

> consilii uix tempus erat; tamen omnia monstra
> Pellaeae coiere domus, quos inter Acoreus
> iam placidus senio fractisque modestior annis
> (hunc genuit custos Nili crescentis in arua
> Memphis uana sacris; illo cultore deorum
> lustra suae Phoebes non unus uixerat Apis)
> consilii uox prima fuit, meritumque fidemque
> sacraque defuncti iactauit pignora patris.

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> scarcely was there time for a council; nevertheless all the creatures
> of the Pellaean house came together, among whom was Acoreus
> now becalmed by old age and rather humble as a result of his broken years
> (Memphis, pointless in its sacred rites, the guardian of the Nile as it rises
> into the fields, gave him birth; while he was keeper of the gods,
> more than one Apis had lived the period of its own Phoebe),
> his voice was the first of the council, and he advocated just recompense
> and loyalty and the holy pledges of the [king's] dead father.

Subdued by old age, Acoreus is reverent to the gods, mindful of the promises made to Pompey by the elder Ptolemy, and apparently devoted to morally upright behavior in general. These values and their display in this specific episode suggest that, even though the subject matter of his Nile speech is obscure, it may also be seen to have moral content. It is, after all, an address to the man, who most benefited from the murder of Pompey, for whose life Acoreus pleaded.

Acoreus also represents a conventional type of authority figure in the epic tradition. Such a character is responsible for transferring knowledge, as well as the authority implicit in the possession of such knowledge. The figure of epistemological authority has its antecedents in Homer. In the *Odyssey*, Tiresias and Circe fulfill similar functions as sources of significant knowledge for the hero. The transfer of epistemological authority in epic may occur in dreams, as in Ennius' dream of Homer in *Annales* 1; as communion with the dead (the *Odyssey*'s *nekuia* or Virgil's meeting of

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Anchises and Aeneas in the underworld); or through direct consultation with a figure endowed with particular wisdom, such as in Ovid's speech of Pythagoras in *Metamorphoses* 15.[13]

Acoreus falls into this last category. Although Acoreus is derived from the wisdom figures of epic tradition, within the *BC*, I suggest that he is meant to be part of a wide-ranging category of epistemological authority. This category includes the Libyan in book 4, from whom Curio hears the myth of Hercules and Antaeus, the poem's oracles (Delphic Phoebus and Jupiter-Ammon), as well as its prophets and diviners, such as Arruns, Nigidius Figulus, the matron, Phemonoe and Erichtho.

Acoreus, insofar as he is the representative of natural philosophy and its interactions with history, resembles Ovid's Pythagoras rather more than other sources of epistemological authority in the epic tradition. This too is relevant to a discussion of the poem's end. Hardie notes that Virgil, in deliberate response to Ennius, situates his major bequeathal of epistemological authority to the middle of the narrative, in his account of the underworld. Ovid, in turn, places his at the end of the narrative.[14] The similarity between the categories of knowledge which Pythagoras and Acoreus convey may also point to a similar function. Each sets forth the intellectual framework for the poem's conclusion. Further, it is possible that Lucan chose to follow Ovid by his natural

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[13] Philip Hardie (1997) "Questions of authority: the invention of tradition in Ovid's *Metamorphoses* 15," in *The Roman Cultural Revolution*, edd. T. Habinek & A. Schiesaro, Cambridge, 182-98.

[14] Ibid., 186.

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philosophic discourse in his poem's final book. This last is, of course, speculative, but worth considering.

In a manner consistent with what is perhaps a normative Roman bias against a different culture, the narrator slights Acoreus' Memphitic origins and, by extension, the competency – if not the character – of Acoreus himself. This is in agreement with the narrator's negative assessments of Memphitic astronomy versus that of Nigidius Figulus (1.639-41): *at Figulus, cui cura deos secretaque caeli / nosse fuit, quem non stellarum Aegyptia Memphis / aequaret uisu numerisque <seque>ntibus astra* ('but Figulus, who possessed knowledge of the gods and secrets of the sky, whom Egyptian Memphis could not equal in observation and calculation of the stars'). Lucan sets up the epistemological authority of this Egyptian as a surprise to the reader and a contradiction of the narrator's casual chauvinism.[15]

Acoreus includes Caesar on a list of tyrants that have sought the Nile's source. The list includes Sesostris, Cambyses, and Alexander (10.268-69). Alexander, Acoreus tells us, envied the Nile (10.272-74): *summus Alexander regum, quem Memphis adorat, / **inuidit** Nilo, misitque per ultima terrae / Aethiopum lectos* ('Alexander, the highest of kings, whom Memphis worships, **envied** the Nile, and sent chosen men through the furthest reaches of the land of the Ethiopians'). The reason for his envy appears to be

[15] This is not to suggest that Lucan is free of such cultural prejudices, but rather that he is interested in appropriating different manifestations of Egypt, both in its Macedonian and indigenous manifestations, as contrastive models for Rome.

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jealousy of its grandeur. Its divinity, its geographical expanse, and its mystery manifest themselves to the curious as a form of resistance.

It is, however, possible that the language of 10.268-69 draws attention to the basis of the rivalry between the king and the Nile. The *quem*, at 10.268, may refer either to Alexander in the previous clause, or to the Nile, in the following one.[16] It is possible that the ambiguity of reference adds an atmosphere of zero-sum rivalry, insofar as *quem* specifies the object of Memphis' worship. Alexander, or the *felix praedo* ('fortunate pirate') as the narrator calls him, is not the sort to accept competition for his status, which, since he held divine status, includes Memphis' worship.[17]

This is akin to Alexander's other example of *invidia* (10.43-46): *qui secum* ***invidia****, quo totum ceperat orbem, / abstulit imperium, nulloque herede relicto / totius fati lacerandas praebuit urbes* ('who carried off with himself, **out of envy**, the power [*imperium*] by which he had seized the whole world, and in as much as there was no inheritor of his whole destiny left behind, he gave up the cities to be torn apart'). The manuscripts read *qua* for *quo*, making *invidia* the antecedent and the cause of his pursuit of world empire. Noting two other instances, including the ambiguous *quem* above

[16] Housman (1927) *ad loc.*, rejected *quos*, referring to *regum* (the Ptolemaic kings), in favor of *quem*, which he took to reference the Nile. Braund (1991) *ad loc.*, considers it to reference Alexander.

[17] Although, on my reading, this is most likely the reason for the ambiguous *quem*, the notion that the Nile's superior greatness is the reason for Alexander's envy does not depend on accepting it as a purposely ambiguous reference to both Alexander and the Nile.

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(which he takes to refer to the Nile), Housman replaces *qua* with the proleptic *quo*, refering to *imperium*.

The primary basis for the emendation, however, is Housman's own analysis of Alexander's motives; namely, that he conquered out of ambition, rather than envy. Alexander's envy, Housman argues in a note, is directed at any potential heir, who might share status with him simply through the act of inheritance.[18] The manuscript reading, which makes *invidia* Alexander's motive, is consistent with Lucan's notion of the *invida fatorum series*; i.e. *invidia* is the primary basis for the immoral ambition that has shaped human history. If Housman is correct, however, his emendation also makes a useful parallel for Alexander's envy of the Nile, because it specifies that his envy is directed against the sharing of status. Alexander wishes to drink from the Nile's source and thereby to remove its mystery, diminish its status, and exalt himself at its expense.

The lines immediately preceding the passage on Alexander's envy of an inheritor address his ambitions concerning the Nile and nature's response to him (10.37-42):

non illi flamma nec undae
nec sterilis Libye nec Syrticus obstitit Hammon.
isset in occasus mundi devexa secutus
ambissetque polos Nilumque a fonte bibisset:
occurrit suprema dies, naturaque solum
hunc potuit finem vaesano ponere regi;

[18] Housman (1927) *ad loc.*

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neither flame nor waves nor

barren Libya nor Ammon in the Syrtes obstructed that man.

he would have gone into the west, after following the curve of the world,

and circumnavigated the poles and drunk from the source of the Nile:

the final day met him, and nature was able to put

this one boundary/end upon the mad king.

Only later, at 10.273, does Acoreus tell us that Alexander envied the Nile. Thus, both mentions of his *invidia* are associated with the Nile. The second is the explicit statement of his envy of the river. The first is connected by the location of its mention in the narrative. Alexander's refusal to designate a successor immediately follows the description of his ambition to drink from the river's source and nature's imposition of a *finis* upon him to prevent him from accomplishing that goal.

Alexander and Caesar occupy a similar paradigm: both seek world empire, both die with their inheritance at issue,[19] both seek the source of the Nile, and both are given to *invidia*. The audience may infer, as I have argued in the introduction, that Caesar envies the Nile, much as he envies anything else which is beyond his grasp or greater than himself. In this, he and Alexander are alike. Yet, I would also argue that Alexander's envy of the Nile is included in order to hint that Caesar shares the same attitude toward it.

It is therefore relevant that Alexander's death, as the narrator tells it, is the result of his intention to find the source of the Nile. The scene of Caesar in peril on Pharos is a

[19] The particulars of each case are, of course, quite different, but the general result, internecine war between the candidates, is the relevant fact for Lucan.

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convenient conclusion to book 10's theme of the fate of the envious overreacher. On this reading, the nexus of Alexander's desire to find the source of the Nile and his consequent death tells us how to interpret the Nile speech as an explanatory preface to the subsequent downturn in Caesar's fortunes in the same book, which culminates in a prolepsis of his assassination. Thus, the dramatic logic of book 10 rests on the connection between Caesar's quest for the Nile, which Acoreus parries in his speech, and the events that follow.

A.-M. Loupiac has observed that this opposition between the Nile and the sun, which Acoreus describes, serves as a metaphorical inscription of civil strife in the very fabric of the cosmos.[20] The symbolic resonance of the speech with the subject of the poem can be pressed further than this. The Nile's status as an object of Caesar's desire draws him into the drama of its operations. An important section of Acoreus' speech describes the Nile's role as a force capable of preserving Egypt from the oppression of the sun at the height of summer. Solar Phoebus, in the role it plays in Acoreus' natural philosophical drama, serves as a metaphor for Caesar's desire for conquest and discovery. In his speech to Caesar in book 10, Acoreus explains that the Nile floods in summer in order to relieve the world from the heat of the sun (10.219-37).

Acoreus' brief appearance in book 8 connects his character with the Nile's most striking feature, its flood. A passage, proleptic of Acoreus' speech in book 10, refers to his birthplace Memphis as guardian of the rising (*crescentis*) Nile (8.477-78): *hunc genuit*

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[20] On the conflict between the Nile and the sun as a metaphor for civil war, see A. Loupiac (1998) *La Poétique des Éléments dans La Pharsale de Lucain*, Brussels, 149-51

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custos Nili ***crescentis in arua*** */ Memphis uana sacris* ('**Memphis**, vain in its holy rites, guardian of the Nile **rising into its fields**, gave you birth'). The topic of the Nile's flood references Acoreus' speech in a general way, but the language of this passage also has rather specific correspondences to the final two lines of the speech (10.330-31): *prima tibi* ***campos*** *permittit apertaque Memphis /* ***rura*** *modumque uetat* ***crescendi*** *ponere ripas* ('**Memphis** allows you its **plains** first and its open **fields** and forbids your banks from placing a limit on your **rising**').

Acoreus is connected to the Nile through his knowledge about it, through his place of birth, but most of all, through his awareness, expressed allegorically, of what the Nile means in the context of civil war. Acoreus' knowledge is also given particular relevance by a *sententia* used by Ptolemy's chief minister Pothinus. Arguing that Pompey should be put to death, Pothinus offers a cosmic moral law to justify such a course of action (8.487-88): *sidera terra / ut distant et flamma mari, sic utile recto* ('as far as the stars from earth and as fire from the sea, so far is the practical from the good').

Lucan does not give Acoreus' first speech, in which he argues against Pothinus that Pompey should not be murdered, only its themes (8.481-82): *consilii vox prima fuit, meritumque fidemque / sacraque defuncti iactavit pignora patris* ('his was the first voice of the council, and he emphasized merit and loyalty and the sacred pledges of the dead monarch'). Given that Lucan has occluded Acoreus' speech in this two-line summary, we do not know if he employs his rich store of natural philosophy in any way. That is reserved for book 10.

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Particularly striking is the fact that Pothinus' example for his argument on the connection between nature and morality is directly contradicted both by the epic's first simile and by Acoreus' speech in book 10. A.-M. Loupiac notes that this is the only time in the poem when the elements are described as being separate.[21] In the first simile's description, the fall of the Republic as cosmic destruction, Pothinus' examples – the distance between earth and the stars and between sea and fire – are combined in a single event (1.75-76): *ignea pontum / astra petent* ('the fiery stars will seek the ocean'). Acoreus addresses the phenomenon of fire's conflict with water through its theory of the Nile as a divinely ordained counterweight against the aggressive power of the sun in summer.

When Pothinus roots his advocacy of amoral practicality in this image of the cosmos, he sets his argument against the cosmological terms of the poem, which is primarily defined by the mixture of opposite elements. Acoreus, whose defense plea Pothinus defeats in book 8, describes in book 10 a model of how the Nile's waters and the sun's fires meet in annual strife. The relationship between Acoreus' speech in book 10 and Pothinus' in book 8 is emblematic of the role of the Nile speech in the poem overall. Acoreus does not resolve any surface issue. He does not provide Caesar with a map to the Nile's fount. Rather, he puts the Nile in a cosmic context and in this way comments implicitly on Caesar's assumptions about the world and his relationship to it, just as he also comments upon Pothinus' assumptions about the world.

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[21] Loupiac (1998) 40.

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Pothinus' understanding of nature and morality is also firmly in opposition to Cato's views (9.578-79): *estque dei sedes, nisi terra et pontus et aer / et caelum et* ***virtus***? ('does divinity have a residence other than earth and sea and air and sky and **moral excellence**'). A.-M. Loupiac notes that Cato's understanding of divinity assimilates *virtus* to the natural elements.[22] The subject of nature and its relations to the divine is introduced both by villains and pious characters alike. When we come to the Nile speech, however, we meet the most thorough exposition of nature's relationship to the divine. Further, the echoes in the Nile speech of the narrator's description of Acoreus in book 8, when he pleaded for Pompey's life, indicate that it is a passage of significant moral relevance to the events of the civil war.

Cato and Critical Discontent

The possibility that Cato may be inadequate to the duties of an epic hero or his conduct inappropriate has gained currency in recent years. Hardie observes that there is something "megalomaniac in Cato's altruism."[23] Leigh argues that Cato, for all his holy wisdom, is ultimately shown to be impotent against the trials of the Libyan desert, because he is unable to save his men from the snakes.[24] If we follow W. R. Johnson's reading of Cato, however, his rhetoric is also problematic as a source of narrative authority:[25]

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[22] Ibid., 205.

[23] Hardie (1993) 11.

[24] Leigh (1997) 273.

[25] Johnson (1987) 62.

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> Instead of a holy Stoic patiently enduring the bafflements of spurious Fortune in action, we have this angry martinet – self-righteous, brutal, and theatrical. For him, success in one's struggles does not increase virtue, and listening to him, one senses that he desires defeat, since defeat by the wicked world is proof of one's own perfection.

Johnson argues that, in the figure of Cato, Lucan has chosen caricature over character.[26] It is easier to deny this reading than to refute it. How to interpret Cato's monolithic, high-volume morality is challenging to say the least and depends to an uncomfortable degree on what sort of politics or aesthetics the critic wishes to ascribe to the poet.

We would gain more from the view that the conflict among the various critics reflects an intention in the text. As I discuss in chapter 2, with specific reference to the encomium, critics have shown that it is possible to attribute a wide variety of political stances to this poet. At one level, this stance may seem most in agreement with Masters' argument for a schizophrenic narrative voice. The character of Cato, which Masters does not treat, however, also offers perhaps the strongest obstacle to accepting that argument as the last word on Lucan's narrative style. Masters' notion of the schizophrenic voice requires antithetical, defining poles – Caesar and Pompey – to organize the narrative along factional lines. I think Masters is right as far as his argument goes; however, we must also go further and consider the impact of Cato.

Yet, even within the optimistic interpretation of this character, classification of Cato is a complex business. Frederick Ahl reads Cato as a genuine attempt at

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[26] Ibid., 64.

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representing a Republican hero. On this reading, the character of Cato betrays the degree to which his creator's imagination has been predetermined by nearly a century of Julio-Claudian rule: "... Lucan, while rejecting the imperial expropriation of the Delphic god, is creating new, if in his opinion, nobler "mortal" gods. He has been defined, in a sense, by the very imperial value system he opposes."[27] This view derives largely from Ahl's insistence on an anti-Neronian poem. I explore here the possibility that Lucan is aware of this element in his characterization. I suggest that Lucan's Cato, as a mortal worthy of deification and a single individual capable of correcting and clarifying the identity of Rome, as well as being a true *triumphator* – is an available paradigm for a late Julio-Claudian *princeps*.[28] This paradigm is also consistent with the vision of a Neronian future put forward in the encomium.

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[27] Ahl (1994) "Apollo: Cult and Prophesy in Ovid, Lucan, and Statius," in *Apollo: Origins and Influences*, Arizona, 113-34, 129.

[28] As Ahl, 129, notes, Lucretius precedes Lucan in proposing a supremely wise mortal for deification. In book 2, Cato is described (2.284-85) *at illi / arcano sacras reddit Cato pectore voces* ('but Cato answered him with a holy voice from the shrine within his breast'). Ahl connects this with the *De Rerum Natura*, in which Lucretius describes the supremely enlightened thinkers of Greece (*DRN* 1.737-39): *ex adyto tamquam cordis responsa dedere / sanctius et multo certa ratione magis quam / Pythia quae tripodi a Phoebi lauroque profatur.* ('they gave their responses as if from the shrine of their heart in a fashion more holy and with rationality much more certain than the Pythia who spoke from the tripod of Phoebus and with the authority of his laurel.'). Ahl (1976) 239: "Lucretius almost apologizes for his boldness with *tamquam* (as if). What is a simile in Lucretius becomes a simple statement in Cato. Cato is indeed an oracle."

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This, in turn, raises the issue of Cato's larger role in the Lucanian version of history. Cato casts himself in book 2 as what, in Girard's terminology, is called the sacrificial substitute. When undifferentiation dissolves the structure of society and civil violence ensues, a victim must be chosen to act as a sacrificial substitute for society. This is one means of curing rampant social undifferentiation, which is (in Girard's model) the result of envious mimetic desire.

For Brutus, Cato's decision to join the Pompeian faction lends de facto justification to the war. Brutus, who refers to Pompey only as (2.278) *duce privato* ('a general who holds no office'), considers Cato's enlistment on Pompey's side as achieving nothing more than the war's justification. Cato counters Brutus' view with a powerful argument for why even civil war should be joined. Cato finds distinction where Brutus sees none (2.286-323). He confirms the acuity of Brutus' doubts about Pompey, while explaining how he may make a difference (2. 319-323):

quin publica signa ducemque
Pompeium sequimur? nec, si fortuna fauebit,
hunc quoque totius sibi ius promittere mundi
non bene conpertum est: ideo me milite uincat
ne sibi se uicisse putet.

why should I not follow the national
standards and Pompey as general? I know well that he, if fortune
will favor, also promises himself command of the whole
world: therefore he will conquer with me as his soldier,

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lest he think he has conquered for himself.

Philip Hardie examines this exchange in connection with the Girardean notion of the sacrificial substitute:[29]

> By standing out alone as the one 'soldier' who is not just the passive instrument of his general, Cato will ensure that in victory Pompey cannot represent himself as the solipsistic *unus homo*.

The loss of distinction that leads to the breakdown of the cultural, social, and symbolic order, must be expiated by sacrifice.[30]

Cato proposes himself as the sacrificial substitute for the city (2.304-5): *sic eat: immites Romana piacula divi / plena ferant, nullo fraudemus sanguine bellum* ('so let it be: let the unpitying gods take full Roman expiations, let us not cheat the war of blood'); (2.312-13) *hic redimat sanguis populos, hac caede luatur, / quidquid Romani meruerunt pendere mores* ('may my blood ransom the nations, my slaughter wash what Roman wrongs have earned'); (2.317-18): *hic dabit, hic pacem iugulus **finem**que malorum / gentibus Hesperiis* ('this, my throat will offer peace and the end of evils for Hesperian peoples'). Cato conceives of the self-sacrificial act as closural, not only for himself, but also for the larger catastrophe he seeks to expiate. His commitment to historical closure for the civil war corresponds to his dedication to the *modus / finis* (2.380-81 above).

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[29] Hardie (1993) *The Epic Successors of Virgil*, Cambridge, 30-31.

[30] Ibid., 27-32, for a discussion of sacrificial substitutes in Roman epic in general and in Lucan in particular.

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Yet, Hardie also argues that Cato, in history, denies himself the status of sacrificial substitute by virtue of the manner of his death. By committing suicide, he is both sacrificer and sacrificed, confounding important Girardean distinctions.[31] This issue must remain a matter for speculation, since we cannot know for certain whether Lucan intended to include Cato's suicide or how he would have represented it, if he had.

On my reading, sacrificial substitution would be impossible in the universe of the *BC* because of the *invida fatorum series*. Since envy underpins the civil war and is rooted in the order of things, no single death can unravel this envious *series*, even though the effort to combat *invidia* to whatever extent possible remains of critical importance to human society. For this reason, I consider it unlikely that Cato's suicide could have been presented as a solution to the problems Lucan sets forth in books 1-10. The approach Cato does employ is to use reasoned, ethical rhetoric to lead his soldiers, and to confine his use of nemesis *invidia* to the defense of his soldiers' best interests.

Cato and the Pompeian Mutiny

In this episode, we see the anti-type of the previous orator-crowd scenes, in which the moral dynamic of Virgil's statesman simile was reversed. Caesar, as I argued in chapter 2, appeals to a lower form of self-interest in his book 1 address to his army, to little effect. Laelius understands that the issues involved in forming an army into a criminal mob do not involve appealing to the agency of the crowd. Rather, the crowd must be convinced to surrender their agency to someone else. Hence, one must not focus

[31] Ibid., 31.

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on the mob's actual situation and the issues facing each of its members, but rather separate them from their situation. Cato emphatically reverses this process. His approach, however, greatly complicates the task of commanding the hearts and minds of the wearied Pompeian troops.

This nexus of moral rectitude and military disadvantage is not coincidental. Laelius, Petreius, and Vulteius were so successful at rousing their soldiers to civil war fury because they were able to connect the envious desires of their troops to their own objectives. Therefore, unless coupled with the incitement of envious desire, exhortations to civil war are a difficult sell. Cato expects the troops to commit to participation in civil war, which, as they have so far experienced it, is the enactment of envious destruction. Cato has his own rationale for joining civil war and does not want to use the negative passions, which have proven to be a necessary element in previous attempts to stampede unwilling soldiers into civil war. The danger of this approach is that Cato's method of waging civil war requires a level of thought and moral commitment, which possibly only Cato can produce. This then is the practical side of Cato's struggle against envy – applying philosophical leadership to the philosophically disinclined.

Accordingly, no sooner has Cato finished speaking than his troops are already setting sail for home (9.217-52). Cato's soldiers explicitly reject martial passion as a basis for continuing the fight (9.227-28): *nos, Cato, da ueniam, Pompei duxit in arma, / non belli ciuilis amor* ('forgive us, Cato, Pompey led us into arms, not the love of civil war'). The opening lines of the Pompeian spokesman's speech well describe Cato's ethical bind. The cult of personality is an especially potent generator of envious desire.

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In life Pompey was a dynast and, although (in Lucan's account) a less effective one than Caesar, he also fostered a cult of personality. One of Caesar's successes in the *BC* is to coordinate his cult of personality with the rhetorical deployment of *invidia* so as to create a *belli ciuilis amor*. Pompey is unable to bring the two together. At first, in book 2, he attempts and fails to transform his *invidia* into their enthusiasm for battle. Finally in book 7, Cicero unites the two elements Laelius-fashion at exactly the moment when Pompey needs to keep them apart, thus precipitating a rush into battle and the Republic's destruction at Pharsalus.

Faced with desertion, Cato not only argues against the deed itself, but against its rationale, directly addressing the issue of desire (9.256-63):

'ergo pari uoto gessisti bella, iuuentus,
tu quoque pro dominis, et Pompeiana fuisti
non Romana manus? quod non in regna laboras,
quod tibi, non ducibus, uiuis morerisque, quod orbem
adquiris nulli, quod iam tibi uincere tutum est,
bella fugis quaerisque iugum ceruice uacanti
et nescis sine rege pati.

did you wage wars, men, with a similar degree of desire –
on behalf of tyrants – were you Pompeian troops,
rather than Roman? because you do not work for kingship,
because you live and die for yourselves, rather than generals, because

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you conquer the world for no one, because now it is safe to conquer for
yourselves, you flee war and seek a yoke for your lonely neck
and do not know how to endure without a king.

The implicit answer is yes, which shames the army into service for the Republic. It is this desire that binds them, however ineffectively, to Pompey and, with his death, dissolves their commitment to the war. Cato's rhetorical challenge is to replace their amoral basis for fighting with an ethically sound argument. Toward this end, Cato uses shame as a means of persuasion (9.265-67): *unum fortuna reliquit / iam tribus e dominis. pudeat: plus regia Nili / contulit in leges et Parthi militis arcus* ('as of now fortune has spared but one of the three dynasts. be ashamed! the kingdom of the Nile and Parthian soldier's bow have done more for the laws than you'). Unlike Caesar at Placentia, however, Cato shames his men into fighting for themselves, rather than for their commander. *Pudor* and *invidia* are here used to reconnect the soldiers with their true self-interest.

One might assimilate Cato's rhetorical intervention to the negative examples we have seen so far on the grounds that he is a solitary individual converting his soldiers' resistance to civil war into commitment to it. Yet differences must also be acknowledged. Cato does not frighten his army with the prospect of usurpers, as does Caesar in book 5. Instead, he makes apparent to them why they should be ashamed of what they are doing and why, from the standpoint of their own interests, they are foolish to abandon the fight.

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The Assimilation of Literary Antecedents

Lucan fashions Cato's relationship to Callimachus through geographical reference to Cato's home city of Cyrene. After Cato succeeds in quelling the mutiny, he observes the need to keep his troops busy. The broader challenge underlying the mutiny remains – namely, how to keep the troops in the fight without resorting to *invidia* as a means of connecting his soldiers to his agenda, by disconnecting them from their own.

Cato's narrative addresses several important issues, which Lucan invokes through his deployment of a Callimachean intertext; in particular, intervention, narrative length, and self-reliance versus cultivation of oracular or musagetic inspiration. In book 9, Cato stages an intervention akin to that of Apollo in books 1 and 5, but to far more significant effect. Largely due to Cato's narrative, book 9 is by far the longest book in the poem (1108 vv.). The nearest equivalents are the books immediately preceding, books 7 and 8 (both 872 vv.).

Books 1 and 5, the two books in which Apollo appears, both times in a closural capacity, are each marked by brevity. Book 1 is the shortest book in the poem (695 vv.), except for book 10, while book 5 (815 vv.) is the only book, other than book 10, which is shorter than the one before it (book 4: 824 vv.). The books which include Apollo transacting a Callimachean gesture of closure are the ones marked by brevity. In book 9, Cato delivers an oracular speech at Siwa, in place of consulting the oracle of Jupiter-Ammon. The combination of replacing divine theophany with accomplishing the opposite of Apollo's closural aesthetic suggests that Cato is not only taking on divine duties, he is changing the terms of the poem's discourse.

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Lucan establishes Cato's displacement and transcendance of Callimachus through the metaphorical dimension of Cato's conquest of Callimachus' hometown (9.294-99):

iamque actu belli non doctas ferre quietem
constituit mentes **serie**que agitare **laborum**. 295
primum litoreis miles lassatur harenis.
proximus in muros et moenia **Cyrenarum**
est labor: exclusus nulla se vindicat ira,
poenaque de victis sola est vicisse Catoni.

and now he decided to busy minds unskilled in enduring
rest with the business of war and the **chain of labors**.
first the soldiery was wearied on the sandy shores.
the next labor was against the walls and ramparts
of Cyrene: shut out, he avenged himself without anger,
and the only penalty for the conquered was that Cato had conquered them.

The conquest of Cyrene indicates symbolically the conquest of the inadequate poetics of Callimachus by the new poetics that Cato represents. The ideological and ethical content of Cato's narrative becomes a positive counter-force to Lucan's caricatured, Callimachean aesthetic. This aesthetic, I have suggested, favors early closure for its own sake and, in so doing, puts pressure upon the narrative to conform to the ambitions of Caesar, who wishes to enforce closure on the Republic.

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We should read Cato's explicit confrontation with the threat of *invidia* in light of this metaphorical reading of his conquest of Cyrene. The confrontation with *invidia* occurs in a scene drawn from the Alexander tradition.[32] As Cato leads his men across the Libyan desert, a soldier spots a trickle of water, scoops it up in his helmet and offers it to Cato, who angrily refuses:

> squalebant pulvere fauces
> cunctorum, minimumque tenens dux ipse liquoris
> **invidiosus** erat. 'mene' inquit 'degener unum
> miles in hac turba vacuum virtute putasti?
>
> the throats of all were coated
> with dust, and the general holding even a very little water
> was an **object of envy**. 'degenerate soldier,' he said, 'did you think
> that I alone in this crowd was without courage?

This passage makes explicit the key difference between Cato and every other leader in the poem. Unlike the others, Cato acts with apparent awareness of *invidia*'s dangers. Were Cato to have accepted the water and become *invidiosus*, he would suffer the equivalent of what Caesar does at the end of the poem, where Caesar's uncertainty undercuts his reputation for invincibility, incurring *invidia*.

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[32] Rutz (1970) 'Lucan und die Rhetorik', in *Entretiens de la Fondation Hardt* 12. *Lucain*, Geneva, 233-65. 233-49. Curtius Rufus, Plutarch, *Alexander* 42; Arrian, *Anabasis* 6.26; Curtius Rufus, 7.5.9-12.

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I would like to offer a further interpretation of this passage. There is a possible pun, at 9.505, on the Greek word *mênin*, which is, of course, the first word of the *Iliad*. The most immediate clue in the text to this pun is the fact that Cato is described as *concitus ira* at 9.509, in a line describing the mood with which he utters the denunciation of the soldier, who offers him the water. This is the only time in the poem when *ira* is ascribed to Cato and it has never been explained.

I wish to address possible objections to its relevance to the narrative and to its intentionality. It could, for instance, be the simple and straightforward product of the poet wanting to follow *mene* with *inquit*. In my view, this is not a valid objection in and of itself. Lucan was not forced to arrange his words as he did. This does not mean it was inevitably intentional, either. The deciding factor ought to be the significance of such a pun for the poem.

The arrangement of the pun between Cato's *mênis* and the narrator's *inquit* suggests that both Cato and the narrator are together pronouncing their Iliadic anger. We saw in chapter 1 how the narrator assimilates himself to the emperor through ambiguity in the case of *vates* at 1.63, either nominative referring to himself or vocative referring to Nero. Here, at 9.505, the narrator assimilates himself to Cato, immediately prior to the episode at Siwa in which he is going to add significantly to what he said to Nero in the encomium.

The inexplicable anger of this Stoic saint is supremely metaliterary, at two levels. It alludes to the *Iliad* and epic aperture, a point to which I shall return momentarily, and it is directed against the imposition of envy, in the form of an otherwise unimposing trickle

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of water (9.504) *minimumque ... liquoris* ('and the tiniest bit of water...'). Whereas Caesar's envy drives him to uncover the mystery of the world's largest river, Cato must avoid incurring envy through rejecting a gift of the tiniest trickle. Lucan was aware perhaps of the harsh standard to which his Cato would be held. The merest infraction of his standards would bring *invidia* down on Cato.

The rejection of the minuscule quantity of water also represents a rejection of the Callimachean legacy as an adequate counterbalance to Caesar's narrative.[33] The *minimum liquoris* is the polar opposite of the tumid river, derived from Callimachus' Euphrates. Caesar's narrative has been consistently represented in terms inimical to a Callimachean aesthetic; however, the poet's response via the Catonian narrative is not to fall back to the opposite aesthetic, simply because it is opposite, but to innovate.

Cato's rejection of the offer of water coincides with a punning allusion to the first word of the *Iliad*. This reference to epic aperture via an allusion to the beginning of the *Iliad* anticipates Cato's intervention in the grove. This allusion is, in turn, joined explicitly to the issue of *invidia* (9.503-10):

> squalebant pulvere fauces
> cunctorum, minimumque tenens dux ipse liquoris
> **inuidiosus** erat. **'mene' in**quit 'degener unum
> miles in hac turba vacuum virtute putasti?
> usque adeo mollis primisque caloribus inpar

[33] As in the case of Lucan's flattening out of Ovid's *deducite* into a simple *duc*, the poet continues to focus on quantity rather than quality.

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sum visus? quanto poena tu dignior ista es,
qui populo sitiente bibas!" sic concitatus **ira**
excussit galeam, suffecitque omnibus unda.

the throats of all were coated
with dust, and the general holding even a very little water
was an object of envy. 'degenerate soldier,' he said,' did you think
that I alone in this crowd was without courage?
have I seemed so soft and unequal to the first
wave of heat? much more do you earn this punishment,
to drink while the people thirst!" thus stirred by anger,
he knocked away the helmet, and there was enough water for everyone.

There is more here than Cato's harsh commitment to unyielding standards of conduct. Cato realizes that the privilege of receiving water threatens his leadership with the taint of *invidia*. If he drinks while the army thirsts, their *invidia* against him could only be all the more intense, given the standards for which he is famous. To accept the water would undermine the basis of leadership, which he attempts to construct in his harangue against the deserters.

In sum, the principal features of this scene are the avoidence of envious resentment, the rejection of a metapoetic trickle of water, and the shared pronouncement, together with the narrator, of Iliadic anger against the bringer of *invidia*. In this scene, Cato sets the tone for the remainder of the book. His speech at the temple of Jupiter-

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Ammon is a rejection of a similar type of privilege. Labienus exhorts him to speak with Jupiter, because he thinks Cato enjoys a status that makes him worthy of such a consultation. As we shall see, Cato's speech at the shrine debunks the topos of an exclusive Muse-poet relationship. Cato has already ejected *invidia* from his narrative, he does not need to ask a god to do it for him.

Finally, Cato and the narrator use allusion to the *Iliad* to mark this episode and what follows not simply as another event in the *BC*, but as a new notion of epic, a new concept, for instance, of what an epic battle is. The attack of the snakes on Cato's army reads like a parody of a typically bloody Homeric battle scene.[34] As Leigh has shown, however, the point is not a pseudo-Homeric narration of the angle of the spear's entry (or the snake's in this case), but the symbolism of Cato's soldiers in conflict with the passions of civil war. When he rejects the water, Cato, in emphatic combination with the narrator, mark as quintessentially epic a sequence of episodes that will include the most baroque and bizarre moments in the whole poem.

Cato and Autonomous Discourse

Whether too much so, as Johnson might argue, or with too little effect, as Leigh might argue, Cato explicitly dedicates himself to the preservation of moral distinction and proper limits (2.380-81): *hi mores, haec duri inmota Catonis / secta fuit, servare* ***modum finemque*** *tenere* ('this was the character, this is the unmovable rule of Cato, to preserve the mean and to keep the limit'). Perhaps the central Catonian criticism of Pompey is to be found in his eulogy, when Cato criticizes Pompey for failing to observe legal limits

[34] Leigh (1997) 267-73.

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(9.190-91). Pompey is lesser than the *maiores* in regard to *nosse* ***modum*** *iuris* ('knowing the limit of the law'). Preserving the limit is Cato's unmovable rule. The transformation of Lucan's epic discourse, which I suggest comes about through Cato's narrative, rests on his reintroduction of limit and distinction into the narrative of civil chaos.

Cato's dedication to preserving the *modus* of things is relevant at a still more comprehensive metapoetic level. The language of ends and limits in Cato's narrative, as in Acoreus' speech, is relevant to the theme of length and abbreviation in narrative. In this connection let us consider Yun Lee Too's argument for a theme of free and suppressed speech in the *Bellum Civile*.

Too argues that Caesar's precipitation of the civil war indirectly results in the curtailment or elimination of speech.[35] Too draws attention to several instances of censorship in the poem: Arruns the Etruscan haruspex, who refuses to reveal the disasters in store for Rome (1.631-37); the silencing of the Delphic oracle by kings who fear the future (5.113-14), which is matched by Apollo's stifling of his own prophet (5.194-96); and Cato's refusal to consult the oracle of Jupiter-Ammon at Siwa (9.573-74). The exception to this pattern, Too notes, albeit without further comment, is Acoreus' speech to Caesar, in which the Egyptian priest declares that it is *fas* for him to reveal what Caesar wishes to know about the Nile (10.194f.).

Too sees in these instances of censorship an acknowledgement of the external and internal limits to speech in Nero's Rome. This is an oversimplification. I propose that Acoreus' role is an exception to the theme of suppressed speech and, further, that his

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[35] Y. L. Too (1998) *The Idea of Ancient Literary Criticism*, Oxford, 182-83.

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speech is to be understood as complementary to Cato's refusal to consult Jupiter-Ammon. These episodes constitute the only paradigms for anti-invidious discourse in the poem.

A further addition to Too's list should be the self-regulation Lucan asks of Nero in the encomium. As Charles Saylor observes, one of the signal features of the encomium is the fact that the narrator must ask Nero to exercise moderation and self-control, whereas a Horace or a Virgil may assume such behavior from Augustus.[36] The narrator invites the emperor to exercise the virtue, whose only other substantive example in the poem is to be found in Cato's refusal to consult the oracle at Jupiter-Ammon. Although Apollo, particularly in book 5, enforces an early end to narrative discourse, it is distinguished by the absence of a substantive moral rationale, such as Cato offers in the grove. As an example of self-control, Cato, the Republic's final champion, serves as a model for, or a contrast with, Nero.

We should read this passage in connection with both the narrator's address to Nero in the encomium and Acoreus' reply to Caesar (9.528-30):

> **hic quoque nil obstat Phoebo**, cum cardine summo
> stat librata dies; truncum vix protegit arbor:
> tam brevis in medium radiis conpellitur umbra
>
> **here also nothing obstructs Phoebus**, when it is at its apogee
> and the day is in balance; scarcely does the tree protect its trunk:
> its scant shade is driven into the center by Phoebus' rays

[36] Saylor (1998). Discussed in chapter 1.

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This line alludes to the encomium and, possibly, also forward to book 10. This second potential allusion takes the form of a play on words, in which *nil* ('nothing') is a pun on *Nilus* ('Nile').[37] On a second reading, when one knows the significance of the Nile in book 10, one may detect this alternative sense in 9.528: 'here also the **Nile** obstructs Phoebus'.

Cato's autonomy, for those who have already read book 10, is thus compared to the Nile's singular powers of resistance. In the encomium, the narrator requests that Nero balance the weight of the heavens and his wish that the sky be free of clouds (1.57-59):

> **librati** pondera **caeli**
> orbe tene medio; pars aetheris illa sereni
> tota vacet, **nullaeque obstent** a Caesare nubes.
>
> hold the weight of heaven
> in balance in the center of the orb; may that part of the serene ether
> be completely empty, and let no clouds block Caesar's position.

The second scene is from the description of the skies over the grove of Ammon (9.528-30):

> hic quoque nil obstat Phoebo, cum cardine summo
> **stat librata dies**; truncum vix protegit arbor:
> tam brevis in medium radiis conpellitur umbra

[37] Masters [(1992) 67n59] argues for a pun on *Nilus* and *nil* at 4.135. See also Ahl (1985) *Metaformations: Soundplay and Wordplay in Ovid and other Classical poets*, Ithaca, 121-22.

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here also nothing obstructs Phoebus, when it is at its apogee

and the day is in balance; scarcely does the tree protect its trunk:

its scant shade is driven into the center by Phoebus' rays

The conditions for which Lucan hopes in the encomium do in fact exist when Cato reaches the grove. The difference, of course, is that it is explicitly solar Phoebus over the grove and the catasterized Nero in the encomium. Yet Lucan has also stated that the solar chariot is available to Nero, if he wants it.

The symbolism of Phoebus is of particular importance here. Robert Tucker[38] has observed that Apollo is the most frequently referenced god in Lucan, mentioned 123 times variously as Phoebus, Titan, Paean, Apollo, Pythius, brother of Phoebe, and Sol, as well as by the adjective *Phoebeus*. Of all these, the favorite epithet is Phoebus, at 43 occurrences. Of the different contexts in which the epithet Phoebus is used, it refers to his capacity as the sun god 36 times.[39] To this should be added the ambiguity between Phoebus Apollo and solar Phoebus created by the lexical parallels at the endings of books 1 and 2, where Lucan uses a form of Phoebus in combination with a form of *urguo* in the seventeenth lines from the ends of books 1 and 2 respectively.[40]

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[38] R. A. Tucker (1983) "Lucan and Phoebus," *Latomus* 42, 143-51.

[39] Ibid., 143-44.

[40] At 1.676-77, Lucan describes the matron as she undergoes possession by Apollo: ... *et attonitam rapitur matrona per urbem / uocibus his prodens* ***urguentem*** *pectora* ***Phoebum*** ('... and the matron was snatched away through the stunned city revealing with these words that **Phoebus** was **pressing** upon her breast'). At 2.719-20, Lucan describes the dawn, as Pompey's fleet escapes Caesar's barricade at the harbor of Brundisium: *iam* ***Phoebum urguere*** *monebat / non idem Eoi color aetheris*... ('now the changing color of

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Solar Phoebus at its zenith over the grove is a major symbolic parallel for the figure of Nero in the encomium. Lucan reassembles attributes of the encomium relationship at Siwa. Lucan also nuances the allusion to the encomium with the language of Pompey's simile. In the grove of Ammon, trees cannot make shade (9.529-30): *truncum vix protegit arbor: / tam brevis in medium radiis conpellitur umbra* ('hardly does the tree protect its trunk: its shade, so slight, is driven inward by Phoebus' rays'). Pompey is compared to a tree without leaves (1.139-40) *nudosque per aera ramos / effundens trunco, non frondibus, efficit umbram* ('and spreading bare branches from its trunk through the air, it makes no shade with leaves'). This nexus of imagery brings together in unequal conflict the symbols of Nero and Pompey. While the encomium articulates the narrator's hopes for the future, the grove introduces the reader to a dangerous side of the encomium's ideal scenario, the inescapability of the emperor's power, for which the sun's glare serves as metaphor.

When the narrator asks Nero to assume a central position in the sky in the encomium, he does so not to create the oppressive weather conditions, but to establish a trusting relationship between ruler and ruled, free of envy and suspicion on both sides. Yet the presence of the emperor, even assuming he adopts positive traits, is still an overwhelming force. If Nero is clement and just, Rome must still live with the fact of his power. Nero's *lumen* ('gaze' or 'glare') cannot be extricated from the spectacle of his vast power and its threat lies in the possibility that it might erode the personal autonomy

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the eastern sky warns that **Phoebus** was **pressing**...'). This parallel indicates that we should be prepared to consider a symbolic ambiguity between Phoebus Apollo and solar Apollo at other points in the poem.

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of the individual Roman aristocrat. It would do this by becoming the external source of authority to which all judgements are deferred. Since the danger is to an individual's autonomy and depends on the person's willpower and beliefs, the threat is there irrespective of whether the emperor is good or evil.

Cato's refusal has two particularly important features. It represents Cato's regulation of his own discourse and is interruption, before the fact, of the oracle's vatic discourse. In short, it is an 'intervention' to be compared and contrasted with those of Apollo. At the most immediate level, an oracle correctly foretelling the future could seriously obstruct Cato's war effort. Cato's refusal to consult has the indirect practical advantage of prolonging the fight against Caesar and consequently protracting the narrative.

As I hope to have shown in chapter 1, Lucan makes Apollo's association with closure iconic of an outmoded aesthetic, inadequate to the task of recounting the Roman civil war. Cato's intervention contrasts with the inadequate interventions of Apollo earlier in the poem and continues his resistance to invidious desire in book 9. In this passage Cato defines the concern which he substitutes for Apollo's interventionist motives: the preservation of moral identity and morally correct leadership against the efforts of his followers, motivated by desire for the familiar, to make him into a proponent of the rhetoric of *invidia* to whom they might surrender their minds.

Cato's refutation of Labienus' argument has a significant metaliterary allusion to the issues of Muse-poet relations (9.573-77):

haeremus cuncti superis, temploque tacente

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nil facimus non sponte dei; nec uocibus ullis
numen eget, dixitque **semel nascentibus** auctor
quidquid scire licet. sterilesne elegit harenas
ut caneret paucis …?

we are all rooted in the divine, and, even if the temple is silent
we do nothing without the will of the gods; nor does the divinity
need any voices. and **once** the divine author has spoken **to us at our birth**
whatever it is permitted to know. has [this divinity] chosen the barren
sands so that it can sing to a few …?

The language with which Cato describes communication between mortals and the divine carries a lexical parallel to Horace's version of Callimachus' assertion of the muse-poet relationship. Callimachus declares that the muses will not look askance (*loxo* = *obliquo*) on the poet in his old age, when they have smiled on him in his youth (*Aetia* 1.3.7-8). Equating *placido lumine* with *non obliquo*, Horace writes at *Odes* 4.3.1-2: *quem tu, Melpomene, **semel / nascentem** placido lumine videris* ('the one on whom **at birth** you, Melpomene, **once** looked with benign gaze …'). Taking the symbolic presence of Phoebus, the pun on the Nile, and the lexical parallel of *semel nascentem / semel nascentibus* together, we can see the metaliterary significance of 9.574-76 emerge.

The non-oblique look of the Muses is, in this passage, transferred to solar Phoebus, whose *lumen* ('light', or 'gaze') falls directly (*recto*) on the grove, rather than at an angle, or obliquely. The ambiguity between solar Phoebus and Phoebus Apollo

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recreates the conditions of deity-poet authorization, in order to deny the existence of a privileged relationship. The fact that Lucan does incorporate Phoebus Apollo twice in the poem shows that he could have done the same here and that his decision to do something different needs to be interpreted as a deliberate narrative strategy.

We should understand this allusive configuration as a refutation of the expressions in Horace and Callimachus of the Hesiodic tradition of a privileged relationship between poets and inspirational deities. Cato states that the divine *auctor* has implanted in everyone at birth all relevant moral knowledge. His refutation of the need for this or any oracle culminates in this question (9.576-77): *sterilesne elegit harenas / ut* ***caneret*** *paucis* [...?] ('has [this divinity] chosen the barren sands **to sing** to a few...?). The conventional ambiguity between poetic recitation and prophetic speech in the word *cano* is used to good effect here. Singing to a few, rather than to the crowd, is exactly what Callimachus and Horace meant to do – a doctrine supported by their claims to a special relationship to the Muses.

Cato and the Hercules Excursus

Book 9's mythical account of Hercules' assault on the garden of the Hesperides provides an important paradigm with which to contrast Cato and his visit to the temple of Jupiter-Ammon. The Hesperides account is heavily indebted to Apollonius' version of the tale in the *Argonautica*, as R. A. Shoaf establishes in what remains the most thorough study of Apollonius' significance for this episode to date.[41]

[41] R. A. Shoaf (1978) " 'Certius exemplar sapientis viri': Rhetorical Subversion and Subversive Rhetoric in *Pharsalia* 9," *Ph.Q.* 57, 143-53.

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In Apollonius' account, when the Argonauts are stranded on the shore of Lake Tritonis, looking out onto the Libyan desert, Aegle, a Hesperid, visits Jason in a dream and offers a prophecy containing the secret of how to escape the situation. She also reports to him in scathing language how Hercules came to their garden only the day before, killing their serpent and stealing their apples. Jason wakes and reports the dream to his comrades, one of whom, Peleus, correctly interprets it to mean that they must carry the Argo overland across the desert. At this point, the narrator apostrophizes (*Arg.* 4.1381-91), outlining how the Argonauts will carry their ship from Lake Tritonis across the desert, and emphasizing his obedience to the muses.

Cato's followers wreck on the same stretch of coastline as the Argonauts, on lake Tritonis (9.343-54). Lucan uses the occasion for a digression on Hercules and the garden of the Hesperides and a statement of his own literary principles (9.357-67). Lucan responds to Apollonius' apostrophe to the muses with his own literary manifesto (9.359-60): *inuidus, annoso qui famam derogat aeuo, / qui uates ad uera uocat* ('envious is he, who diminishes the fame of aged antiquity and calls bards to truth'). On Shoaf's reading, Lucan is acknowledging the generic friction between the different sorts of epic represented in the *Argonautica* and his own poem. Lucan thereby creates a space within the *BC* where the fantastic narratives of myth may exist, free of generic contradiction:[42]

> ...if Apollonius' poem can be described as an epic romance, Lucan's poem is rather an historical epic. As such, his poem has intrinsic limitations; to varying extents which are always problems

[42] Ibid., 146.

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in his rhetorical choices, Lucan is committed to the claims of historical verisimilitude.

Lucan explores the gap between his epic and Apollonius', but at the same time, as Shoaf notes, he advances a rationale for appropriating myth for use in his own tale.[43] This mention of the *invidus* poet's attitude toward ancient report and poetic falsehood is designed to establish a norm, according to which material outside the sphere of historical verisimilitude may be incorporated. Envious reading, as the narrator defines it, would exclude or diminish the fantastic.

Labienus explains the advantages and propriety of such a consultation in his effort to encourage his commander to address the oracle of Jupiter-Ammon (9.544-63). Labienus' specific request that Cato judge the oracle conforms to the narrator's definition of the *invidus* person's attitude toward *vates* and the past. Labienus specifically recommends passing judgement on the merit of the oracle's ancient reputation (9.546-48):

comitesque Catonem
orant exploret Libycum memorata per orbem
numina, **de fama tam longi iudicet aeui.**

... and his comrades
begged Cato to explore the divinity famous throughout the Libyan world, and to pass judgment on such an ancient reputation.

[43] Ibid., 146-47.

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The narrator, in the same passage in which he recounts Hercules' theft of the golden apples, denounces the removal of *fama* from antiquity (9.357-60):

> atque, insopiti quondam tutela draconis,
> Hesperidum pauper spoliatis frondibus hortus.
> **inuidus**, annoso qui famam **derogat** aeuo,
> qui uates ad uera uocat.
>
> once upon a time, the garden of the Hesperides, impoverished
> since the spoliation of its leaves, was the ward of a sleepless dragon.
> he is **envious**, who **diminishes** the fame of venerable antiquity,
> who calls bards to truth.

In addition to Shoaf's reading, there is the further sense that it is not just the rational undermining of legends such as Hercules and the golden apples, but diminishments such as Hercules brings about in the garden of the Hesperides, that the *invidus* person perpetrates. The envious rationalizer's act of 'diminishing' (*derogat*) parallels Hercules' act of stealing the apples, which diminishes the *fama* of the garden of the Hesperides by removing its most notable features.

The theft of the golden apples contrasts, however, with Cato's treatment of the oracle of Jupiter-Ammon. Where the acts of diminishment, committed by Hercules and the envious critic, remove from the legend its most famous and fantastic elements, Cato leaves the reputation of the oracle intact. Cato rejects Labienus' argument and replies with his own philosophical manifesto, leaving the oracle's *fides* (10.585) intact. We

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should therefore add Cato's decision not to challenge the oracle's authority to the list of contrasts Shoaf draws between his character and Apollonius' Hercules.[44] In leaving the oracle's reputation intact, Cato differs from Hercules, who diminishes the *fama* of the garden of the Hesperides, when he steals its treasure.

Cato and the Narrator

The narrator sets up Cato as an example of a type authority, which Cato, as Lucan draws him, does not wish to become. When Cato sets forth from the grove into the desert, the narrator proclaims that he would prefer Cato's march to any triumph, Pompey's included, and that, in a free Rome, Cato would be worthy of deification (9.596-604). The narrator's enthusiasm is at odds with Cato's mode of leadership. Cato's accomplishment at Siwa was to establish that the divine has no interest in exclusive relationships. Given the content of that speech, deifying Cato makes no more sense than deifying anyone else and should be considered to conflict with the narrator's earlier claim that the fact of deified mortals would be humanity's revenge on the gods for Pharsalus (7.455-59).

The narrator is plainly advancing Cato as a worthy mimetic model, an *exemplar honesti*, to use Labienus' phrase, but the degree of the narrator's praise is excessive and his choice of praise is odd, considering Cato is its object. Ahl sees Lucan's late Julio-Claudian mindset behind this. The reader should be cautious, however, as the story of Cato unfolds. The very power of Cato's overwhelming virtue and his persuasiveness in advocating his views create a problem: Cato's merits make him into a figure actually

[44] Ibid., 149-50.

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deserving (if anyone can be) of the universal submission Caesar strives to gain for himself. Paradoxically, in Cato's case, virtue could be potentially destructive of liberty, because, as a form of power, it is invincible on its own terms. If one esteems virtue beyond other considerations, one must submit to Cato.

In book 9 in particular, Lucan is exploring the problem of conceptualizing of positive authority on Republican terms. He recreates in his narrative the danger of slippage between Cato as a model for thoughtful imitation and Cato as an object of unquestioning adulation. Lucan sets up his enthusiastic narrator to forget Cato's insistence that his soldiers should fight for the laws, because it is in their interest, rather than for the benefit of a general. In this way, Lucan shows how a moral agent's meritorious actions may be undone, not just by by poor reading or competing agendas, but even by well-meaning, slow-witted zeal. If this is the case, it means that the character of Cato is struggling not only with the attitudes of his soldiers but also with the flawed perceptions of a narrator, who deeply admires him but does not quite understand what Cato is really trying to do. This disconnect between character and narrator reflects and hopefully preempts a similar disconnect between the audience and Cato.

The narrator, along with readers like him, resemble those trees at the shrine of Jupiter-Ammon, which are so evocative of Pompey's oak simile. Like the trees at Siwa, such readers are helpless against the *lumen* of Cato. Labienus and those like him are the type not to cultivate inner moral resources, but to seek the components of an identity outside themselves and are, in consequence, as defenseless against the glare of Cato's relentless spiritual-ideological fervor and clarifying perspective as the trees are against

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Phoebus, or Rome against Nero. Even as Cato extirpates the elements of this habit of enslaving oneself to outside sources of authority, he is at risk of becoming such an outside source to which his audience, Labienus or the reader, may enslave itself.

The fact that the narrator does not understand this element of Lucan's narrative only underscores how easily one may erroneously appropriate an *exemplar honesti*, irrespective of intention. In the last chapter, we saw Curio, in the pursuit of Caesar's objectives in Africa, perish in the attempt to reproduce Caesar's appropriation of Scipio Africanus. His reasoning was superficial and led to his undoing. Lucan shows, through the narrator's superficial praise of Cato, that error may arise in patriotic, ethically well-intended reasoning, no less than in cynical and self-serving scheming.

Medicinal Poetry: The Psylli

The ubiquitous possibility of committing error, the consequences of which undermine liberty as well as the attempt to find a good cause in the carnage of civil war, leaves one in doubt as to whether there could be any antidote for the human failings that create the conditions for such disaster. The allegorical interpretation of the snake episode, in which snake poison represents the destructive passions, suggests that the indigenous Libyan people called the Psylli may have an answer. They are skilled in treating snakebites and provide Cato's soldiers with much needed treatment and relief (9.890ff.). Their method of fighting the effects of snake poison involves the recitation of *carmina*, or medicinal spells (9.927-31):

> plurima tunc volvit spumanti **carmina** lingua
> murmure continuo, nec dat suspiria cursus

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volneris, aut minimum patiuntur fata tacere.
saepe quidem pestis nigris inserta medullis
excantata fugit;

then with endless murmuring he turns on his foaming tongue
a multitude of *spells*, nor does the progress of the injury
allow a moment's breath, nor do the fates permit him to be silent for even
a little. often, indeed, the poison, insinuated into the black marrow,
flees, driven out by the spell;

The *carmina* should also be understood in the sense of 'song'. The Psylli's ability to actually cure the victims of these poisons through their *carmina* makes them indispensable to Cato or any leader concerned for the well-being of his followers in this landscape.

If we understand the reference to *carmina* as marking the Psylli as poet figures, the fact that they can heal the poison of these snakes in particular is highly significant. As Leigh has shown, the various poisons act as metaphors for the human passions.[45] The fact that the lethal threat posed by these highly symbolic snake poisons is termed *invidia* indicates that *carmina*, capable of curing them, is also capable of addressing the central issues of Lucan's poem. Unfortunately, these *carmina*, insofar as they are a product of the medicinal knowledge of a little known people on the fringe of the world, represent extremely specialized knowledge. If we take the cure metaphorically, referring to the

[45] Leigh (1997) 267-73.

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reacquisition of psychological stability, after the madness of civil war, then the narrator of the *BC*, utterly at the mercy of his passions for much of the poem, quite clearly does not possess it.

Let us consider Lucan's description of the Psylli's customs with reference to the encomium and grove passages (9.902-8):

> utque Iovis volucer, calido cum protulit ovo
> inplumes natos, solis convertit ad ortus:
> qui potuere pati radios et lumine recto
> sustinuere diem, caeli servantur in usus,
> qui Phoebo cessere, iacent: sic pignora gentis
> Psyllus habet, si quis tactos non horruit angues,
> si quis donatis lusit serpentibus infans.

> as the bird of Jove, when it has taken its unfeathered children
> from the warm egg, turns them to the sunrise:
> those who can endure the rays and withstand daylight's
> direct glare are preserved for heaven's work,
> those who yield to Phoebus are abandoned: in this way the Psylli
> preserves the integrity of his race – whichever child does not shrink
> from touching snakes or playing with serpents given to him as gifts.

The eagle, the bird of Jupiter, has obvious significance for Rome. The equation of the Psylli's introduction of their children to serpent poison with how the eagle tests its

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young's ability to look directly upon the sun links the Psylli with the poem's contemporary Roman subtext.

The *lumine recto* of the sun standing at center heaven recalls the posture of *non obliquo* (= *recto*) *sidere* which Lucan asks of Nero in the encomium. They are a symbolic paradigm for the Roman poet, living under a Caesar. Just as the eagle must be able to gaze unflinchingly upon the sun and the Psylli children play with snakes, the aristocratic Roman poet must sustain the emperor's direct gaze and extirpate the inner impulses to civil violence. The Psylli are a boon to those who are lost in their landscape (9.909-11): *nec solum gens illa sua contenta salute / excubat hospitibus, contraque nocentia monstra / Psyllus adest populis* ('that race, not content only with its own safety, helps strangers too and the Psyllus helps humanity against harmful monsters').

In chapter 1, the narrator asserts his right to speak to Nero and to address politically sensitive subject matter, even as he also assures Nero of his loyalty. This is the sort of conduct that is symbolized that the discussion of the Psylli children and young eaglets symbolizes. Interaction with the emperor, in a manner befitting aristocratic dignity, is equivalent to looking directly at the sun. It may also be like handling Libya's allegorical serpents. Proximity to the emperor, or simply to power and wealth, may arouse destructive passions of the sort that the *dipsas* and his cohorts evoke. If so, the *vates* capable of singing *carmina* such as the Psylli would be of considerable value in Rome.

Does Lucan represent such a vatic force? Certainly the narrator does not. The fact that the narrator does not, however, is what makes the poem an interrogative text.

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The interaction of audience and interrogative text, with its examples of immoral persuasion and erroneous interpretation, may provoke the audience to examine the fundamental questions of morality and authority, which the poem addresses. Hence, while the unreliable narrator offers no cure, Lucan's complex, interrogative poem may direct the reader toward one.

The Ending

There are several aspects concerning the actual point at which the poem ends, which merit discussion. For reasons I have set forth in the introduction, I believe that the envy theme is more pronounced if we consider that the poem ends at 10.546, because it is the moment of maximum *invidia* on the part of the narrator and the audience for Caesar. This is *invidia* of the nemesis script, resentment of the man whose claims were so grandiose, yet who has fallen so far short of them at this moment.

The final scene on Pharos is a unique moment in the poem. Had Cato accepted the trickle of water, it would have a parallel, but he did not and thus avoided incurring *invidia*. I have argued that the Pharos episode represents a redirection of the *invidia* that propelled Caesar through the poem and which frequently marked the narrator's response to him. As such it is more than the sort of occurrence examined in chapter 2, in which *invidia* is used to manipulate others.

The difference is that *invidia* has here overwhelmed one of the main characters. It does not come now as a force of malign inspiration, as it did in book 1 when Curio convinced Caesar to launch civil war. Rather, it is a hostile marginalizing force, which

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invokes the audience's blame. It is exactly the sort of *invidia/livor/phthonos* which poets normally eschew. It threatens a significant narrative in the poem, indeed, perhaps almost the only remaining narrative in the poem.

The role of Callimachus' *Hymn to Apollo* in book 1's closural pattern is matched by a similar purpose in book 10, where it offers context for narrative closure for the poem, as a whole rather than just for book 10. Acoreus translates Callimachus' Euphrates and Apollo into his own natural philosophical idiom, where they become the Nile and solar Phoebus. I have further argued that this is an inversion of the Callimachean formula. In book 10, the river symbolizes resistance to envy and solar Phoebus represents the envious desire to consume all forms of resistance to oneself.

On Pharos, however, something happens which is reminiscent of book 1's adaptation of the Callimachean episode. There, Nigidius Figulus prays for a protracted civil war because peace would bring a master. In addition to recalling the Callimachean *Phthonos*' preference for endless narrative, it also means the endless free play of *invidia*, expressed in its most violent mode, civil war. In response to both aspects of the request, Apollo, through the matron, intervenes and their combined prophetic utterance ends the book.

In book 9, Cato averts *invidia* and gives an oracular speech in place of Jupiter-Ammon explaining why there is no need to seek out allegedly divine assurances. As we saw, his speech further dispenses with need for musagetic authority, through allusion to Horace, *Odes*, 4.3.16. This sequence of scenes, beginning with the rejection of the water and continuing through Cato's speech before the temple of Jupiter-Ammon, I have

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argued, redefines the nature of Lucan's epic. There is a new rationale for why we have seen so few gods and encountered them in such odd ways. After book 9, Apollo is not required. He need not intervene as he does in books 1 and 5. The narrator has realized a degree of control he did not have before.

So, when *invidia* bursts into the narrative, the narrator, who does not shrink from recounting Caesar's disgraceful circumstances, takes appropriate interventionary action. He ends the poem. This ending represents the skillful combination of his roles as an epic *vates* and as 'blame' poet. As I discussed in the introduction, the two should be mutually exclusive, on traditional terms; yet, Lucan's schizophrenic narrative persona allows him to carry it off. Following the example of Callimachus and Homer, in the Thersites and Irus episodes, Lucan expels the recipient of the poem's *invidia*/*phthonos*, who is at the same time its agent; or, in Callimachus' case, it is *Phthonos* itself.

Dardanius Caput: *Aeneid* 10 and *BC* 10

In the introduction, I discussed the intratextual associations between the appearances of Scaeva in books 6 and 10. This must be considered along side an important intertextual allusion to *Aeneid* 10 in the last lines of *BC* 10, which has yet to receive discussion in the scholarship. At the end of book 10, Lucan reports the attack of the Egyptians on Caesar and his troops at Pharos in language recalling Virgil's description of the Rutulian assault on the Trojan camp at *Aeneid* 10.118-31. Aeneas is absent, leaving his army to defend Iulus (*Aen.*, 10.118-22):

interea Rutuli portis circum omnibus instant

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sternere caede viros et moenia cingere flammis.
at legio Aeneadum vallis obsessa tenetur
nec spes ulla fugae. miseri stant turribus altis
nequiquam et rara muros cinxere corona...

in the meantime the Rutulians bore down around all the gates
spilling men out in slaughtter and ringing the walls with fire.
but the legion of the Aeneadae was surrounded, contained by trenches
nor was there any hope of escape. the wretched men stood on the high
towers in vain and ringed the walls with a sparse crown of men...

Lucan's Caesar is clearly in the situation of his ancestor, Iulus. He is the new *Dardanius caput* and *Veneris iustissima cura*. Caesar has already been compared to an unwarlike boy, a *puer imbellis* (10.458), a description he shares with the young Ptolemy (10.351). The description of the threat faced by the *legio Aeneadum* matches Caesar's position on Pharos. Virgil sums up the situation of the beseiged Trojans (*Aen.*, 10.121): *nec spes ulla fugae* ('nor was there any hope of escape').

Although both Iulus and Julius survive their respective scenes, Lucan's narrator expands the Virgilian description of hopelessness. Each word of Virgil's expression, *spes*, *ulla*, and *fuga*, has its own clause (10.538-39): *via **nulla** salutis / non **fuga**, non virtus; vix **spes** quoque mortis honestae* ('there was no path of safety, no flight, no courage; hardly was there even hope of an honorable death'). Lucan's narrator takes pains to emphasize the terminal quality of Caesar's situation.

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Following a catalogue of heroes, Virgil describes Iulus and gives him a memorable simile, likening him to an inset gem (*Aen.*,10.132-38):

> ipse inter medios, Veneris iustissima cura,
> Dardanius caput, ecce, puer detectus honestum,
> qualis gemma micat fulvum quae dividit aurum,
> aut collo decus aut capiti, uel quale per artem
> inclusum buxo aut Oricia terebintho
> lucet ebur; fusos ceruix cui lactea crinis
> accipit et molli subnectens circulus auro.
>
> the Dardanian head, the truest concern of Venus,
> himself between the middlemost, see, he is revealed as a son of noble
> parents, he glitters like a gem which divides the yellow gold,
> a decoration either for the throat or hair, or like ivory
> gleams, when through skill it is set in boxwood or
> Orician terebinth; the milky neck receives flowing
> hair and the circlet is fastened beneath with soft gold.

Although Lucan does not include an equivalent simile, he does reproduce its circumstance. Developing the head image, Virgil rings Iulus-*caput* with a *corona* ('crown') of defenders. Caesar, on the other hand, is not crowned with defenders; he is, rather, circled by fear (10.536-37): *...dux Latius tota subitus formidine belli / cingitur...* ('the Latian commander is girded with the terror of war').

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Further, the gem simile is clearly the most striking part of the passage to which Lucan alludes. Although Lucan does not reference it directly, he might well expect his audience to remember it, if they picked up on the other allusions to *Aeneid* 10. Its first words are particularly significant; or, more specifically, its second word is particularly significant. When Caesar arrives in Alexandria, he is presented with Pompey's *caput*. At the end of book 10, on Pharos, a rehearsal for his death plays out: his own *caput* is now at stake. Caesar is also a *caput* in the sense in which it is used when Caesar seeks from Acoreus the location of the *ignotum caput* of the Nile, its 'unknown source'. Like Iulus, Caesar is a *caput*, a source of the Julio-Claudian dynasty.

In Virgil, Iulus represents the future. Without him, the Julio-Claudians do not exist. As Lucan reads Virgil, he is only too aware of this fact. In Virgil, the peril of Iulus bespeaks a moment of uncertainty, when, at least to the characters, it seems as though the tide could turn against the Trojans. If, for whatever reason, Lucan thought of these lines as an end, it was surely because of a resonance he perceived with the rest of his poem. The allusion to Virgil's description of the endangered Iulus not only furthers Lucan's image of Caesar in book 10 as a helpless child, it also emphasizes what the narrator has stressed all along, the ways in which history could have gone in a different direction.

The narrator's emphasis on historical contingency contrasts with and augments the authority of Acoreus' assertion of the Nile's immovable cosmic purpose. A comparison of their respective presentations in book 10 easily confirms that the Nile's unchanging resistance to the sun, as well as to curious tyrants, comes across as far more powerful than Caesar's role as an *imbellis puer*. Book 10's augmentation of

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epistemological authority, in fact, initially takes the form of a repulse of Caesar's *invidia*, which, like Alexander's, compels him to find the source of the Nile. In the second half of book 10 the resulting dimunition of Caesar's character generates *invidia* against him, which becomes the means of ending the poem on a note favorable to the pro-Pompeian historical inclinations of the narrator.

The appearance of Scaeva in book 10 also has a place in the passage's intertextuality with this passage in the *Aeneid*. After the gem simile another brief catalogue of heroes follows, in which a certain Mnestheus is celebrated in advance for the courage he will display, after the end of the poem, when he fights on the broken walls of Ardea, Turnus' home city (10.143-44):

> adfuit et Mnestheus, quem pulsi pristina Turni
> aggere murorum sublimem gloria tollit...
>
> And Mnestheus was present, whom on the barricade
> of Turnus' walls, ancient glory raised on high...

Virgil does less with these lines than Lucan does with his allusion to them, which takes the form of Scaeva's reappearance in a manner evocative of Virgil's Mnestheus (10.543-46):

> ...respexit in agmine denso
> Scaevam perpetuae meritum iam nomina famae
> ad campos, Epidamne, tuos, ubi solus apertis
> obsedit muris calcantem moenia Magnum.

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...[Caesar] saw behind him in the dense battle line
Scaeva who had already earned a name of everlasting fame
on your fields, Epidamnus, where alone in the open breach
he besieged Magnus who was trampling down the walls.

In Lucan, Mnestheus becomes Scaeva and the walls of Turnus' city of Ardea become the walls of Dyrrachium. Significantly, Mnestheus's fame is associated with the future battle of Ardea, but Scaeva's with the past battle of Dyrrachium. The emphasis on the past makes the passage into a boundary over which nothing is permitted to pass.

In this connection, Caesar's backward glance (*respexit*) is iconic of the construction of the scene generally. Lucan reorients the perspective toward the past, looping back into the story he has just recounted. At a more general level, the figure of Virgil's Mnestheus enables Lucan to reintegrate Scaeva in a manner that intensifies the passage's allusive focus on *Aeneid* 10.

John Henderson notes Lucan's curious emphasis on the *apertis muris* ('open walls'), in which Scaeva fights the attacking Pompeians and the interesting twist of phrase, which has Scaeva single-handedly (*solus*) besieging (*obsedit*) Pompey as he stamps down the walls. These walls are, in Henderson's description, "...closures that aren't closed."[46] Henderson ventures the possibility that this formulation contrasts with the closure that does close; i.e. the end of the poem at 10.546.[47]

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[46] Henderson (1988) 152.

[47] Ibid.

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This observation should be considered in connection with the end of the Nile speech. The conjunction of *apertis* and *muris* reproduces the emphasis on openness and negated limits with which Acoreus ends his speech. The priest emphasizes the Nile's capacity to resist closure at the conclusion of his own speech on the Nile (10.330-31): *prima tibi campos permittit **apertaque** Memphis / rura **modumque** vetat **crescendi ponere** ripas* ('Memphis first permits its plains and **open** fields and forbids your banks **to set a limit** to your **growth**'). This conclusion to Acoreus' speech recalls and revises the narrator's cosmic rule on the fall of great things (1.81-82): *in se magna ruunt: laetis hunc numina rebus / **crescendi posuere modum*** ('great things fall upon themselves: the gods put this limit upon the growth of prosperous affairs).

Acoreus inscribes in the poem the power of nature as a form of resistance to envy. At the same time, he also inscribes the power of natural philosophy and rhetorically maximizes its impact by concluding his speech with an emphasis on the Nile's limitless power. The narrator, by ending at 10.546, does much the same thing. The Nile speech, which denies to Caesar the epistemological form of power he seeks, begins the process of diminishment that accelerates through the rest of book 10. The narrator breaks off the poem at the extreme point of Caesar's diminishment, immediately before he would have had to recount how Caesar daringly escaped to safety. It is an ending for effect, which calls down *invidia* on its antagonist, but does not pretend to more than it accomplishes. It is an 'open closure'. The discourse of civil war, the *invida fatorum series*, will continue on as before in history. The narrator, however, has wrested control of the poem from Caesar and turned the tables on him at the end.

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